Notes on the races, castes and trades of eastern Bengal / by James Wise
Wise, James.
[Place of publication not identified] : [publisher not identified], [1883]

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A. R. Wills.

NOTES

ON THE

RACES, CASTES, AND TRADES

OF

EASTERN BENGAL.

BY

JAMES WISE, M.D.

NOT PUBLISHED.

LONDON:
HARRISON AND SONS, ST. MARTIN'S LANE,
Printers in Ordinary to Her Majesty.

1883.

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INTRODUCTION.

THE district of Dacca, and the various races now inhabiting it, form the subject of the following pages. This tract, situated between the river Ganges, Brahmaputra, and Meghna, is an irregular triangle, with its apex at the junction of the there rivers, while the base, running nearly east and west, is formed by several insignificant streams. On the north is the Zillah, or province, of Mymensingh, on the east Tipperah, on the south Báqirganj, and on the west Farrídpúr.

Numerous rivers traverse the district of Dacca, the majority of which, fordable in the hot season, are navigable during the rains. These rivers, flowing for the most part through alluvial plains, are subject to periodic floods, which undermine the banks and destroy the islands and "Churs." Their beds are gradually being raised by silt, and in a single season the physical aspect of a whole country may be changed. A fallen tree often diverts the course of a stream, and a sunken boat has been known to block up the channel of an important river.

The annual inundations submerge the whole country, and during July and August boats sail from village to village without difficulty. The level of the land, highest at the riverside, gradually falls away from the banks, consequently it is here the inhabitants build their houses.

Included in the Dacca district are two divisions differing from one another in almost every respect, and forming distinct geological tracts.[1] The first, embracing the Bhowál and Madhupúr jungles, consists of low ranges of hillocks (Ṭílá), running in parallel lines, with moist valleys (Baíd) between. The ridges,

[1] By Hindi speaking races these two formations are distinguished as Bhágnar and Khádar.

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of the red laterite formation,[1] are rich in iron ore; the valleys, of a stiff black loam, bear luxuriant crops of rice. The "Ṣál" (*Shorea robusta*) and date palm grow indigenously, and in its forests the tiger, bear, wild elephant, and "Sámbar"[2] still make their home. The greater portion, an unproductive waste with few inhabitants, is not only interesting as a debatable land separating the Hindus of the plains from the hillmen of the eastern frontier, but as a district in one part occupied by races alien to the natives of Bengal, in another by a mongrel and semi-Hinduized people disowned by all.

The second division is the alluvial, formed by the great rivers Ganges and Brahmaputra, and conterminous with their deltas. It is one continuous plain, without a knoll or rock to break its uniform flatness, as well as a boundless rice garden baked hard by a fierce sun and scorching winds in March and April, flooded during the rains, and transformed into a swamp by the cold drying breezes of December and January. The villages are raised above the flood on artificial mounds, and all communication is carried on by boats. In spite of fevers, cholera, and smallpox, the population, though sickly, is steadily increasing.

The climate of these two divisions differs little. The annual temperature averages 77·1°. The maximum in the shade seldom rises to 90° in May or September; and the minimum rarely falls to 50° in January. The hot months are more agreeable than in Calcutta, but the cold are less bracing. September and October are most relaxing, but February and March are very benign and pleasant. The average annual rainfall is 74·5 inches. Beginning in the first week of June the rains cease in September, although heavy thunder showers occur in October and November. The luxuriant vegetation indicates the prevalence of great humidity and heat The high tempe-

[1] By the people of Dacca Bhowál is usually called the "Tengar Mulk," probably from the Hindi "Tegrá," rising ground.

[2] The "*Rusa Aristotelis*." In Dacca it is known as the "Ghaus," a corruption of the Persian "Gauz," an elk or deer.

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rature and moist atmosphere render the use of a vegetable diet necessary, and favour the cultivation of rice. In all parts "Paddy" is grown, but the experience of ages has taught that one soil is suited for the winter, another for the spring or summer crop. Of late years a large area has been planted with jute, which has become, next to rice, the principal article of export. But Dacca also produces cotton, safflower, mustard, chillies, tobacco, sesamum, sugar cane, and various pulses, while indigo was formerly extensively cultivated. The successful cultivation of these products, however, is only secured by a perpetual warfare against the encroachments of weeds and the attacks of insects.

A country enjoying so many advantages, and providing such an abundant supply of food, has determined the general occupation of the inhabitants. There being no pastures, the large majority of the population are agricultural labourers, engaged in cultivating the rich alluvial soil. From the earliest recorded times Bengal has been inhabited by a numerous and prosperous people, who, satisfied with their lot, rarely took part in the civil commotions raging around them. The large tidal rivers, again, abounding in fish and affording every facility for the transport of grain and other commodities, developed a race of hardy boatmen, who are still the finest specimens of Bengali manhood. The economic and personal wants of the inhabitants stimulated the growth of manufactures. Cotton cloth was woven from the earliest times, and a rude and brittle earthenware fashioned, but it is extremely doubtful if any other productions, requiring either delicacy of taste, or originality, ever rose above mediocrity.

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2. "Antiquities of Dacca," engraved by J. Landseer from drawings by Sir Charles D'Oyly, Bart. London, 1814–27, fol. The text gives a great deal of information regarding the architectural remains of the city.

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Darwesh.— (*a*) CHISHTÍA — (*b*) QÁDIRÍA — (*c*) NAQSHBANDÍ — (*d*) RAFA'Í — (*e*) MADÁRÍA.
Darzí.
Dastár-band.
Dast-farosh.
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Dhuníyá.
Fálúda-wálah.
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Juláha.
Júti-walah.
Kahhál.

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Kághazí.
Kalwár.
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A. F. Gilks.

NOTES

ON THE

RACES, CASTES, AND TRADES

OF

EASTERN BENGAL.

MUHAMMADAN.

THE most interesting fact revealed by the census of 1872 was the enormous host of Muhammadans resident in Lower Bengal—not massed around the old capitals, but in the alluvial plains of the Delta. In Dacca, for instance, the Muhammadans were very slightly in excess of the Hindus; in Maldah they formed 46 per cent. of the population; in Murshídábád 45 per cent.; and in Patna only 12 per cent. On the other hand, in the swampy tracts of Báqirganj, Tipperah, and Mymensingh they comprised nearly 54 per cent. of the people. This result was unexpected, and contrary to the conclusions arrived at from earlier inquiries, which, though obviously defective, were generally accepted as almost correct.

The history of the spread of the Muhammadan faith in Lower and Eastern Bengal is a subject of such vast importance at the present day as to merit a careful and minute examination.

The farther we advance in our knowledge of the early history of Bengal the more certain is it, that previous to the eighteenth century the Hindu inhabitants of Bengal far exceeded the Muhammadan in numbers, and as late as the sixteenth century three of the five Bhúyas, or leaders, of Lower Bengal, were Hindu chiefs commanding Hindu armies.

The enthusiastic soldiers, who, in the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries, spread the faith of Islám among the timid races of Bengal, made forcible conversions by the sword, and, penetrating the dense forests of the Eastern frontier, planted the

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crescent in the villages of Silhet. Tradition still preserves the names of Ádam Shahíd, Sháh Jalál Mujarrad, and Kárfármá Cáhib, as three of the most successful and most bigoted of these enthusiasts.

As early as A.D. 1338 a Muhammadan king ruled over the Eastern districts from Sunnárgaon, and for a century and a half that city was the provisional residence of the rulers of Bengal. Although situated on the borders of the Empire, and surrounded by brave and aggressive races, Sunnárgaon attracted crowds of holy men and fanatics, whose mouldering tombs still mark the site of the ancient city. From it was summoned the preceptor, who trained the persecuting Jaláluddín in the doctrines of his intolerant creed, and to its families of Khwánd-Kárs, Eastern Bengal looked for its supply of Muhammadan instructors. During the five centuries and a half of Muhammadan rule in Eastern Bengal, we only hear of one wholesale persecution of the subject Hindus, and that was waged by Jaláluddín, the apostate, from A.D. 1414 to 1430. The only conditions he offered were the Koran, or death, and it is said that, rather than submit to such terms, many Hindus fled to Kámrúp, and the jungles of Asam and Kachhár, but it is nevertheless probable that more Muhammadans were added to Islám during these seventeen years than in the next three hundred.

In Muhammadan histories no mention is made of any large Muhammadan immigration from Upper India; and we know that in the reign of Akbar the climate of Bengal was considered so uncongenial to the Mughal invaders, that an order to proceed thither was regarded as a sentence of banishment. The Viceroys and nobles governing Bengal amassed wealth rapidly, and returned to spend it in the luxurious palaces of Delhi and Agra, while only a few officers and private soldiers, having married into native families, remained and settled in their new homes. While, therefore, each seat of government, and each military station, was in early times more or less a centre of missionary agitation, we find another agency from across the seas working towards the same ends, uninfluenced by the policy of the Delhi Court. On the south-eastern frontier of Bengal, a hardy and enterprising class of Muhammadans have been settled from the earliest historical times; and long before the first European landed at Chittagong, Arab merchants carried on an extensive and lucrative trade with its inhabitants, and disseminated their religious ideas among the people. How or when the dwellers on that coast became Mussulmán is unknown,[1] but when Barbosa visited

[1] The people of Chittagong, however, ascribe their conversion to an invasion of their country by Nuçrat Sháh in the sixteenth century.—"J. A. S. of Calcutta," No. 4, 1872, p. 338.

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Bengal at the beginning of the sixteenth century, he found the inhabitants of the interior, Gentiles, subject to the King of Bengal, who was a Moor; while the seaports were inhabited by Moors and Gentiles. He also met with many foreigners, both Arabs, Persians, Abyssinians, and Indians, and adds, "every day many Gentiles turn Moors, to obtain the favour of the king and governors."[1] Cæsar Frederick,[2] and Vincent Le Blanc,[3] who were in Bengal about 1570, also inform us that the island of Sondíp was then inhabited by Moors. In the sixteenth century, therefore, Chittagong was a centre from which an unceasing propagandism was carried on.

Wherever Muhammadan rule exists, slavery is developed, and during the centuries of misrule and oppression, through which Bengal passed, slavery was accepted by the Hindus as a refuge for their troubles. Bengal has for its encouragement of slavery always possessed an unenviable notoriety, and the Delhi Court obtained not only its slaves, but also its eunuchs, from the villages of Eastern Bengal. The incursions of Asamese, and Mags, the famines, pestilences, and civil wars impoverished and hardened the people, and drove them in sheer desperation to sell their children as Mussulmán slaves. The treatment of these slaves was humane, and their position comparatively a good one, as they were allowed to marry, and their families, supported by the master, added to the number of Islám.

Stories of forcible conversion, such as the following, are however narrated by the Muhammadans themselves, without any feelings of shame, or astonishment. While the Muhammadan population was still scattered, it was customary for each householder to hang an earthern water-pot (badhná) from his thatched roof, as a sign of his religious belief. One day a Maulaví, after some years' absence, went to visit a disciple, who lived in the centre of a Hindu village, but could not find the "badhná." On inquiry he was told that the Mussulmán villager had renounced his faith, and joined an outcast tribe. On his return to the city, the circumstances being reported to the Nawáb, a detachment of troops was ordered out, the village surrounded, and every person in it compelled to become Muhammadan.

Another class of Hindus voluntarily turned Muhammadans, as the only means of escaping punishment for murder, or adultery, as this step was considered full atonement for either crime.[4]

In later times this compulsory system was still farther

[1] A description of the coasts of East Africa and Malabar, Hakluyt Society, 1866.
[2] "Hackluyt's Navigations," ii, 213–241.
[3] "Les Voyages fameux du Sieur Vincent Le Blanc," p. 273.
[4] "Bernier," vol. i, 144. "Voyages de Le Goowz," p. 157.

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extended. The tyrannical Murshíd Julí Khán enforced a law that any Amal, or Zamíndár, failing to pay the revenue that was due, or being unable to make good the loss, should with his wife and children be compelled to become Muhammadans.[1] Furthermore, it was the common law that any Hindu forfeiting his caste by a breach of regulations could only be reinstated by the Muhammadan Government, and, if it refused to interfere, the delinquent remained an outcast, ultimately taking shelter in the ranks of the Faithful. The same right was at first claimed by the English Government; but in 1769 it was abandoned, "there being no longer the necessity of publicly asserting the subordination of Hindus to Muhammadans."[2]

As late as 1791, Dr. Robertson maintained that the Muhammadans of India were "the descendants of adventurers, who have been pouring in from Tartary, Persia, and Arabia ever since the invasion of Mahmúd of Ghazní, A.D. 1002."[3]

When English magistrates first came in contact with the people of Bengal, they arrived at the conclusion that the Muhammadans only comprise one per cent. of the population,[4] and this estimate, formed on very insufficient ground, was generally assumed to be approximately correct.

In 1830 the first census of the city of Dacca was taken by Mr. H. Walters, who estimated the native population at 66,667, of whom 35,238 were Muhammadans, 31,429 Hindus.[5] Even as late as 1839, Mr. Taylor asserts[6] that the population of the district consists of Hindus and Muhammadans in nearly equal proportions; but in the city the latter constitute the principal portion of the inhabitants, their numbers, in 1838, exceeding that of the Hindus to the extent of 4,309, in a population of 60,617. The Revenue Survey, again,[7] as the result of their inquiries, arrived at the conclusion that the population of the Dacca district, between 1857 and 1860, consisted of—

Hindus	455,182
Muhammadans	449,223
Christians	210
Total	904,615

[1] Gladwin's Narrative, quoted in "Harington's Analysis," iii, 274.

[2] Proceedings of Fort William Select Committee, dated August 16th, 1769.

[3] An historical disquisition concerning Ancient India in Robertson's Works, ii, 346.

[4] "Alexander Hamilton," ii, 25. "Luke Scrafton," in "Asiatic Annual Register," ii, 20. Governor Verelst, however, asserts "that eight out of ten were Gentoos."

[5] "Asiatic Researches," vol. xvii, 536.

[6] "Topography of Dacca," p. 243.

[7] "Principal heads of the History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," Calcutta, 1868.

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These estimates, often wonderfully correct, indicate the general conviction, up to the taking of the census of the whole of Bengal in 1872, when it was discovered for the first time that, in Lower Bengal alone, there were 17,608,730 Muhammadans, of whom 7,948,152, or 45 per cent., resided in the nine Eastern districts, while the total number of Hindus in the same province was 18,100,438. The Muhammadan element was, moreover, found to be strongest in Báqirganj (1,540,965), Mymensingh (1,519,635), Dacca (1,050,131), and Tipperah (993,564).

In the Dacca district, the Hindus only numbered 793,789, or 43·3 per cent. of the whole population; while in the city of Dacca the population was 34,433 Hindus, to 34,275 Muhammadans.

These figures all point to the conclusion that it is to a change of religion, and not to the immigration of any Muhammadan race, that the existing predominance of the Mussulmán element in Eastern Bengal is due. While the proportion of Muhammadans in Hindustan and Bihár is comparatively low, it has in Bengal gone on increasing, until it has reached its present surprising height, and there is no present appearance of its diminishing.

The reasons which forced many Hindus to turn renegades, during the Muhammadan rule, have been specified; but as most of these influences have disappeared under English law we must look to other motives, still prompting the Hindu to change his belief. The most potent influence undoubtedly at the present day is the attraction of Islám itself. Bengal was never properly an Aryan country, and the Aryans who did reside within its borders always held an uncertain footing among the aboriginal tribes, driven down the Gangetic valley by the conquering races of Hindustan. The Hindu priesthood was therefore forced to adopt the blood-stained deities of its neighbours, and to blend the more elevated religion of the Vedas with the barbarous rites of the indigenes. Nowhere was Hindúism so debased, and so corrupt, and nowhere have the masses who held aloof been treated with greater contumely and inhumanity.

When the Muhammadan armies poured into Bengal, it is hard to believe that they were not welcomed by the hewers of wood and drawers of water, and that many a despairing Chandál and Kaibartta joyfully embraced a religion that proclaimed the equality of all men, and which was the religion of the race, keeping in subjection their former oppressors. Hinduism had prohibited the outcast from residing in the same village as the twice-born Bráhman, had forced him to perform the most menial and repulsive occupations, and had virtually treated him as an animal undeserving of any pity; but Islám

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announced that the poor, as well as the rich, the slave and his master, the peasant and the prince, were of equal value in the eyes of God. Above all, the Bráhman held out no hopes of a future world to the most virtuous helot, while the Mulla not only proffered assurances of felicity in this world, but of an indefeasible inheritance in the next.

Such appear to be the main reasons for concluding that the Bengal Muhammadan of the present day is a converted Hindu, and not a scion of any Mughal or Pathán stock; but farther, if we examine a crowd of Bengali villagers at the present day one, and only one, type of features, of complexion and of physique pervades them all, and it is impossible for the most practised observer, setting aside the different styles of dress, the beards, and the hair, to distinguish between a Muhammadan and a Hindu peasant. A careful examination of fifty Muhammadans, and fifty Hindus, selected indiscriminately from convicts of the Dacca jail, gives the following averages :—

	Muhammadans.	Hindus.
Average age	33½ years . ..	32¾ years.
Height	5 feet 3½ inches ..	5 feet 4 inches.
Weight	7 stone 10 lbs. ..	7 stone 10 lbs.
Girth of chest	31 inches	32 inches.

Although the Muhammadan religion has spread, and is still spreading, among the low Hindu castes of Eastern Bengal, it is not to be inferred that the Muhammadans are an united body, as is generally assumed, without any divisions, or internal dissensions. It would, for instance, be impossible for the Arab to connect the corrupt Hinduized rites he witnesses in Bengal with those celebrated at Mecca, or to discern in the veneration of Pírs any relation to the orthodox faith.

Until the beginning of the nineteenth century the only great divisions of the Indian Mussulmáns were the Sunní and Shíah, the former predominating, sustained by the royal families of Dilhí, Haiderábád, Tonk, and Bhopál, the latter upheld by the dynasties of Golcondah, Lucknow, Murshídábád, and the Nawábs of Dacca.

The Shíah supremacy, lost during the anarchy of the eighteenth century, has never been regained; but the Sunní has gone on increasing, not as one harmonious whole, but by separation into rival, though mutually tolerant, sects. At the present day four sects, differing in many important particulars, especially in their sentiments regarding Christianity, disunite the Muhammadan population of Eastern Bengal.

These sects are the following :—

1. Sábiqí, who may be called the conservatives of the

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debased Hinduized religion peculiar to Muhammadan India. The majority of the landholders, and, with few exceptions, the descendants of the old Sunní families, belong to it.

2. Farazí, or those following the Farz, or divine command. Shari'atullah and his son Dudhu Miyán founded this, the most uncompromising sect of Sunnís, who, differing though little from the Wahábbí, repudiate that name and refuse to pray standing behind a person belonging to the first or third sect, or even to eat and drink with them.
3. Ta'aiyuní—from the Arabic Ta'aiyun, establishing, or manifesting; or Ráhí, from the Persian for a traveller—are the followers of Maulaví Karámat 'Alí and the Patna school, comprising the vast majority of the Dacca cultivators, thatchers, and hide merchants.
4. Rafi'-yadain, so called from their elevating their hands to the ears, each time that the words Alláh Akbar are pronounced in the course of prayer, while all the other sects only do so at the beginning of the invocation. They also fold their arms across the chest when praying instead of over the navel; and at the end of each supplication call out in a loud tone of voice Ámín, or Amen. They are the real Wahábbís of Eastern Bengal, and are said to be already more numerous than the Sábiqí. Many of the most enterprising and prosperous traders belong to this puritanical body.

The first, or Sábiqí, sect is in some respects the most interesting. It is the oldest, the most corrupt, and, until late years, it represented the dominant state religion. By a study of its heresies and superstitions we acquire a truer estimate of the paralysis that penetrated throughout the Muhammadan faith in Bengal, when the revival of the present day first dawned upon the people.

In no other country have the Muhammadans embodied so many infidel rites and customs with their own creed as in India, and M. Garcin de Tassy, in his interesting Memoir,[1] refers this to the too great simplicity of Islám for a country where an idolatrous and allegorical religion, appealing to the senses and imagination more than to the mind and heart, was prevalent. But, perhaps, the causes that corrupted the Hindu religion, namely, contact with alien and despised races, each having a peculiar cultus of its own, isolation from the cradle and centre

[1] "Memoire sur des Particularités de la Religion Musulmane dans l'Inde," p. 9.

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of its authority, and the paucity of numbers as compared with the millions of unbelievers around them, also tended in the case of the Muhammadans to produce greater liberality of feeling and more sympathy for the sentiments and religious observances of the aboriginal races. The local gods, the gods whom men sought after in times of trouble and sickness, were too near and dear to the inmost heart of the Hindu convert to be abolished without substitutes. It was much easier to give them an anthropomorphous form and to replace them by saints endowed with equal powers and with spirits of as easy access to the worshippers.

Whether one, or all of these causes combined, created the tolerant spirit, there is no doubt that with a few glaring exceptions the Muhammadan rulers of India have been, during the last three hundred years, on the whole remarkable for their freedom from bigotry, and for their forbearance to the other religions of the peninsula. Sikandar Lodí (1488–1516), the last persecutor of the Hindus, destroyed the holy shrines of Mathurá, and strictly prohibited the Hindus from shaving their heads or beards; from performing their regular ablutions, and from worshipping Sítalá, the goddess of smallpox.[1] It is to the enlightened Akbar that the tolerant policy of the Mughal dynasty is to be referred. He paid adoration in public to the sun and to fire in 1580; and on the full moon of Srávan employed Brahmans to fasten the "rakhí" on his wrists.[2] He, and his courtiers, married Hindu wives, and the name of Muhammad, though one of his own, was repudiated by the emperor.

His son, Jahángír, was a still more indifferent Muhammadan. During his reign the Díwalí Púja was kept, and cows were paraded in the royal gardens, while on the Sívarátrí, Jogis were invited to the palace, and the emperor ate with them. Moreover, in the eighth year of his reign, he celebrated his father's Sráddha in the mausoleum at Sikandrah, and the Muhammadan festivals, with the exception of the Shab-i-barát, being no longer observed, Parsí feasts were held instead, and seven out of eight of Akbar's grandsons received Parsí names.[3]

Dárá Shikoh, the eldest son of Sháh Jahán, was upbraided by his brother Aurangzib for not having even the resemblance of a Mussulman, and for composing a work, called Majmá-ul-bahrain, or the meeting of the two seas, having for its object the union of the Hindu and Muhammadan religious systems.

It is a well-known fact that most Indian Muhammadans

[1] Elliot's "History of India," vol. iv, 447, 448.
[2] "'Aín-i-Akbari" (Blochmann's Translation), i, 184.
[3] "Calcutta Review," October, 1869.

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depreciate the founder of their religion, and exalt the two martyred sons of 'Alí above him, and his immediate successors in the Khálifate.

The annual Muhammadan fast, again, is properly a Shíah ceremony, its observance and the preparation of Tázias, or models of the tombs of the two martyrs, Hasan and Husain, being prohibited by Sunní doctors. In reality there are only two great festivals enjoined by the Koran, namely, the Îd-ul-fiṭr at the end of the month of Ramazán, and the Îd-ul-Qurbán, or Baqr-îd, as it is popularly called, on the tenth of Zihiffa, the last month of the year.

The preparation of Tázias, until late years, was carried on in every Muhammadan village, and each strove to make a more gaudy model than its neighbour. Hindu Zamíndárs subscribed towards its expense as the Muhammadan landlords did to the Durga image, and, as M. de Tassy points out, many peculiarities of the one festival resemble those of the other. Both last ten days, and on the 'Ashúra, or Manzil-ka-din, of the Muharram, and on the Vijayá-dasamí of the Durga Púja h; the biers, and the images of Durga, are thrown into a river, or tank. In some respects, however, the procession of Tázias also resembles the Rath Játtrá of the Hindus, and at both the greatest merit is attributed to the persons dragging the car. In Dacca there is a peculiar similarity between the two. In former days one Níl Bahr built a cenotaph in honour of Bíbí Fátimah, and for many generations a paper Tázia, called Turbat Haidarí, has been deposited in it during the Muharram. On the night of the tenth day the oldest and most venerable man sleeps in the building. A Parí reveals to him the exact hour that the Tázia should be removed, and as that hour approaches it is placed on a platform, or Gaddí Níl Bahr, and crowds of Muhammadans assemble and struggle for the honourable post of carrier. When it has once started it must not be put down until the tank, where it is finally cast away, distant four miles, is reached. During the year the lower orders are in the habit of vowing that if their wishes are fulfilled, they will assist in carrying the Turbat; and at the Rauza, or cenotaph, crowds resort on the 'Ashúra day with offerings of pigeons, sweetmeats, and solah chaplets (sihrá).

Another peculiarity of the Indian Muharram is that two biers are represented, while in Persia only one, that of Husain, was formerly carried in procession. Again, Bengali Muhammadans believe that the two sons of 'Alí became martyrs on the same day, and that the great fast is held in honour of them both, although they actually died in different months at an interval of ten years.[1]

[1] Hasan was poisoned at Madínah, 28th Cafar, A.H. 50 (670); Husain was killed at Karbaláh, 10th Muharram, A.H. 61 (680).

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In India the Bárah-wafát, or anniversary of the death of Muhammad, is observed by the Sunnís, on the twelfth of Rabiá-ul-awal; while in Turkey, Egypt, and formerly at Akbar's Court,[1] that day is celebrated as the anniversary of the "Maulid," or birth of the prophet.[2]

In all parts of India, especially in the neighbourhood of Muhammadan cities, there is generally a mosque, known as the Qadam Rasúl, where a footprint of the prophet is carefully preserved. On the banks of the Lakhya, a few miles east of Dacca, is a very celebrated place of pilgrimage, built on a lofty mound, apparently the site of an old fort. At this mosque is kept a large slab of dark slate, fashioned into the shape of a footprint, which is exhibited to any pilgrim on the payment of a fee to the custodian. In the same way as the Gayáwál Bráhman earns a livelihood by showing the Vishnupad, the Mutawallí gains his by imposing upon the credulous and ignorant villager. Equally absurd is the veneration paid to hairs, gravely stated to have once belonged to the prophet's beard, or moustache; and on the capture of Delhi, in 1857, not the least valuable articles of prize were a few hairs which had been preserved as relics in the Jamá Masjid of that city.

What, however, chiefly distinguishes the Indian Muhammadan from his brethren of other lands is his servile veneration for Pírs, or holy men. The diptych of Indian saints is very voluminous, and each province of India, nay, every district and city, has its own patron saint. In Eastern Bengal they amount to a considerable number, the most famous being the following:—

Sháh Jalál Mujarrad Yamaní of Silhet.[3]
Pánch Pír
Munná Sháh Darwísh } of Sunnárgaon.[4]
Khúndkár Muhammad Yúsuf
Sháh 'Alí Bághdádí of Mírpúr.
Pír Badr Auliyá of Chittagong.
Sháh Jalál Dakhiní of Dacca.
Ádam Shahíd of Bikrampúr.

The dargáhs, or shrines, of these holy men are annually visited by hundreds of pilgrims, both Muhammadans and Hindus, who often undergo as much exposure and fatigue in reaching them as the strict Hindus on their pilgrimages to the sacred places of Jagannáth, or Brindában.

[1] Elliot's "History of India," v. 412.
[2] Muhammadans agree that Muhammad was born and died on the same day of the mouth.—"Calcutta Review," xxii, 366.
[3] "J. A. S. of Bengal," part i, No. 3, 1873.
[4] "J. A. S. of Bengal," part i, No. 1, 1874.

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The "Qanoon-i-Islám"[1] gives a list of the Muhammadan saints of India, but only one belongs to Bengal. The names and lives of four others are recorded in Mr. Blochmann's invaluable "Contributions."[2] The celebrity, however, of those of Bengal pales before that of Faríd Shakarganj, Qutbuddín, and Nizámuddín of Delhi, the three most famous saints of Hindustan.

The veneration paid by the Indian Mussulmán to his Pír equals, if it does not exceed, that paid by the Hindu to his Guru or Gosain. The former implicitly believes in his miraculous powers; in his ability to cure diseases, to make the sterile woman conceive, and, as in the case of Sháh Karím 'Alí, of Jagannáthpúr, in Tipperah, to raise from the dead, and to cause rain to fall when and where he pleases. Muhammadans, even the most intelligent, accept such stories without hesitation. According to them there is no antecedent improbability in a human being exercising powers which are generally considered to belong to God alone. There are three kinds of Pír recognised: the Pír taríqát, the Pír haqíqat, and Pír ma'rifat, who fulfil certain mystical duties towards the individual; but the term has also a wider signification, being often applied to a departed spirit, and even to any old and venerable person. A Pír, likewise, may be ancestral (Jaddí), or inherited (Khalafí).

In India it is customary for a disciple on approaching his Pír to make the obeisance Sijdah, touching the ground with the forehead, or the still more obsequious, Taslím, or Kornish, actions censured as most culpable by the Arabs and foreign Muhammadans generally.

From the earliest ages of Muhammad retirement from the world, self-abstraction, and contemplation, were habitually followed in the certain belief that by so doing complete authority over the powers of nature would be attained. Hindu philosophy had much to say to the creation of Muhammadan hermits; but it is probable also, that the example of the Ráhib, or Christian anchorites, who retired into the desert before the army of Khálid bin Walíd, prompted men to follow in their footsteps.

Not satisfied, however, with these innovations, the Indian Muhammadans have superadded the worship of certain mythical personages around whom have collected various traditions and romances. The following list includes the most important, as well as most popular, of these immortals.

[1] Pages 432–6.
[2] "J. A. S. of Bengal," part i, No. 3, 1873.

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1. *Khwájah Khizr.*

Who this person was is still a subject of dispute among Muhammadans. The eighteenth chapter of the Koran describes the expedition of Moses and Joshua in search of Al Khedr, called Zúlqarnain, a title by which Alexander the Great is known all over the East; hence it is inferred that Khwájah Khizr is no other than Alexander. Most commentators, however, identify him with Elias, or Elijah, who, having drunk of the water of life (áb-i-hayát), never tasted of death, and Mr. Deutsch informs us[1] that in the Talmud Elijah appears as a kind of immortal tutelary genius, who goes about in the garb of an Arab. Others affirm that he was the companion, counsellor, and commander-in-chief of the armies of Zúlqarnain, or Kaikobad; but in Asia Minor Khizr Elias is a name of St. George of Cappadocia.[2]

Whoever he was, Kwájah Khizr is believed at the present day to reside in the sea and rivers of India, protecting mariners from shipwreck, and to be only visible to those who accomplish a forty days' watch on the banks of a river.[3] Muhammadans of all ranks make vows to him in seasons of sickness, or trouble, and present offerings in acknowledgment of any blessing, such as the birth of a son, attributed to his intercession.

The festival of the Berá, or raft, is properly observed on the last Thursday of the Muhammadan year; but in Bengal it is held on the last Thursday of the Hindu month Bhádon (Aug.–Sept.), which corresponds with the breaking up of the rains. The festival is kept by Hindus, especially by boatmen and fishermen, as well as by Muhammadans. The Berá, usually made of paper, ornamented with tinsel, has a prow resembling a female face, with the crest and breast of a peacock, in imitation of the figure head on the bow of the Mor-pankhí pleasure-boat. The effigy placed on a raft of plantain stems is set afloat at sunset, and with its flickering lights gives a picturesque aspect to the dark and flooded stream. At Murshídábád, where the festival was first kept by Siráj-ud-daulah,[4] the Bagarathí is illuminated by hundreds of rafts floating with the stream, while the banks are crowded by the inhabitants.[5] It is the custom for the person

[1] "Quarterly Review," October, 1869.

[2] The legends about Khizr are not unknown to Western literature. To them we owe the beautiful poem of "The Hermit," by Parnell, and the tale of "L'Ermite" in Voltaire's Zadig. It is supposed that the story of Khizr in the Koran was brought to Europe by the Crusaders, was embalmed in the folklore of the West, until quickened by the pen of genius, and graced with the charms of an apologue, or moral tale.

[3] The person who is favoured in this way usually adopts the trade of a water-carrier (bihistí).

[4] "Siyar-ul-Mutakherin," translated by Hájí Muçtafa, ii, 533.

[5] A picture of this scene is given in Hodge's "Travels in India during the years 1780–83." (London, 1793.)

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launching a Berá to deposit on the bank a few slices of ginger, a little rice, and two or three plantains, which are usually snatched up by some wretched beggar.

Whether or no the modern idea of peopling the waters with deathless spirits was derived from the ancient Persians, or Hindus, it harmonized so well with the prepossessions of the Muhammadans as to be adopted without hesitation as a religious conception. It is, however, impossible with our present knowledge to explain why Khwájah Khizr, who is not regarded by other Oriental people as the guardian spirit of the waters, should have been selected as such in the Gangetic valley, more especially as in various parts of the Muhammadan world other fabulous persons are adopted by seafaring races. 'Abdul-Qádir Gilání and Abú-Zulaimah[1] control portions of the Eastern seas, while a female spirit, Máma Salmá, presides over the ocean beating against the cliffs of Rás Mosandim, at the entrance of the Persian gulf; and Indian mariners sailing past propitiate her by offerings of cocoanuts, fruits, and flowers.[2]

On the Coromandel coast again Qádir Walí Çáhib is the patron saint of sailors,[3] as Shaikh 'Alí Haidarí was at Cambay in the fourteenth century,[4] and Abu Ishaq al Kázrúní at Shíráz.

2. *Zindah Gházi.*

It is difficult to determine whether or not Zindah Ghází, Ghází Miyán, and the Sat Pír, are the same or different individuals, but there is a striking similarity in the fables appertaining to each. The woodcutters in all parts of the Sunderbuns invoke certain mythical beings to protect them from tigers and crocodiles. In the twenty-four Pergunnahs it is Mubarrá Ghází; in the eastern parts of the Delta it is Zindah Ghází, the immortal warrior; while by Hindu workmen it is Kálú-ráya, or Sív, riding on a tiger, holding in his right hand an arrow, in his left a bow.[5] Mubarrá Ghází is said to have been a faqír, who reclaimed the jungly tracts along the left bank of the river Huglí, and each village has an altar dedicated to him. No one will enter the forest, and no crew will sail though the district, without first of all making offerings at one of the shrines. The faqírs residing in these pestilential forests, claiming to be lineally descended from the Ghází, indicate with pieces of wood, called Sang, the exact limits within which the forest is to be cut.[6]

[1] "Pilgimage to El Medinah and Meccah," i, 194.
[2] "A Journey through Persia," by James Morier, p. 6.
[3] "Qanoon-i-Islám," p. 243.
[4] "Travels of Ibn Batuta" (Lee), p. 146, 43.
[5] Ward's "Hindus," iii, 186.
[6] "Statistical and Geographical Report of the twenty-four Pergunnahs

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Zindah Ghází, according to the legend, came to Bengal when Rájah Matak ruled over the Sunderbuns. He had a dispute with the monarch, who, convinced of being in the right, vowed to give his only daughter Shushila in marriage to him on its being shown that his, the Rájah's, opinion was wrong. This the Ghází did, and won his bride. As no man saw him die, he is believed to reside in the depths of the forest, to ride about on tigers, and to keep them so subservient to his will that they dare not touch a human being without his express commands. Before entering a jungle, or punting through the narrow channels, whose shady banks are infested by tigers, boatmen and wood-cutters, both Hindus and Muhammadans, raise little mounds of earth and make offerings on them of rice, plantains, and sweet-meats to Zindah Ghází, after which they fearlessly cut brushwood and linger in the most dangerous spots.

In Dacca there is a popular band of musicians known as Zindah Sháh Ghází ká gáyan, who recite songs in honour of the Ghází, and from whom the above particulars were obtained.

This strange myth, there cannot be any doubt, is merely the Hindu Kálú ráya converted into a Muhammadan immortal to suit the taste of the superstitious boatmen.

3. *Pír Badr.*

Besides Kwájah Khizr, Bengal supplies other animistic ideas regarding water, and Pír Badr shares with him the dominion of the rivers. This spirit is invoked by every sailor and fisherman, when starting on a cruise, or when overtaken by a squall or storm. All Muhammadans agree that he resided at Chittagong, but his history does not disclose the reason why the attributes of a water-demon were conferred on him. According to one account he was a shipwrecked Portuguese sailor, named "Pas Gual Peeris Botheilo," who reached the shore by clinging to a piece of wreck. The guardians of his shrine, however, say that about a hundred and fifty years ago, Pír Badr arrived at Chittagong "floating on a rock," and informed the terror-stricken inhabitants that he had come all the way from Akyab on this novel craft! The neighbourhood of Chittagong being then infested by Jins, or evil spirits, he exterminated them, and took possession of the whole country. The modern Dargáh, or cenotaph, of Pír Badr stands in the centre of Chittagong, and is regarded as the palladium of the city. Faqírs are the custodians, and the mosque with its rooms for pilgrims are kept scrupulously clean. On the walls of the cenotaph are ten niches for ten oil-

District," by Major R. Smyth, 1857. "Sang" is the Sanskrit for union, and the pegs of wood signify identity with the Ghází.

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lamps, which are lighted every evening and burn all night. Pilgrims from all parts of Bengal visit the Dargáh in fulfilment of vows, or to obtain the favour and intercession of the saint, while Hindu fishermen regard him with as much awe as the Muhammadans. His 'Urs, or festival, is celebrated annually on the twenty-ninth of Ramazán, the anniversary of his death. There can, however, be little doubt that Pír Badr is no other than Badruddín Badr-í-'Alam, for many years a resident of Chittagong, who died A.H. 844 (1440), and was buried in the Chhotá Dargáh of Bihár, but about whom we possess no further particulars.[1]

4. *Ghází Miyán.*

This much more celebrated personage is worshipped by both Hindus and Muhammadans, and his Shádí, or wedding, is a very popular entertainment throughout Hindustan. In the north-western parts of India he is identified with Sálár Mas'úd, the nephew of Mahmúd of Ghazní, who was born at Ajmír A.H. 405 (1014), and after performing prodigies of valour in battle against the infidels, and capturing Delhi and Ayodhya, settled at Bahráich in Oudh. Here he was attacked by the Hindus under Rái Sahar Deo and Har Deo, and in the battle that ensued he was killed and his army cut to pieces. This occurred on the fourteenth Rajab, A.H. 424 (1033).[2] Around this warrior's name strange and incredible stories have accumulated. It is believed in Oudh that the bones of the hero were only discovered in the fourteenth century, and that whilst being exhumed many miraculous events occurred;[3] but a native historian informs us[4] that Sikandar Lodí in the fifteenth century abolished throughout his dominions the annual procession of the spear of Sálár Mas'úd because of its being contrary to orthodox belief. No legislation, however, could stop such a popular holiday as this has always been.

It is perhaps impossible to explain the meaning of the absurd frolics indulged in throughout India by all classes when celebrating the Shádí of Ghází Miyán. Mr. Wilson[5] identified the Jhandí, or flag, of Sháh Madár with the spear of Ghází Miyán, and regards the Persian word "Shádí," used by the vulgar, as a corruption of the Arabic "Sháhidí," or testimony; hence martyrdom, or the death of a Muhammadan in a war with infidels.

In corroboration of this conclusion it is remarkable that at Gasyárí, in the Banda district, a fair is annually held in the

[1] "J. A. S. of Bengal," part i, No. 3, p. 302 (1873).

[2] Elliott's "History of India," vol. ii, App, 513-49; and "Supplemental Glossary," i, 251.

[3] "Asiatic Annual Register," vi (1801).

[4] "History of India," iv, 448.
"Asiatic Journal," iv, 75.

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month of Baisákh in honour of Ghází Miyán, at which Daffálí faqírs wrap coloured rags and horse-hair at the end of a long bamboo, round which they sing and often burn incense.[1]

In some parts of India the Ghází is spoken of as the son of a famous General serving the King of Delhi, who adopted the garb of a faqír, retired from the world, and shortly afterwards died, on which the son, Madár, joined the troops of a Pathán leader, and distinguished himself by his bravery and hatred of the Hindus. Hence his name has come to be regarded as the symbol of daring courage, and at the present day is used as a battle-cry by Hindustani troopers. While his nuptial ceremonies were being celebrated the enemy appeared, and in an attempt to drive them back he was slain. His death and the removal of the nuptial banners and emblems are supposed to be represented at the popular festival, but Mr. Wilson also sees a resemblance to the marriage ceremonies of the Súdras.

At Bahráich, on the first Sunday of Jeth (May–June), a great fair is held at the tomb of Sálár Mas'úd, when crowds of pilgrims present votive offerings at the shrine. At Munír, near the junction of the Son and Ganges, the anniversary of the death of Ghází Miyán is celebrated. The history of this fair is interesting as showing how legends pass from one holy man to another.

Van Graaf,[2] sailing up the Ganges in 1669 stopped at "Monera." The inhabitants were poor cultivators, and the country was formerly a desert until a very holy man, "Hia Monera,"[3] struck by the aspect of the place, fixed his abode there, exterminating the wild beasts, and erecting a small chapel where he performed many miracles. At his death he left much money, with which "his valet" built a mosque and a tank, resorted to by faqírs, who pretended to work miracles. The mosque still stands, but the faqírs, finding the worship of Ghází Miyán more profitable, have established a fair in his honour instead.

The festival of Ghází Miyán is not popular in Eastern Bengal, but few villages are without a shrine dedicated to Ghází Çáhib. This spot is usually a diminutive Dargáh, with a raised mound of earth in the interior, before which every Muhammadan and Hindu makes obeisance as he passes; and whenever sickness attacks his family, or when the Çáhib's intercession is solicited, the villager makes votive offerings of flowers, milk, and sweetmeats. Along the banks of the Lakhya, on the outskirts of villages, a mound of earth, smeared with cowdung, stands

[1] "Statistical and Descriptive Account of the North-west Provinces of India," i, 118. (Allahabad, 1874.)

[2] "Voyages de Nikolaas Van Graaf aux Indes Orientales." (Amsterdam, 1719.)

[3] This was Shaikh Sharafuddin Yahyá Munírí, a famous Cúfi, who wrote the "Maktúbát Yahyá Munírí," in a series of 250 letters to his disciples. He died about A.D. 1370.

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beneath a grass thatch. This mound has generally two knobs on the top, said to represent the tombs of Ghází Miyán and his younger brother Kálú. On the twenty-second day after a cow has calved the first milk drawn is poured over the mound as a libation, and in times of sickness rice, plantains, and sweetmeats are offered.

5. *Pánch Pír.*

According to Shakespeare and Forbes, Pánch Píriyá is a term applied to any person who worships the five Pírs of the Mussulmáns; or belongs to a caste of Halál Khors. But, who are the Pírs of the Mussulmáns? No Muhammadan Maulaví in Eastern Bengal can name them, or give any explanation why they are so called. The Pánch Pír are familiar to every one, being invoked whenever danger threatens; but among Bengali Muhammadans there is no special ceremony, and no festival, kept in their honour. Every Muhammadan boatman on unfurling his sail shouts, either

"Alláh, Nabí, Pánch Pír, Badr, rakhiyá Karo!"

or the following doggrel verses:—

Hamáre achhe pulabán
Ghází achhe nigahbán
Sar Ganga, Pánch Pír, Badr! Badr! Badr!

The great Akbar was denounced, Mr. Blochmann informs me, by some hostile critic for being a Pánch Píriyá, and no Muhammadan, on account of his eclecticism and toleration.

Again, in his paper[1] on the ballads and legends of the Punjáb, Major Abbott translates a poem in which the appearance of the Pánch Pír to the legendary hero of the Punjáb (Rasálu) is mentioned, and in a note these five are said to be,

Bahá-ul-haq,
Sháh Rukn 'Álam,
Sháh Shamsuddín,
Makhdúm Jahániyán,
Faríduddín 'Aṭṭár Shakarganj.

The first three are saints peculiar to Multan; the fourth died A.H. 785 (1383), and his tomb is at Uch Sharíf;[2] while the fifth, the most famous, died A.D. 1266, and over his remains a tomb was erected by Nizámuddín of Dilhi, which still stands, at Pak Patan, between the Bias and Chenab, and is a favourite place of pilgrimage on the fifth of the Muharram.[3] But, as Mr. Blochmann

[1] "J. A. S. of Bengal," vol. xxiii, 159.
[2] "Travels of Mohan Láll," p. 454. "J. A. S. of Bengal," v, 796.
[3] "Mohan Láll," p. 376.

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points out, these are merely the names of the five most celebrated Muhammadan saints of the Punjáb, and the list affords us no insight into the meaning of the term Pánch Pír as used at the present day.

Sir H. Elliot[1] mentions that Ghází Miyán and his bhánjá, or sister's son, Hathili, are regarded by the peasantry of the Doáb, as two of the Pánch Pír, but the names of the remaining three are not given.

In Bengal again, no individuals are mentioned, and the Pánch Pír are collectively invoked as guardian spirits in times of trouble. Amid the forest that has overgrown the old city of Sunnárgáon, is a very holy shrine, called the Pánch Pír, where five unfinished tombs stand, to which Hindus and Muhammadans come from long distances in fulfilment of vows; but no one can tell who the saints were, or whence they came.

It must be borne in mind that the number five has always been regarded by Hindus as a lucky one. Five members form the Panchá́it, or native court of arbitration, and the Panchamí, or fifth lunar day, is one of peculiarly good omen. Some such idea may be the origin of this peculiar worship, and the term five may be merely used to signify an indefinite number, as half-a-dozen does in England.

As has been mentioned, all Muhammadans invoke the Pánch Pír, but still more strange, Hindus follow their example. All Hindustani Kumhárs, and many Nápits, Kándús, Dhobís, and Goálas belong to the sect called Pánch Piriyá, which has two subdivisions, or Srení, that neither eat together nor intermarry. The one eats flesh that has been legalised according to Muhammadan (zabh), or Hindu (balí), law, drinks spirits, and follows the Ṣákta ritual on Hindu, the Pánch Piriyá on Muhammadan festivals. The other, the more modern, are followers of Vishnu, eating no animal food, touching no spirits, and never making pilgrimages to Muhammadan Dargáhs, as the first do.

In Bihár the Pánch Piriyá belonging to the low castes engage a Daffálí faqír to officiate at their religious ceremonies, which consist in the sacrifice of a cock, and the repetition of several prayers. When a disciple is initiated a cock is always sacrificed, and the neophyte must bake bannocks of wheaten flower and distribute them among the company to avert the wrath of the Pánch Pír.

In other respects the worshippers of these saints are Hindus, their Purohit being often a Kanaujiya Brahman, while the Guru is always the Mahant of the Nának Sháhí Akhárá. This connection with the Nának Sháhí sect seems to indicate the

[1] "Supplemental Glossary," i, 251–70.

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origin of the Pánch Piriyá. Nának Sháh taught universal toleration, and insisted that not only were the essential doctrines of Hinduism and Muhammadanism analogous, but that one Supreme Being, adored as either Harí, or Alláh, was sought after by the devout of both creeds. It was natural that in such a tolerant sect eclectic teachers should spring up, selecting from the ritual of each religion whatever was likely to recommend itself to the vacillation of either party. If this be the true origin of the Pánch Piriyá belief, or not, it is beyond a doubt that very many of the lower and least stable classes of native society profess it, although it has failed to make any impression on the higher ranks whose position is secured, and whose spiritual welfare is confided to the Brahmans.

A well-known resident of Eastern Bengal is popularly called the Pánch Píriyá Çáhib, it being said that his parents, losing one child after another, were advised by a favourite servant to consecrate the next to the Pánch Pír, and by so doing preserve him. They followed this advice, and were gratified to find their son grow up strong and healthy. Hindus always quote this as an instance of the benefits accruing to those who believe in the Pánch Pír.

6. *Shaikh Sadu.*

The worship of Shaikh Sadu, or Míran Jí, is peculiar to India, and, in Bengal, is almost exclusively confined to Muhammadan courtezans.

At Amrohah, a celebrated Sayyid Jagír in Rohilcund, there is a mosque, said to have been built by one 'Ambar in the reign of Kai Kobád, and restored by Sayyíd Muhammad, Mír 'Adl, in the sixteenth century. In the thirteenth century Shaikh Çadruddín, whose name has been shortened to Sadu, was Maulaví of this mosque, and famous for the amulets and chains (gandá) he bestowed. To this shrine crowds of Hindu and Muhammadan pilgrims resort every Thursday, in the certain belief that by presenting gifts to the custodians, and by hanging on to a chain, the "Chain of Desire," all the dearest wishes of their hearts will be attained. Adjoining the shrine are the tombs of his mother 'Áishah, and of a familiar, Zain Khán.

The following story explains the reason why Shaikh Sadu is worshipped by the impure and dissolute native. While ploughing one day this saintly personage turned up a lamp, designed by a great magician, which as soon as it was lighted caused four genii to appear. The Shaikh, a very immoral man, employed these genii as pimps, but having debauched a girl, they put him to death. After death he became a jin, but he still revisits this world and reveals to men, more often to

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women, a knowledge of futurity, conferring also certain supernatural powers.

Other spirits exercising similar powers are regarded by the superstitious classes as of inferior rank, hence the Hindustani proverb, "Ae Mír, bhage Pír."

The behaviour of a person inspired by Míran Jí resembles the possession counterfeited by the low caste Hindu, or the Shaman. Intimating beforehand that at a certain time he will become inspired, and that "Shaikh Sadu Ka Karáhi"[1] will be observed, musicians are engaged, and a crowd of sympathising friends collected. At the appointed time the performer gesticulates, and dances, uttering unintelligible words and disconnected sentences, which are eagerly caught up and interpreted in accordance with the wishes of the audience.

Educated Muhammadans having no faith in this exhibition, denounce it as immoral and unholy, but the uneducated still regard the gibberish of the possessed person with the same awe as they do the unmeaning jabber of the demented.[2]

The Muhammadan revival of the nineteenth century is one of the most momentous events in the modern history of India, not only from its uniting under the banner of a common faith millions of the population, but from its threatening to become a political movement, having for its object the overthrow of the Christian government by a Muhammadan one, with the Koran and the sword as the leading agents of civilisation. The seed sown by a few earnest untitled men, has borne abundant fruit, and at the present day overshadows the whole of Eastern Bengal. To understand how it happened that a movement unsupported by the landlords, or the richer classes, and discouraged by the State, spread far and wide, embracing the large majority of the agricultural and manufacturing classes, it is necessary to go back to the days of the Muhammadan rule and ascertain the state of religion at that time, and the means which were adopted to preserve and promote the faith of Islám.

The rulers of India were generally Sunnís, and a Shíah was an abomination in the eyes of the bigoted Alamgír. Sunní Nawábs ruled at Dacca from A.D. 1612 to 1702, when the anarchy following the death of Aurangzíb, raised the Shías into positions of influence, and made them lieutenants of the different Bengal provinces. From 1702 to 1843, Shíah Nawábs resided at Dacca, but, though Shíah in creed, they were obliged to worship in the Sunní mosques, on the two great Îds, and join

[1] This entertainment is also known as Baithak.

[2] For additional particulars regarding Shaikh Sadu, *see* "Qanoon-i-Islám," p. 278; "Mrs. Mír Hasan 'Alí," ii, 324; "Roebuck," pt. ii, 26; and "Calcutta Review," No. lxvi, p. 295.

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in the Khuṭba, or prayer for the Sunní emperor. Like the Nawábs of Murshídábád, they had no scruples against employing Sunní servants, or in enlisting Sunní soldiers. The Muhammadan population of Eastern Bengal has always been Sunní, and their spiritual leader or Qází, appointed by the Náwab, was also of the same creed. He administered the law as expounded by the Muftí; superintended the education of children, being responsible for the orthodoxy of the religion taught them; and decided all disputes connected with religion, or public worship. Over him was the Qáziyul-qúsát, the supreme ecclesiastical judge of appeal, who resided at Delhi.

Again, scattered throughout the country were Naíb, or Deputy Qázís, who watched over the spiritual welfare of the masses, instructed them in the faith, and suppressed dissent, or any expression of independent thought. The power of these officers was great, and equally dreaded by the monarch and people, while their treatment of backsliders, or renegades, was most summary. The culprit, summoned into their presence, was admonished, and three days given him to recant. If at the end of that time his heart remained hardened, the Náwáb was appealed to, and in most instances death was inflicted. Such cases, by all accounts, were rare, but the fact that this was the law must have had a most wholesome effect in preventing the promulgation of any new doctrines, and in keeping all united in the bonds of a common faith. The Sunní, however, was no bigot. His religion sat lightly on him, and he participated with the Shiáh in his fast and lamentations during the Muharram, as well as with the Hindus in the frolic and license of the Dasahrá and Holí.

In 1765, when the Díwání passed into the hands of the East India Company, a great change took place. The Qázís still survived deprived of power; but no longer a terror to evil-doers. They became judicial officers without any authority as religious instructors, or arbitrators. Pírs, faqírs, and Khúndkárs, abounded; but their influence wás confined within a limited circle of disciples, and did not extend to the densely populated villages of the interior. For three generations, or fifty-five years, the Mussulmáns of Eastern Bengal, being without a shepherd, receded more and more from their national faith, and conformed, as has been seen, to many superstitious rites of the Hindus. But one of those movements which seem to occur in the history of all religions, causing the thoughtful to examine the grounds of the popular belief, was about to dawn on the Muhammadans of Eastern Bengal, and evoke a spirit which is not as yet quiescent. The first person who stirred his countrymen, by resuscitating the dormant spirit of their faith, was Hájí Sharía'-

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tullah, born of obscure parents, probably Juláhas, or weavers, who resided in a village of Parganah Bandarkhola, zila Farrídpúr. When eighteen years of age he made the pilgrimage to Meccah, but instead of returning, as was usual, he remained a disciple of the Wahábbí leaders then ruling the sacred city. About 1820, after an absence of twenty years, he came back to India a skilful disputer, and a good Arabic scholar. On his way to his home he fell among Dakáíts, who plundered him of everything, including many memorials of his residence in Arabia, and finding life insupportable without books or relics, he joined himself to the gang, and shared their many wanderings. The simplicity of his character and the sincerity of his religious convictions awakened the consciences of these wicked men, who ultimately became his most zealous followers. Such is the story told at the present day of the first step taken by this remarkable man. For several years Sharía'tullah quietly disseminated his new doctrines in the villages of his native district, encountering much opposition and abuse, but, attracting a band of devoted adherents, he by degrees acquired the reputation of a holy man.

The chief Wahábbí innovations introduced by him were the non-observance of the Friday prayers, of the two great Îds, and of the Muharram, and he ordered that the titles of Ustád and Shágird, terms which did not suggest complete submission, should in future be used in the place of Pír and Muríd, which had for ages been the respective designations of the master and his pupil. He also prohibited the laying on of hands, which was customary at the initiation of a disciple, but required from all "taubá," or penitence, for past sins, and a resolution to lead a more righteous, and godly, life for the future. It is a curious fact that none of these new ideas excited much opposition, but on his promulgating the dogma that it was a deadly sin, and one derived from the Hindus, to allow a midwife to cut the navel cord when it was the obvious duty of the father to do so, he roused a spirit of revolt which caused many to fall away. The Zamíndárs were alarmed at the spread of the new creed, which bound the Muhammadan peasantry together as one man. Disputes and quarrels soon arose, and Sharía'tullah was driven from Nayábárí, in the Dacca district, where he had settled, and returned to his birthplace. There he resumed his ministry, and in a short time enlisted the vast majority of the uneducated and most excitable classes of the Muhammadan population. His influence became unbounded, and no one hesitated to carry out his orders. He acted with great prudence and caution, rarely assuming any other character than that of a religious reformer. The movement originated by this man attracted little attention during his lifetime, and his name is rarely met with

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in the annals of that day. On looking back, however, at his career, there is much to repay inquiry. That he, born of poor Muhammadan weavers, amid the swamps of Eastern Bengal, should have been the first preacher to denounce the superstitions and corruptions, which a long contact with Hindu polytheism had developed, is sufficiently remarkable; but that the apathetic and careless Bengali peasant should have been roused into enthusiasm is still more extraordinary. To effect this required a sincere and sympathetic preacher; and no one ever appealed more strongly to the sympathies of a people than Sharía'tullah. Springing from one of their lowest and most despised classes, his blameless and exemplary life was admired by his countrymen, who venerated him as a father able to advise them in seasons of adversity, and give consolation in times of affliction.

He is described as a man of middle height, of fair complexion, and with a long handsome beard. He usually had his head covered with a voluminous turban, and his waist-cloth, worn like a petticoat, was not triced up as it is by Hindus and Muhammadans generally.

A very different person was his son, Muhammad Muhsin, better known as Dudhu Miyán, who, though of ordinary abilities, exerted an influence far surpassing that of his father. His name is a household word throughout the districts of Farrídpúr, Pubna, Báqirganj, Dacca, and Noacolly, and the number of his followers at the present day testifies to the thoroughness of the work that he and his father accomplished.

Dudhu Miyán was born in 1819, and, while still young, visited Mecca, where his followers were taught to believe that visions and revelations of a nature tending to his future exaltation, were vouchsafed to him. On his return he devoted himself to the spread of his father's doctrines, and to others which he introduced. For instance, he insisted upon his disciples eating the common grasshopper (phangá) which they abhorred, because the locust (tiḍḍa) was used as food in Arabia; and vigorously contended that there was no greater difference between the two insects than between the goat of their villages and one from the banks of the Jumna.

The most remarkable advance made during Dudhu Miyán's lifetime was the organisation of the society. Following the example of the Vaishnavas, he partitioned Eastern Bengal into circles, and appointed a Khalífa, or agent, to each, whose duties were to keep the sect together, make proselytes, and collect contributions for the furtherance of the objects of the association. They furthur kept Dudhu Miyán, who was usually styled the Pír, or simply Maulaví, acquainted with everything occurring within their jurisdiction, and whenever a Zamíndár tried to

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enforce his legal rights against one of the sect, funds were provided to sue him in the courts, or, if it could be safely done, clubmen were sent to destroy his property and thrash his servants. During his father's lifetime the sect had never opposed, or come in contact with, the law of the land; but the high-handed actions of the son united Zamíndárs and indigo-planters against him. He tried to compel all Muhammadan ryots to join his sect, and on refusal caused them to be beaten, excommunicated from the society of the faithful, and their crops destroyed. The Zamíndárs again endeavoured to prevent their tenants joining, and, it is said, often punished and tortured the disobedient. A mode of torture, intensely painful, but which left no marks to implicate any one, is said to have been adopted on both sides. The beards of recalcitrant ryots were tied together and red chilli powder given as snuff. Coercion, however, failed, and the landholders did little to check the onward spread of the revival.

It was among the cultivators and village workmen that Dudhu Miyán gained the largest number of converts. He asserted the equality of mankind, and taught that the welfare of the lowest and poorest was as much an object of interest as that of the highest and richest. When a brother fell into distress it was, he taught, the duty of his neighbours to assist him, and nothing, he affirmed, was criminal, or unjustifiable, which had this object in view. Enemies in consequence alleged, that witnesses were suborned, and paid for by the funds of the association.

Dudhu Miyán and the Hájís, as his followers were originally called, became objects of dread to the Hindu, old Muhammadan, and European landlords. Evidence to convict a prisoner could not be got, and outrages were committed with perfect impunity. It was, however, against the levying of illegal cesses by landlords that Dudhu Miyán made his most determined stand. That a Muhammadan ryot should be obliged to contribute towards the decoration of the image of Durgá, or towards the support of any of the idolatrous rites of his Hindu landlord, were intolerable acts of oppression. In this he was certainly right, as the only apology for their continuance is their antiquity, and adaptation to the feelings of the people. But, he advanced a step farther when he proclaimed that the earth is God's, and that no one has a right to occupy it as an inheritance, or levy taxes upon it. The peasantry were therefore persuaded to settle on Kháç Mahal lands, managed directly by the Government, and thus escape the payment of any taxes, but that of the land revenue, claimed by the State.

Dudhu Miyán was constantly compromising himself by the

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lawlessness of his conduct. In 1838 he was charged with instigating the plunder of several houses; in 1841 he was committed to the sessions on a charge of murder, but was acquitted; in 1844 he was tried for trespass and illegal assembly; and in 1846 for abduction and plunder. The riot of 1838 assumed at one time a very threatening aspect, and a detachment of Sepoys was sent from Dacca to quell any disturbance. It was, however, found impossible to induce witnesses to give evidence, and on each occasion he was acquitted. At Bahádurpúr, where he generally resided, every Mussulmán stranger was fed, while Eastern Bengal was overrun by his spies, and the interests of the whole neighbourhood were in his keeping. He settled disputes, administered summary justice, and punished any Hindu, Muhammadan, or Farangí, who dared to bring a suit for recovery of debt in the adjoining Munçif's court, instead of referring the case to his decision. Emissaries carried his orders to distant villages, and his letters, signed "Ahmad nám ma'lúm," often had the ordinary Hindu superscription to allay suspicion. He taught that there was no sin in persecuting those who refused to embrace his doctrines, or who appealed against the orders of the society and its constituted leaders.

Having broken the law with impunity, Dudhu Miyán took a bolder step. Mr. A. Dunlop, an indigo-planter of Panch Chur factory in Faríd púr, had for many years been an uncompromising opponent, and several times succeeded in causing the Miyán to be arrested, and tried for illegal actions. The Miyán, bent upon revenge, easily found willing agents to execute his orders. On the 5th of December, 1846, a large body of armed men attacked and burned to the ground the factory of Panch Chur. After pillaging the adjoining village, they departed, taking with them the Bráhman Gomastha, who was afterwards cruelly murdered in the Báqirganj district. Dudhu Miyán and sixty-two of his followers were tried by the Sessions Judge of Farrídpúr, in July, 1847, and convicted, but on appeal to the Çadr-Adalat they were acquitted.

In 1857 Dudhu Miyán was thrown into prison, and the story goes, that he would have been released, if he had not boasted that fifty thousand men would answer to his summons, and march whithersoever he ordered them.

Several actions of their Pír must have been disapproved of by many of his followers, as for instance when he forcibly carried off a Brahmani girl and made her his "nikah" wife; but even this violent act did not cause them to desert him. On the contrary, they believed in him to the last, and liberally spent their hard earned savings in promoting the interests of the sect. At one

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time a few disciples seceded. They had been to Meccah and ascertained that the teaching of Maulaví Karámat 'Alí was orthodox, while that of their own spiritual chief was Wahábbí in tendency and heterodox. This secession exasperated Dudhu Miyán to such a pitch that he instructed his people to kill the renegades wherever, and whenever, found.

Dudhu Miyán is described as having been a tall handsome man, with a dark flowing beard, and a large turban wound round his head. He died at Bahádurpúr 24th September, 1860, and was buried there, but the Arial Khán river has, within the last few years, washed away every trace of his house and tomb. His wealth, at one time considerable, being expended on lawsuits and intrigues, his family was left poor. Three sons survive, of whom none have as yet exhibited any of the energy, or abilities, of their father. The sect is consequently diminishing in numbers, and many families are yearly joining the next, or Ta'aiyuní, divisions.

At the present day the term Farazí is indiscriminately used when speaking either of the sect founded by Sharía'tullah or that established by Karámat 'Alí; but the Muhammadans of Dacca call the followers of Dudhu Miyán, Farazís, while those obeying the teaching of the Patna school are styled Ta'aiyuní.

While Dudhu Miyán was enrolling disciples in Eastern Bengal, other reformers were stirring up the dormant fanaticism of their brethren in other districts, and the wave passing over the plains of Farrídpúr received a fresh impulse from other sources. In 1831 the ex-dakáit Mír Naçr 'Álí, better known as Titu Miyán, presided over a band of credulous followers in the neighbourhood of Baraset. Having accompanied Sayyid Ahmad to Meccah, he returned to preach a new creed to the weavers, and other despised classes, in Jessore and Nadiyá, among whom he established the sect known as Maulavís. The chief object of this movement was the rejection of all Hindu rites, and the exclusion of all Muhammadans who refused to embrace the new creed. The Hindu landlords had no sympathy with the new organisation. Complaints against the Maulavís being lodged in the Zamíndárí courts, fines were inflicted and generally levied; but on a landlord carrying into effect the sentence of his court, a tumult arose, and the Maulavís rushed to arms. These fanatics, taught to believe that Titu Miyán was invulnerable, and that he could give the same charm to his followers, were attacked on the 18th November, 1831, in a stockaded village, their leader shot, and two hundred and fifty prisoners lodged in 'Alípúr Jail. This local disturbance being effectually put down, nothing more was heard of the sect.

Far more important, however, than the revival begun by

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Sharía'tullah and Titu Miyán, was that initiated by Sayyid Ahmad at Patna, in 1820. At first this new association claimed to be identical with that started by Sharía'tullah; but it was soon apparent that their aims were different and antagonistic. Both concurred in repudiating the numerous superstitions observed by all classes of Muhammadans, but the Ta'aiyuní, or Patna sect, introduced many innovations unknown to the followers of Sharía'tullah and Dudhu Miyán. By the Arabs, as well as the Ta'aiyuní, the Farazís are known as Wahábbís, a name, however, repudiated by all but the extreme party, called Kafi'-yadain.

The first preacher (wá'iz) of the Patna school, who visited Eastern Bengal, was Muhammad 'Alí, a Khalífa appointed by Sayyid Ahmad, whose censures were chiefly directed against the practice of Hindu superstitions. He forbade the reading of the "fátiha," or prayer for the dead; the offering of "shírní," or sweetmeats, at the tombs of holy men; and the use of music at weddings. The next was Wiláyat 'Ali, one of the four original Khalífas chosen by Sayyid Ahmad at Patna, in 1820. His opinions were still more pronounced, and more deeply tinged with Wahábbí formalism. For example, he enjoined the frequent raising of the hands, and the utterance in a loud tone of voice of the word Ámín at the end of each prayer. He also maintained that the Hadís, or traditionary sayings and doings of Muhammad, contained authoritative instruction on many points, being only second to the Koran in value.

The most successful and celebrated missionaries, however, were Maulavís Karámat 'Ali, Zain-ul-abadín, and an Arab, Sayyid Muhammad Jamál-ul-lail, whose preaching among the villages of Eastern Bengal has had the most momentous effects, not only by uniting under one banner the vast majority of the middle and working classes, but also by arousing the intolerant spirit of Muhammadanism, which had lain dormant for nearly a century.

Little is known regarding the history of Zain-ul-abadín, but of Maulaví Karámat 'Alí, who died in 1874, full particulars are available. He was son of the Sarishtadár of the Jaunpúr Collectorate. When sixteen years of age, he studied under Maulánáh 'Abd-ul-'Azíz of Delhi, and afterwards under Ahmadullah, a famous teacher of Jaunpúr. Excited by the preaching of Sayyid Ahmad, he followed that remarkable man to Calcutta, became his disciple, and accompanied him to Meccah. On his return he proved himself one of the most valuable deputies of the Patna mission.

Sayyid Muhammad Jamál-ul-lail fled from Madínah because his father insisted on his marrying an Arab damsel. He came

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to Dacca about 1843, and joined with Karámat 'Ali in disseminating the new doctrines. Although ignorant of Bengali, and hardly acquainted with Hindustani, his commanding figure, luxuriant beard, and voluminous turban were, in the eyes of the ignorant villagers, credentials of his sincerity and capacity, and soon attracted to him a numerous circle of disciples. He married Bengali wives, one of whom, a resident of Dhámrái, possessed a considerable property. In 1854, incensed by the peculations of the Amlah, he decided, contrary to the wishes of the other shareholders, to collect the rents himself. His opponents assembled clubmen and tried to capture him, but, boiling with anger, he rushed within doors, seized a gun, and wounded several of the assailants. For this offence he was tried, and sentenced to seven years' imprisonment in the Rájsháhí Jail. On the expiry of his term he returned to Dacca an altered man, much broken in spirit. He died in August, 1872, and was buried in the village of Naichabandtolá, opposite Dacca. His cousin, Sayyid Muhammad Hásham, or Arab Çáhib, as he is familiarly called, still trains disciples, and propagates the same religious creed as his predecessor.

The doctrines taught by these later Khalífas differed materially from those of Muhammad 'Alí and Wiláyat 'Alí. The former held that the Hadís, a human compilation, and therefore full of errors, could not be considered an infallible guide; but admitted that the teachings of the Imáms, as contained in the Fiqh, or practical jurisprudence, were binding, although contradictory passages, and a diversity of doctrines, could be found in them. These defects were not, they argued, so vital, nor the tenets grounded on the various readings so absolute, as to justify Muhammadans in breaking asunder the bonds uniting the world of Islám.

Futhermore, these reformers denounced the employment of music at weddings, as being a sensual and discomposing pleasure; the offering up of the fátiha at the grave of deceased relatives; and the worship of Pírs, and other saintly personages.

These opinions regarding the Hadís and Fiqh had always been held by the Muhammadans of Bengal, but the assertion that music was immoral, and that the fátiha, as well as the becoming veneration of Pírs, were sinful, roused much opposition and gave rise to a learned, though idle, discussion.

In later years Karámat 'Alí made the important admission, that India under the English rule was not Dár-ul-harb, a country where the infidels were legitimate objects of attack, as had been maintained by Dudhu Miyán and Wiláyat 'Alí.

The principal doctrines of these reformers being founded on the fundamental truths of Islám, excited at first no little sur-

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prise, as they had been lost sight of by the Hinduized Mussulmáns of Bengal.

According to them, man, by nature feeble and prone to evil, cannot without assistance learn to know God or obey His commands. Muhammad is the only true mediator between God and His rebellious children; but the holy men of past ages possess a certain limited power of obtaining pardon for the penitent. It is therefore regarded by the Ta'aiyuní as a meritorious act to make offerings, or Li'llahí, at the graves of saints in the name of God, as they believe that the supplicant, being moved by the associations of the place, prays with greater sincerity and fervour.

The custom, however, observed in Bengal for ages, of presenting bread to the manes of ancestors on the Shab-i-barát, and of making offerings at the tombs of deceased relatives and friends on the fourth, tenth, twentieth, and fortieth days after death, were denounced as deadly sins. In their stead the relatives were instructed to employ a Maulaví to visit, twenty-one days after the funeral, the house of mourning and perform the service called Niyázullah, or thanksgiving to God, consisting of a few passages from the Koran, or Khatm-ul-Ambiya, in a chamber fumigated with sandal-wood and frankincense.

Although the lamentations and singing, the Ta'zias and the noisy pageantry of the Muharram, are reprehensible, the Maulavís recommend their disciples to fast and spend the tenth, or Shahádat ka roz, in religious exercises, as a devotional act.

The Shab-gashtí procession, with its discordant music, its frolics and license, no longer traverses the streets, having been put down by these puritanical teachers; and Muhammadan marriages (Shar'í ul Shádi) are now dull and uninteresting ceremonies. No music, or dancing, is allowed, and only a few relatives witness the marriage. The bride is no longer adorned with garlands of flowers; the Kandúrí ceremony is omitted; and the "Marocha" not constructed. The marriage service is performed by a Qází or Maulaví, and a Kábín, or marriage settlement, is drawn up.

The only festivity allowed is a feast, or Walíma, given on the marriage day, or on one of the two following days, and to which the relatives, the headmen of the village, and of the trade, are invited.

The superstitions connected with the birth of a child have also been pronounced sinful. On the fortieth day, when the mother becomes ceremonially clean, the husband makes ready the thanksgiving feast, called 'Aqíqa. Two he-goats (Khací) are offered for a male child, one for a female, which, like the sacrificial goat of the Îd-ul-qurbán, must be without spot, or

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blemish. This offering being regarded by some as a propitiatory one (çadqa), the flesh is distributed to faqirs; but the majority look upon the occasion as a social feast at which relatives, and friends meet to enjoy themselves. The victim is slaughtered by a Mullá, the bones and offal being buried, while the skin is given to any beggar. The father, mother, grandfather, and grandmother of the child are strictly forbidden to taste the flesh of the sacrifice.

The Ta'aiyuní observe the five daily prayers, and before each they clean their teeth with a piece of stick (miswák), rinse their mouths, and wash their hands. They strictly observe the Jum'a namáz, or Friday prayer, in the public mosque, which the Farazís and Wahábbís dispense with; and before leaving their homes it is customary to shave, bathe, and put on clean garments. The stricter members also observe the "tahajjud," or prayer, at 3 a.m.

The Ta'aiyuní, furthermore, dresses differently from any other Muhammadan. His loins are ungirded in expectation of the advent of the long-looked for Imám Mahdí, and, instead of the ordinary waist-string, or Kardhaní, he wears a leather strap (tasma). He is also enjoined to allow his beard to grow, and to wear his hair long, or, better still, to shave it entirely off; and is forbidden to eat food off a golden or silver dish, or to touch with his lips the mouthpiece of a tobacco pipe mounted with silver. Further, he must not pray in silken garments,[1] as was often the custom formerly, but in cotton or woollen attire.

Women are as punctilious as men, especially in attending to the regular prayers. Of late years they have laid aside the graceful Sárí, and adopted a jacket with long sleeves, which does not add to their comeliness, and, still more important, is not admired by females of other classes. They also object to staining their feet and nails with henna, or "menhdí," as is done throughout most parts of Muhammadan Asia.

Another usage has had a most important bearing on the business habits of this class of Muhammadans. Interest (súd) is denounced by the Maulavís, but as large profits (manáfi) are legitimate, among them are found great traders in jute, hides, rice, and country produce generally, who never join with professional bankers, or money-lenders, unless they agree to a division of profits instead of a certain rate of interest. When giving an advance of money it is usually stipulated that the sum shall be repaid within a certain period, and that an eighth, or fourth, of the net profit shall be paid to the lender, in addition to the principal.

[1] The cloth, called Mashrú', made of silk and cotton, in which a Muhammadan may lawfully pray, is not worn in Bengal.

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By this arrangement the lender often receives more than the market rate of interest, but if the payment be delayed nothing additional is gained. This system of profits, however, is virtually interest under another name.

Strange to say, the reformed Muhammadans of Dacca still cling to many Hindu superstitions in spite of the denunciations of the Maulavís. They wear amulets (ta'wíz) containing a sentence from the Koran, and place implicit trust in earthern platters, inscribed with holy texts, and hung up over their doors, or around their villages, believing such objects to be more efficacious against epidemics than the sanitary skill of the Yunání, or European, physicians. Again, when smallpox attacks their families, Sítala is worshipped with as much faith as is shown by the Hindu Málákárs, and in 1874, when the disease was present in their villages, a "ghat," daubed with red lead, on which a cocoanut and plantains were placed, stood in every house. They are determined opponents of vaccination, but occasionally have their children inoculated with all the mummery of the Sítala Púját.

Under pretence of greater sanctity and stricter orthodoxy they unconsciously practice many other Hindu usages; thus, on touching a Christian they bathe, and on his entering their houses, throw away all cooked food or drinking water. Their immaculateness, however, is not soiled by contact with a Hindu of the vilest class, or by his presence within doors. It is the Wahábbí who with perfect consistency treats Hindus and Christians with equal repugnance.

It would not be unreasonable to infer that the promulgation of these new puritanical doctrines would produce a corresponding improvement in the character of the members; but, according to the best authorities, the Maulavís, no change is as yet visible. On being asked if the Muhammadans of his sect oftener speak the truth than those of the old school, a Maulaví replied, that the latter lied being ignorant of the moral turpitude thereby incurred, but that the former, who were able to distinguish between what was right and what was wrong, uttered falsehoods more circumstantially and glibly. There can be no doubt that the Ta'aiyuní inhabitants of Dacca are more addicted to drink than the old Muhammadans. An amusing scene was witnessed in 1874 at the Panchá'ít of one of the most bigoted quarters of the city which had been summoned to try a young man for drunkenness and creating a scandal. The evidence was overwhelming, and the culprit was sentenced to receive twenty-five blows with a shoe. He claimed the right of replying, and, without attempting to extenuate his crime, pointed out that if consistent and impartial the meeting should inflict the same punishment on

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his boon companions. This was admitted, but when he enumerated the sons of all the leading members present, and stated that he was prepared to prove their complicity in drinking spirits, the assembly was hurriedly dissolved, and the young man escaped the punishment he so richly merited.

The Ta'aiyuní differ in many important respects from the Farazí and Wahábbí. They not only regard the Friday prayer with peculiar reverence, but often make it like Sunday in Europe, a day for popular demonstrations and for forming combinations against the Zamíndárs. The Patna Khalífas have always pretended that this movement was identical with the Farazí, and on the strength of this identity extracted money from the ignorant peasantry, who were also induced to leave their homes and join the Sitána colony. But, from time to time a few returned, and having confessed that the subscriptions went to support a delusive cause, the enthusiasm gradually died away.

There can be no doubt, however, that much secret disaffection, fostered by fanatical Khalífas and Maulavís, still exists in the ranks of the sect; but it is generally said that subscriptions are now unwillingly paid, and fewer recruits drafted to the north-west frontier than was the case ten years ago.

The foregoing is a simple but correct sketch of the Muhammadan religion as found in Eastern Bengal at the present day. Islám is there passing through a period of trial, and seems in danger of being split up into rival creeds, unless injudicious interference on the part of the Government causes it to unite against a common enemy. But, in absence of any provocation, it is likely that jealousy will increase, and the two most important divisions, the Sábiqí and Ta'aiyuní, learn to hate each other as brethren of different beliefs always do. As the new school is of a more progressive tendency it will probably assume the offensive, and, owing to its numbers, silence dissent as well as all expression of independent opinion. The Sábiqí are disunited, without any organisation, but the Ta'aiyuní, under the guidance of able leaders, are bound together by the ties of a widely diffused and powerful society. The former, again, are friendly to the English Government; the latter, at heart estranged, do not dare to show themselves hostile.

As the religion of the Muhammadans of Bengal has become corrupted by the adoption of many Hindu superstitions, so it will be found, on further inquiry, that the professional and labouring classes have also introduced many innovations derived from the same source.

In each Mussulmán "qaum," or class, there is a Panchá'it of elders, by whom matters affecting the interests of the trade, or

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company, are discussed, and all offenders against their unwritten laws summarily dealt with.

In every Muhammadan village, or quarter of a town, there is another, and equally efficient, court of arbitration. In Dacca there are twenty-two of these Panchâíts, each consisting of from five to fifty members, and often including Hindus of respectability, and liberal views. A Panchâít is presided over by a Sardár, or Mír Mahalla, under whom there is at least one Náib-Sardár, or deputy; a Sákhí-dár, literally one who gives evidence; and a Gorait, or messenger.

The post of a Sardár is hereditary, and when old, or disabled by sickness, he must vacate in favour of his son. The position is no sinecure, as his duties are multifarious, for all deaths, births, and purposes of marriage, are reported to him. He summons the Panchâít, gives directions about funerals, arranges the marriage ceremony, and settles what subjects are or are not, to be laid before the court. In all domestic and private quarrels he is consulted, and in charges of assault, or crime generally, full details are submitted for his decision. His orders being absolute, the fines are always paid. When the court assembles, he submits to it the business for which it was summoned, points out the proper course of action, and if a conclusion cannot be arrived at he appeals to another Panchâít, which reconsiders the matter and records its decision, which must be accepted. The Panchâít always meets in the evening, and when the court is dissolved a feast is given at which the Sardár receives two shares of the food, one of which he eats, the other he sends to his family.

In cases of notorious drunkenness, or great immorality, remonstrance having failed, a very severe punishment, called "Nal-pání-bándhna," is inflicted, by which the delinquent is ostracised, and no one will eat or smoke with him, or even permit him to enter or sit down in their houses. Relatives must banish him from their society, and if he die impenitent no one dares to bury him. Life under such circumstances becomes insupportable, as the punishment is greater than can be borne. In most instances the offender acknowledges his transgression and, after paying a heavy fine, is re-admitted into social communion.

The Sákhí-dár is the servant of the Sardár, and receives at feasts a double allowance of food. When a death occurs in the quarter information is given to him, and a fee of four anas paid, and when a marriage is contemplated he receives four anas, and a handkerchief in which a betel-nut is tied. A piece of the nut he delivers to each member of the Panchâít, as an invitation to the marriage feast.

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The Gorait, again, is merely the messenger of the Sákhí-dár, and he receives as pay one-half of the fees collected.

When a girl is married nothing is given to the Panchâít of her quarter, or village; but when a boy goes to another quarter, or village, he pays one rupee to the Panchâít, one rupee to the mosque, and one to the Zamíndár of the land on which the bride's house stands.

Such is the autonomy of Muhammadan citizens. Though a copy of the Panchâíts and Dals of Hindu castes, it is far more liberal, being established not so much for selfish, or sordid, advantages as for the common welfare of the citizens. The court is thoroughly secular and republican, the opinion of each member carrying equal weight, although that held by the president is generally followed. These Panchâíts possess great influence among the people, and in Farazí villages, as they take cognizance of all offences, it is exceedingly rare that any case of violence, or assault, committed within them finds its way into the regular courts.

The Muhammadans of Bengal have followed in many respects the system of caste as practised by the Hindus, although the principle that a son must carry on the trade or occupation of a father has never been reduced to a formula. Still, they have placed many honest and useful handicrafts under a ban, while others of a more objectionable nature are reckoned honourable.

The most respectable occupations are those of the Darzí, Jildgar, Jútí-wálah, Nánbáí, Naichaband, Paṭwá, Rangrez, and Rafúgar; the most dishonouring those of Bájunia, Beldár, Chamṛafarosh, Dhobí, Dhuniyá, Juláha, Kalwár, Kolu, Kútí, Mahífarosh, and Nílgar.

The learned professions, such as the Hakím, Háfiz, Khwándkár, Muçawwir, Mulla, and Munshí, are respected by all classes, and few deserving students, or scholars, ever want for patronage or encouragement. The chief reason why one trade is accounted less reputable than another is, that the most honoured were originally Muhammadan, the despised ones Hindu. The eight trades mentioned as honourable provide for wants which were secondary in the eyes of the Hindus. The trade of the tailor, bookbinder, shoemaker, baker, and darner, unknown in Bengal when Muhammadans first settled there, was necessarily followed by their own countrymen from Upper India, and therefore did not entail any disgrace or degradation. A position being thus secured for these tradesmen, it was in vain that those engaged in new occupations strove to acquire rank and privileges disallowed by the older conservative bodies. This struggle of exclusion on the one hand, and of admission to equal rights on the other, is still eagerly contested by the various parties.

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The avocations of the musician, delver, washerman, fishmonger, and indigo-dyer, formerly pursued by outcast Hindus, were subsequently adopted by poor Mussulmáns, or by converts to that faith, and have consequently remained inferior ones. The hide merchant, cotton-carder, Jamadání weaver, distiller, oilman, and Kútí, who follow occupations new to the Hindus, are for the same reasons outcast. The bigotry and intolerance of the Chamṛafarosh and Kútí are so remarkable as at once to excite suspicion of their recent conversion, while the low estimation in which they are held by other Muhammadans can only be accounted for by this fact.

The different stages through which converted Hindus pass before they gain a position of thorough equality with the old Muhammadans can be traced at the present day. The Bediyás were outcast Hindus thirty years ago, but a Mulla now ministers to them, circumcision is practised, the Ramazán fast is kept, and the regular prayers offered up; but they cannot enter the public mosque, or find a resting-place in the public graveyard. In a social point of view they are still aliens, with whom no gentleman will associate or eat. The treatment of the Chaṇḍál by the Súdra is in no respect more rigorous, or harsh, than that of the Bediyás by the upper ranks of Muhammadans.

The Kútí, again, have advanced a stage farther, being not only the most dogmatic, but also the most sanctimonious of their faith. The mosques, only opened to them within the last few years, are now held and managed by their leaders, who decide what persons are, or are not, entitled to worship in them. Beyond this, however, the division has not made any stride. No Muhammadan of good family will intermarry with them, or eat from their dishes; but the ordinary burial service is performed at the Masjid, and the dead are permitted to lie in the public cemetery.

The previous sketch has shown us that the religion, customs, and social divisions of the Bengali Muhammadans are deeply tinged with Hindu superstition. It remains to be proved that the Muhammadans as individuals bear much resemblance to their Hindu fellow-countrymen.

The educated Muhammadan, being of liberal ideas, respects all religions, despising none, and sympathises with the sincere worshipper of God, wherever found, although convinced that he is the heir of the latest and best revelation. The Arabic and Persian classics, containing as he thinks all that is worth knowing, are his daily study; but he neither reads modern literature nor sends his sons to the public school, as both are considered to favour infidelity and scepticism. Science is a sealed book which he has no desire to open, while English and

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Bengali are foreign languages to him. He attends to his religious duties, observes the fast of Ramazán, and dispenses charity freely and unostentatiously. His anxiety to preserve the family name untarnished is a ruling passion, often carried to extremes. Not only does he scorn to tell a lie, or perform a mean action, but he will rather lose a lawsuit than appear before a magistrate of low birth. Inferior to the Hindu in chicanery, he can, if driven to it, wield the same weapon, and make a determined, if not always successful defence. To the poor he is kind and considerate, many charitable actions being done in private for which he gets no credit. He visits the sick servant in his hovel, sending him food and sherbet prepared in the zanánah, and helps poor students by providing lodgings as well as paying a Munshí to instruct them. In the society of strangers he is polite and lavish of praise; but he seldom visits, sits at the table, or partakes of food with Christians, as was the invariable custom a century ago. It is melancholy to contemplate the present state of the better classes of Muhammadans, for with many excellent traits of character, they have no energy or ambition left. Instead of adapting themselves to the changes of modern civilisation, they listen to tales of ignorant Faqírs, or to sedition taught by fanatical Maulavís, and lament that the days of 'Alamgír, and of Mussulmán supremacy, have passed away. The young are growing up in idleness and ignorance; the old wasting their lives by debauchery, intemperance, and opium. The establishment of a Madrasah, or school, managed by Muhammadan gentlemen, will in time exert a beneficial effect, but the fear that the rising generation will resemble Young Bengal keeps many from sending their sons to it.

The vast majority of Bengali Muhammadans are ignorant and simple peasants, who of late years have been casting off the Hindu tinsel which has so long disfigured their religion. They are now taught that to be good Mussulmáns nothing more is necessary than the repetition, at stated intervals, of certain prayers in a language they cannot pronounce, still less understand. In many places it is difficult for the ryots to find a person capable of conducting the services of the congregation. In 1874 the inhabitants of several villages assembled on the banks of the Lakhya to celebrate the Baqr-'Id, but there being no one present who could lead the worship, a Dacca youth, aged twenty, who was passing in a boat, had to land and recite the usual prayers.

Formerly the peasants respected Brahmins, and attended many Hindu ceremonials now prohibited; but the Farazí Maulavís have denounced the contribution of anything to the annual festivals, although unable to stop the payment of extra

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rent in place of the Párvaṇa, or impost, levied to defray the cost of religious ceremonies.

The peasant is not only litigious and very unreasonable when his interests are touched, but easily persuaded to join in combinations against his landlord, and in so doing often falls into the snare set by designing men. Industry and frugality are common virtues, and though the wife is treated as a slave, she is never ill-used, while towards his children much affection and indulgence are shown. Strangers being regarded with suspicion, a simple question rarely receives a straightforward answer. The most attractive feature in the character of the ryot is his hospitality and charity. The beggar always receives a copper, or if the meal be ready the poorest wretch is invited to partake of it, and on leaving dismissed with a blessing. The house may be small, but the vagrant finds shelter therein.

It is to this national weakness that Bengal owes the existence of so many sturdy mendicants, who, wandering from one hamlet to another, find some kind hand to feed and shelter them.

The Mussulmán is less sociable than the Hindu, and now that music has a ban laid upon it, he can no longer join in parties given by his Hindu neighbours. Boys of both creeds play together, and when grown up often become attached friends. It is not uncommon for the Muhammadan to share the joys and sorrows of his Hindu friend, and pay the compliment of naming a son after him.

One of the most characteristic foibles of the Bengali peasant is vanity, leading him to wear embroidered garments and caps, and carry what in his eyes is the modern emblem of gentility—a cotton umbrella!

On the whole the peasant is a happy and contented man, unless the plausible theories of the Maulavís induce him to join in agrarian disputes and combinations so common at the present day. Nothing will make him leave the home round which his affections cling, unless injustice and a long course of illegal exactions, by rendering life intolerable, forces him to seek for peace under a less extortionate landlord. The Churs, or alluvial islands, along the Ganges and Meghna, are the favourite retreats of Farazí ryots, and the lands being managed directly by Government, and not by any Zamíndár, or middleman, the arbitrary taxes sanctioned by the ancient custom of the country are no longer collected.

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BAHURÚPIÁ.

The Bahurúpiá, or mimic, of Bengal is usually a Muhammadan, but any one possessing the talent acquires the name. The Bahurúpiá is properly a low caste Hindu, allied to the Bhánd, who, in most instances, has become a Muhammadan, tracing his descent from the great actor 'Umar-i-yár, the court jester of Noshírwán the Just.

The Bahurúpiás dance and sing in character, but only to the accompaniment of the drum (dhol) and cymbals (manjírá). By means of Gáb juice they pucker their faces, and, putting on a beard and moustaches, mimic the childish treble of extreme old age. A popular exhibition with Bengalís is called "Siv-Gaurí," for which the Bahurúpiá gets himself up with one side attired as Siv, the other as Gaurí, and imitates the different tones of voice, gait, and gestures of the two sexes with so much art as to deceive many of the audience.

The Bahurúpiá is not degraded, but eats and intermarries with the old Muhammadans, although he is an abomination in the eyes of the puritanical Farázís.

BÁJUNIA.

Musicians are regarded all over India as a debased race, and in Eastern Bengal Muhammadan musicians are either barbers (hajjám), or the husbands of midwives (dáí), classes ranked among the vilest of the population.

Bands (ṭáifá, da'fa) are composed of a varying number of players, the instruments being selected according to native ideas of harmony. The ordinary bands are—

1. Roshan-Chaukí, consisting of three "surnáe," or clarion players, a performer on the drum (dholak), and a fifth who makes a discordant noise with the jhánjh, or brass cymbals. This band is maintained by rich families to play at sunrise and sunset.

2. Naqárah. This company plays at each "pahar," or watch of the day. It is composed of seven musicians: three playing on the naqárah, or kettledrum, two on the clarion, one on a "karná," or snake-shaped trumpet, and one on a "damámá," or large-sized brass drum. The privilege of having the naqárah played before them was one of the highest ambition to the Amírs of the Mughal Court, being only granted to princes of the blood royal, and to a few of the highest dignitaries of the empire. At the present day only Nawábs and feudatories have the right

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to possess a naqárah band; but rich Muhammadan householders not unfrequently keep one, and assume an honour for which they have no sanction.

3. Táifa-dár. This is the musical party which attends nautch girls, who are always Muhammadans. It consists of two players on the violin (sárangí), two men who beat drums (tablá), and a player on the cymbals (manjírá). These men, the most respectable class of musicians, are called by the Sanskrit name Sapardá.

A band of Muhammadan musicians still popular in Dacca, where formerly several existed, is known as Zindah Sháh Ghází-ka-gáyan, who sing Hindustani and Bengali songs, in honour of Zindah Sháh, of interminable length, for which they receive two rupees each section, or canto.

At a performance the chief, Múl, or Díwán Çahib, plants an 'aça, or staff with a crescentic iron head, on a mound, while four players seat themselves around. The leader begins by strutting about waving a yák's tail, clashing the "manjírá," or cymbals, and singing of the redoubtable deeds "of the immortal warrior of the faith," while the players augment the discord by beating drums and clanging the "jhánjh," or Hindu cymbals.

The most despicable class of Muhammadan players, however, are the Hirjá, who personate women in their dress, and are generally believed, as their name imports, to be hermaphrodites. Their obscene songs, and lascivious movements, are regulated by the beating of a "dholak," by morris-bells (ghungrú) attached to the ankles of one of the performers, by cymbals, and by clapping of the hands (tálí).

Formerly the naqárah players were Chamárs, but of late years the lower grades of Muhammadans, always very bigoted Farázís, are exclusively employed, and are known as Bájunia. They are regarded so low in rank that no respectable man will marry into their families, or even eat with them.

BALDIYÁ.

In Bhágalpúr the Baldiyá is known as Ládú-bepárí.

The Baldiyás are Mussulmáns who keep pack-bullocks (balad) for the carriage of bricks, grain, and mortar, from those parts of the country where there are no cart roads. Bullocks, or bulls, are employed, and the Desh bullock being smaller, and more easily laden, is preferred. Ponies are never used by Muhammadans in Eastern Bengal; but Hindu Baldiyás, either Sáha, or Telí by caste, are found occasionally using them.

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The pack-saddle is called Palán, a Persian word; the saddle-bags Goṇi, the Sanskrit for a coarse cloth bag.

The Baldiyá will not castrate bulls, but engages the Gáí-ka-hajjám, generally an Áhír, to do so.

Owing to the increased number of carts wherever there are roads, the Baldiyá has much less work to do in cities than formerly; but still there are about forty families in Dacca. In the jungly tract of Bhowál their services are indispensable, cultivators, or agents, engaging them to transport grain from the inland villages where there are no roads to the nearest river. They charge from two or three rupees the hundred *mans;* but, if the village is difficult of access, four rupees. A tradition current in Dacca is, that the ancestors of the Baldiyás were Banjárás, brought there by the Muhammadan governors. This tradition receives confirmation from the fact that villagers still call the Baldiyá, Banjárá, although they have entirely relinquished the nomade habits of these wandering traders, and in physique have little in common with the lithe gipsy-like figures of the Central India Banjárá. In complexion, features, and muscular development, they are indistinguishable from the Mussulmáns around them.

The inland trade of Bengal was carried on last century by three classes of travelling merchants, the Bepárí, the Banjára, and the Lambáḍí, or Lambaries, as they were usually called, who transported merchandise on bullocks, and pursued their trade even in districts devastated by contending armies.

The Banjárá and Lambáḍí, being Hindus, regarded each other as kinsmen, and while traversing the country were under Government protection; but for greater security each band was accompanied by an old Bhát, or Cháran, woman. If plundered, or ill-treated, the guardian Bhát wounded herself in presence of the aggressors, a deed supposed to be followed by awful retribution. Their ranks were generally swollen by bands of conjurers, jugglers, and other vagrants, who sought protection with these privileged traders.

The Bepárí, again, was quite distinct. He was the trader of Bengal, engaged in transporting salt, corn, sugar, and other bulky goods from one part of the country to another.

BELDÁR.

In Hindustan this is a Hindu profession, but in Eastern Bengal it is exclusively a Muhammadan. In other parts of India menial work is performed by outcast Hindus; but in

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Bengal any repulsive or offensive occupation devolves on the Muhammadan. The Beldár is to the Muhammadan village what the Bhúinmálí is to the Hindu, and it is not improbable that his ancestors belonged to this vile caste.

The Beldár acts as a scavenger in his own village, removing carcasses or cutting brushwood, and he is the torchbearer (Mash'alchí) at Hindu and Mussulman weddings, his only competitor in this occupation being the Bhúinmálí.

BHAṬIÁRÁ.

The Bhaṭiárá is either an eating-house keeper, or an inn-keeper; in the former capacity selling bread, eggs, rice, and "kabáb," or balls of meat roasted on skewers, and contracting to feed strangers for a certain period, and at a fixed rate, usually three anas (4½*d.*) for two meals daily; while in the latter he is a far more important individual. He keeps a Musáfir-khánah, (lit., traveller's abode), or Bhaṭiár-khánah, where travellers are housed and fed. There are no Saráes in Eastern Bengal at the present day, and the Kaṭras, originally built for the accommodation of travellers, have been converted to other uses. These inn-keepers feed travellers for three anas a day, and on paying one paisa additional they receive a mat and are allowed to sleep on the ground in a corner of a thatched hut. The bill of fare provided by the Bhaṭiárá is limited to rice, bread, fish, or meat, curried (sálan), and a richly-seasoned stew, known as "do-piyáza." These inns are shunned by many because, in case of sudden death, the bodies of travellers are handed over to the police and buried by the Dôms. Should the wayfarer, therefore, be poor and friendless, he prefers going to one of the charitable Musáfir-khánas, supported by rich Muhammadans, where he will be housed and fed gratis for three days, and in the event of death his body will receive decent burial.

Under native rule the cook of the Saráe was also the porter, being known as Baqqál, a term now applied to a pedlar.

Of late years enterprising Hindus have opened hotels for their countrymen, but the poorer classes are still entertained in the Modí's, or grocer's, shop.

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BIDRÍ-SÁZ.

The name Bidrí is derived from Bídar, the ancient capital of the Báhmaní Sultáns of the Dakhin, formerly noted for its manufactories of this metal. Dr. B. Heyne visited Bídar early this century, and has given the following description of its preparation.[1] The ware, he says, contains twenty-four parts of tin and one of copper, joined together by fusion. Its distinctive colour was given by taking and rubbing the metal with equal parts of muriate of ammonia and nitre earth, when a lasting black colour was instantaneously impressed, which, becoming tarnished, could be restored by friction with oil or butter.

The preparation and subsequent staining of this alloy in Dacca materially differ from the above, and from that given by Buchanan in his account of Purániya.[2]

The Dacca workman takes one sér of Jastá (zinc), three chhaṭáks of copper and of lead, one and a half chhaṭáks of tin, and one kachchá of cast-iron, puts them into a mud crucible (ghaṛiyá). He introduces this into the centre of a charcoal fire kept in a bright glow, and when the outside of the crucible cracks, he is warned that the metals are fused. The liquid mass is then poured into a mould of the desired shape, the surface being smoothed with a file, while with a sharp-pointed burin, or style, the pattern is engraved. Silver is often inlaid on Bidrí in the following clumsy way. Thin silver foil being hammered into the grooves, it is firmly imbedded with a blunt iron implement. The surface is then polished with lamb's wool and oil, any excess of oil being got rid of with the ashes of cowdung.

Bidrí is blackened with a preparation composed of one Tola (180 grs.) of muriate of ammonia, one-quarter Tola of alum and of iron, and one-third Tola of sulphate of copper. A solution is applied to the heated Bidrí, and on drying the metal is rubbed with a rag.

The Bidrí-Sáz of Dacca preserve a tradition that they originally came from Purneah. They are always Muhammadans, manufacturing at the present day, huqqá-stands, bedposts, basins, vessels to contain pân, and water-goglets (çuráhí).

CHAMRA-FAROSH.

The trade in hides is one of the most flourishing of the present day, the traders belonging to the strictest sect of

[1] An account of the Biddery ware in India, in "Annals of Philosophy" for October, 1813, vol. ii, 260.

[2] Vol. iii, 320, 321.

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Muhammadanism, and generally to the Kúṭí subdivision, which is either Farazí or Wahábbí in religion. When work is slack the hide dealer is found working as a mason, or water-carrier.

It is alleged that no Hindu capitalist will advance money for such an unhallowed trade, but the Chamṛa-farosh finds no difficulty in obtaining money from the Sáha banker, with whom he generally arranges to divide the profit in equal proportions. The term interest (súd) is an abomination to the Farazí; but he dearly loves it when called "Manáfi'," or profit. Confidence in each other's probity is a surprising trait in the character of the natives of Eastern Bengal, who, without any security, and merely on the promissory note of the borrower, lend money, and very rarely indeed are they defrauded.

Having received his advance, the hide merchant sends agents into the country to buy old and diseased cattle for slaughter, as well as the hides of animals skinned and dried by the village Ṛishí. The Chamṛa-farosh soaks hides in water, scrubbing them with "Jhámа," or burnt brick, and rubbing in a little impure alkali (Kharí-namak), when they are ready for the market. The skin of a slaughtered animal (halálí) is more valuable than that of one which has died of disease (murdárí), the former fetching about forty-four anas in the villages, and from forty-eight to fifty-two anas in Dacca, while the latter is bought for forty to forty-two anas in the country, and for forty-eight in the town. The "halálí" is recognised by its having no bare patches on the back. The carcasses of animals dying in villages are always dragged to the outskirts: hence it happens that the "murdárí" bears along the spine patches where the hair is rubbed off, and which lessen the value of the skin.

Last century Dacca was a celebrated mart for the sale of otter skins, agents being met with in most villages along the foot of the hills which bound the north-eastern frontier of Bengal; but at present the trade is extinct, although otters are still numerous in all the rivers that issue from the hills. The demand for these furs in China and Tibet has ceased, owing probably to the introduction of cotton and woollen goods, or to some change of fashion in these countries.

CHANDÚ-WÁLAH.

The infamy of having introduced this demoralising vice into Eastern Bengal attaches to one Sonáullah of Ruknpúr, in the city of Dacca, who, about 1830, brought a Chinaman from Calcutta and opened an opium shop in the city. The vice at

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once captivated the sensual Muhammadans, and within twenty years as many as twenty-two shops were opened, but at present, owing to the heavy licensing tax, the number is reduced to eleven.

The Chandú-wálah is always a Mussulmán, but the shop is often leased by a Hindu Sáha whose respectability would suffer if he personally superintended the smoking. Throughout the Eastern districts of Mymensingh, Tipperah, and Báqirganj, the vice is slowly but steadily spreading; while in Silhet, where opium-eating is as much indulged in as in Assam, Chandú-smoking has been adopted in earnest, and is now more general than in any of the other districts.

Chandú-smoking is the same as the opium-smoking of China, and the word Chandú[1] is the one in common use in the Malay Archipelago.

Crude opium cannot be smoked on account of its irritating quality and nauseous flavour: consequently at Singapore the extract is prepared with extreme care, but in Bengal less trouble is taken.

To prepare Chandú the Dacca manufacturer takes opium and mixes it with the refuse—"maíl" or "inchí"—which collects in the opium pipe, in the proportion of one "bharí," or a rupee weight, of the former to twelve anas of the latter. Water is added, and heat being gradually applied, the mixture is kept constantly stirred. As soon as the infusion is ready it is strained through a piece of fine muslin, then put a second time into a pan, and evaporated, until the mass becomes of the consistence of glue, or treacle. The Chandú-wálah places different quantities of this prepared opium in little cups made of palm-leaves, and arranges them against the arrival of his customers.

When the smoker enters the dark and dirty hut, he lies down on a mat, resting his head on a very greasy pillow; and, as it is essential that all distracting noises be shut out, and the smoker allowed to enjoy the "khiyál," or ecstasy, so much valued by the habitué, the hut is situated in a narrow and unsavoury lane, where individuals can enter unobserved. The interior of the room is usually darkened, and the prostrate figures are indistinctly seen by the light of several shaded oil-lamps placed on the floor.

Having bought his opium, the smoker takes an iron wire, called "thuk," and fixes on it the Chandú pellet (chíta), then drawing one of the lamps towards him, heats the opium in the flame and kneads it in the palm-leaf cup held in his left hand. After heating and kneading the opium several times it is ready

[1] Chandú, prepared opium for smoking.—Crawford, "Malay Dictionary."

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for use, and is put into a china bowl fixed on the side of a Bamboo tube, a little over a foot in length, which is imported from China, being identical with the opium pipe of that country. The contents are then applied to the flame, and the smoker rapidly inhales the fumes, never drawing breath until all the opium is consumed, when, like the Gánjha smoker, he expels the smoke slowly and reluctantly. Three "chítás," costing one paisa, will intoxicate a beginner, but habitués will finish five, or even more, without any effect beyond flushing the face, brightening the eyes, and causing a pleasing ecstacy. Unless the pipe is kept constantly clean by means of a pricker, called "gillí," the refuse accumulates and produces dryness and burning of the throat.

According to Mr. Little,[1] Chandú-smoking causes at first nervous excitement, sleeplessness, and increase of the sexual passion; but when indulged in to excess is followed by dyspepsia, bowel-complaints, functional derangements of the heart, dysuria, often ending in albuminuria, carbuncles, and intractable ulcerations. Among the Chinese, whose vital power has been reduced by constant intoxication, remittent fevers are very common, and very obstinate. The Bengali smoker, however, alleges that no injurious effects are produced as long as he lives on milk, butter, and sweetmeats. Muhammadan physicians, on the other hand, consider opium a "damágh-ka-nashá," or brain stimulant, and recommend it as an invigorating and tonic medicine in suitable doses.

Chandú is said to be an aphrodisiac, but when indulged in to excess, or when nutritious food is not taken at the same time, impotency often ensues. If regularly smoked it is a preservative against malarious fevers and colds; but when deprived of his daily allowance, the smoker becomes irritable, hypochondriacal, and very subject to diarrhœa.

Chandú-smoking among Chinese women tends to cause sterility, or miscarriages. In Bengal Chandú is smoked by prostitutes for its aphrodisiac properties, and of late years they have become such inveterate smokers that it is notorious no woman who has once tasted the delights of opium ever gives it up.

Gánjha-smoking is as peculiarly a Hindu vice as Chandú-smoking is a Muhammadan. Hindus of the lower castes occasionally visit the opium shop, but form a very small proportion of the smokers. The idle and dissolute Mussulmáns of old and embarrassed families, brought up in the midst of a licentious population, without any education or healthy incentive to

[1] On Chandú-smoking at Singapore, see an exhaustive paper by Mr. R. Little, in vol. ii, No. 1, of the "Journal of the Indian Archipelago" for 1848.

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exertion, are the chief smokers; and it is of daily occurrence to find the head of a house an inveterate smoker, miserable until his spirits have been elevated by his favourite drug. It is not unusual for Muhammadans to excuse their intemperate habits on the ground of prolonging their lives. Throughout the East it is a popular belief that on the birth of each human being the angel Jabra'il writes on the forehead the number of inspirations allotted to him. By diminishing their frequency (ḥabs-i-dam), which can be most effectually done by opium, life will be prolonged, and they instance Sháh Madár, who was an adept at holding his breath, and lived to the patriarchal age of three hundred and ninety-five years.

CHAUNRÍ-WÁLAH

Is a Muhammadan who makes fly-flaps and besoms with strips of Date palm-leaves, the former used by syces, the latter by domestic servants. Bráhmans, however, dust the ground before their idols with the tail of a Ban-gáe,[1] or Yak, and a Chaunrí of this is also borne at the Muharram by the boy called Imám-ka-Páik.

CHHAPAR-BAND.

CHAYÁL.

In Dacca the trade of making bamboo frameworks for thatched roofs is carried on by Muhammadans of the most advanced Farází persuasion; but in villages Chaṇḍáls, or any person skilled in the work, follow it.

Bamboos before being used are always steeped in water to harden them against the attacks of white ants, and several varieties are selected according to the particular requirement. "Tulda" bamboo (Bambusa tulda) is good for Ja'farí, or lattice-work; "Ora" for the framework of the roof; and "Barák" for uprights. Houses in Bengal of the ordinary curvilinear form are covered with two chhapars, and the hut is called an "Alang." A four-sided pointed roof is known as "Chau-chála," in Bihár "Chautarká;" one with four verandahs in addition an "Ath-chála;" while two chhapars with an extension in front, covering a verandah, a "tai-chála."

[1] Vana-gava, Bos Gavaeus, or wild ox.

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The chhapar-band is often, though not necessarily, a thatcher, or "gharámí." Thatching grass is bought from Chaṇḍáls, and in May, when it is in season, the annual fires occur, causing much loss to the citizens, but improving the sanitary state of the bazárs and villages, which are usually referred to thatchers discontented with the dull trade, and, if correct, verifying the description given of them fifty-eight years ago. Mr. Walter Hamilton, writing in 1820 of the Dacca workmen, says: "The thatched houses being of very combustible materials are generally burned down once, if not twice, per annum, and are viewed while burning by their owners with an apathy truly Asiatic. Into large earthen pots, sunk in the ground, they throw the few valuables they possess, and mats, thatch, and bamboos being plenty, the expenditure of a few rupees restores their edifice to all its original splendour. These fires generally originate with the owners of house-building materials (chhapar-bands and gharámís), and when a fleet of boats loaded with them arrives, a conflagration may be expected to ensure a ready sale."[1]

CHHÍPÍ-GAR

Is a cotton-printer, who stamps patterns on embroidered muslins, known in the trade as "kashída," and "chikan."

The dye used in stamping is called "pachá-pathar," or "Deomatí," a red-ochre earth from Upper India.

Leí-chhapa employs other workmen. Paste, or glue, is heated and smeared over the stamp with which the design is impressed on the cloth.

The men who follow these occupations would consider themselves degraded if they traced patterns on silk, which is exclusively the work of women.

CHIKAN-DOZ.

They are Muhammadan embroiderers of muslin, who work with gold, or silver, thread (Kalábattun), as well as with cotton and silk, and make the beautifully ornamented caps worn by rich Mussulmáns. The Chikan-doz is usually a workman, but

[1] "A Geographical, Statistical, and Historical Description of Hindostan," vol. i, 186.

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a few, having saved money, are wholesale dealers. Not having the same scruples as the Rafúgar about instructing their daughters' children, they freely teach all desirous of learning the art.

Ustágar is the polite term by which to address a member of this class. Ustágarní is the title of the female, not necessarily the wife of an embroiderer, who gives out kashída cloth to be worked in private houses, there being few Muhammadan families of respectability the females of which do not spend much of their leisure in embroidering handkerchiefs for export to Arabia and the Persian Gulf.[1]

CHÍRÁ-KASH.

Individuals belonging to the Káyasth, Sonár, Tántí, and Sáha castes, but chiefly Muhammadans, earn a livelihood by engraving on gold, silver, or copper in the following manner. A plate, or salver, being fixed to a bench with wax, the pattern is traced with a sharp style and afterwards cut out with a chisel. The Chírá-Kash also make patterns in relief by the crude method of placing wooden blocks underneath, and beating the thin metal on them.

CHÚRÍWÁLA H.

This Muhammadan trade is quite distinct from that of the Hindu Kácharu, the former manufacturing glass bracelets of different colours, and ornamenting them with tinfoil, while the latter only works in lac.

Glass in crude lumps (thakká) is imported from Cawnpore, and is either of a dull white or of a pale green colour. Various tints are given to it by the Chúrí-wálah. By mixing lead and tin a yellow colour is obtained; with a salt of copper, called "chhíp," imported from Nepaul, a sky blue (ásmání) is formed; with sulphate of copper a deep green; with a mixture of lead and zinc, or pewter (jastá), and tin, a deep red.

Glass bracelets are made in the following way. The furnace (bhaṭhí), partially sunk in the ground with a wood fire underneath, contains a large crucible which, being of smaller diameter

[1] Mrs. Kindersley, writing from Allahabad in 1768, says: "The finest filigrane (an old name for this embroidery) is made at Dacca. This is work which requires great delicacy and patience; it is not perforated like the filigrane made in Europe, but the gold or silver thread is cut into long pieces like fine threads." Letters, &c., p. 241. (London, 1777.)

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than the furnace, allows the flame to ascend and heat the trays arranged around. There are six openings into the furnace, and opposite each a workman sits, while the implements at hand are a "saláka," or iron-pointed rod, with which the molten material is extracted, and a spear-shaped piece of iron, called "málá," with which the glass is fashioned into a circular band. At this stage the material is again heated, and, with a thin iron rod (patkar), the band is transformed into a narrow ring, which, being placed on an earthen cone (sarkandí, or sánchá), the proper size is given to the bracelet.

These artizans know nothing of the art of annealing, consequently when the bracelet is finished it is placed on the ground at the side of the furnace and allowed to cool gradually.

A skilful workman will turn out a thousand bracelets a day; but an unskilful about half that number only. In Dacca these bracelets are in great demand, the market price being two anas (*3d.*) a hundred; but in Hindustan eight hundred are bought for that sum.

Another branch of this trade is ornamenting the bracelets with tin-foil. Lac is smeared along the circumference of the glass circle, and the foil, often of a golden colour, is stuck on. Bracelets ornamented in this manner and sold for five anas a hundred, are generally worn by Muhammadan females of the lower ranks, as shell-bracelets, the correct wrist decoration of Hindu females, cannot be put on by them.

DAFA'DÁR.

This name, properly given to a sergeant of police, is in Eastern Bengal the designation of a low class of Mussulmáns who, chiefly found along the banks of the Hilsámárí river, are also known as "Nalwah" from using the Nal grass in the manufacture of baskets.

They are undoubtedly an offshoot from the Hajjám division, and having adopted a new occupation, as a natural consequence, claim a higher position than the parent stock. The Hajjáms eat with the Dafa'dárs, but the Dafa'dárs decline to deal with the Hajjáms on a footing of equality.

The men and women make rice bins and coarse mats, called "chaṭáí," with Nal grass, brought from the Sunderbuns by themselves, or by traders.

Though a despised community they do not permit their women to appear in public, and still cling, uninfluenced by the

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preaching of the modern doctors, to their old ancestral beliefs and customs.

Their headman is styled Mu'tabar, but he does not receive, as is usual, a present of a turban at weddings. Furthermore, an annual subscription to the Panchá́it is not levied, but the Mullá gets a fee at weddings and funerals.

DÁÍ.

This word is often counfounded with the Sanskrit "Dhá́í," a wet nurse. In Eastern Bengal, Dhá́í is a midwife, the "dudh-piláí" being a wet nurse.

Midwives are generally Muhammadans, but if Hindus they belong to the Chamár caste. No respectable Hindu will cut the navel-cord, and a common term of abuse applied to a midwife is "Nár-Káṭa," or one who cuts the cord.

The male relatives of these women are usually tailors or musicians; while in villages they often work as weavers. There is always great jealousy between them and the barbers and professional musicians, as, though equally degraded, each claims a superiority over the other.

In Dacca the midwives are invariably ignorant and generally consequential, while, being few in number, they are very independent, extorting money in proportion to the anxieties of their patients. A midwife forms an important part of a household, and no family of note is without one. Like the Purohit and barber, the Dáí is a privileged person, and has freedom of access to the female apartments at any hour. Her post is usually hereditary, but, if childless, the Dáí adopts a young woman and educates her in the mysteries of the profession. Muhammadan ladies have no objection to be attended by a Hindu or Christian woman, but one of their own creed is preferred. The poorer classes attend on each other, and only in cases of difficulty is the European doctor, or the professional *accoucheuse*, called in. Parturition is in most instances easy, and the poor have seldom any need of skilled attendance; but among the listless inmates of Zanánas, who never lead a healthy or invigorating life, labour is often tedious and exhausting.

When a woman, either Hindu or Muhammadan, approaches the term of her pregnancy, an outhouse, or detached room, is prepared for her to which, when labour begins, she retires with the Dáí and a servant. This den, to which the highest, as well as the lowest, is condemned, is known as the *Asaucha-ghar*, or *Chhaṭhí-ghar*. The duty of the midwife is to rub and roll about

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the patient so as to increase the pains, and when the child is born to cut the cord with a piece of bamboo (tarlá-ka-chhalti), and to give immediate warning for the "Azán," or call to prayers.

Of the mechanism of parturition, of the dangers to be avoided and provided against, midwives are profoundly ignorant; a woman being satisfied if she is attended by the family Dái, or by the pupil of the Dái, who aided her mother, or sister, under similar circumstances. Being obliged to observe many customs, without the due performance of which her own, and her child's life, would be endangered, the mother resigns herself to the hands of the midwife assured that all will go well.

The midwife is expected to pay frequent visits until all danger has passed; but should the lady be rich, she is not allowed to leave the house for days. It devolves on her to anoint the infant daily, for in India babies are never bathed. Lampblack must be smeared along the eyelashes, and a mash of warm aromatics (ghuṭṭí) given daily. For two days after birth the mother is only allowed to take turmeric, molasses, and infusion of Ajwain, while on the third, and up to the fortieth day, she may eat pulse (masúr) and rice.

After the birth of a child many strange rites are performed. A bonfire (aláwa) is kept smouldering at the door of the Chhaṭhí-ghar for six days in the hot, for twenty-one in the cold, season, and an oil lamp, placed within the room, must never be permitted to go out, an attendant being always on the watch to trim it, as darkness favours the entrance of evil spirits. A horse-shoe is placed beneath the bedding, as iron is most distasteful to all kinds of devils; and an earthen vessel, on which the name of God is written, is hung over the door. No one can leave the room before midday, and on no account must the baby's clothes be washed, or dried, anywhere but inside the room. If the husband, or doctor, has to visit the mother his clothes are fumigated with the smoke of mustard seed thrown on the fire, and when the visitor leaves, any food, milk, or drinking water, standing in the room must be flung away. For six days the Hindu mother is confined in this den, her Muhammadan sister remaining for ten.

The evil spirit, "Umm-us-sibiyán," literally the mother of children, is chiefly feared by the Mussulmáns, being believed to cause convulsions, for the cure of which the "Ojhá," or wizard, is summoned, and should recovery ensue he is credited with effecting it. Up to the age of eighteen months this terrible demon has to be kept at bay, after which she is considered to be powerless.

On the sixth, or Chhaṭhí day, the barber and washerman are

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sent for; the former cutting the hair, and paring the nails, of the infant; the latter taking away the puerperal garments. It is from performing this menial work that the Dhobí belongs to a very unclean class.

On the twenty-first, or ikkísí day, the barber and washerman again attend, when similar duties are discharged.

On the fortieth day after the birth of a boy, impurity ceases, as among the Jews, but several rites must be first of all performed. There is the "Kua-Jhánkna," or peeping into the well, which is identical with the worship of Subháchaní among Hindus, after which the mother resumes her household duties.

If a child be stillborn the mother is given an infusion of Bamboo leaves in which a copper coin has been soaked. The draught is believed to decompose the poison which caused the death of the child. Should a woman give birth to several stillborn children in succession, the popular belief is, that the same child reappears on each occasion, when, to frustrate the designs of the evil spirit that has taken possession of the child, the nose, or a portion of an ear, is cut off, and the body is cast away on a dunghill.

Dáís have many secret remedies which they puff with unblushing assurance. Several are innocuous, a few useful, but in all cases they consist of so many and such heterogeneous substances that their action must be extremely doubtful. Their favorite remedy is called Mastúrí, or Battísá, from its being composed of thirty two ingredients. Among other things it contains syrup, galls, litharge, sandal-wood, rock salt, and *gokhrú* (*Tribulus lanuginosus*), and is applied on balls of cotton soaked in Champá oil in all diseases peculiar to women.

DARWESH.

The foundation of the various Darwesh orders is referred to the early days after Muhammad, and, if tradition is to be believed, earnest men united by a common tie, and worshipping God according to certain formulæ, were countenanced by Abú Bakr and 'Alí. Before the birth of Muhammad, however, the mystical doctrines of the Çufís, tinged by the philosophy of the Hindus, penetrated the religious ranks of the East, and inspired Uwais Karaní, in the thirty-seventh year of the Hijra (A.D. 657), to withdraw from the world, and found the first fraternity of mendicants. Imitating his example Abú Bakr and 'Alí organised two similar orders, and entrusted their management to Khalífas,

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or successors. From these congregations have sprung all the Darwesh orders of the present day; the Bistámís, Naqshbandís, and Biktashís being offshoots from the parent society of Abú Bakr, and the remaining houses from that of 'Alí. Hammer fixes the number of Darwesh orders at thirty-six, and mentions that only twelve existed before the foundation of the Ottoman Empire in 1298, while the rest were established between the beginning of the fourteenth and the middle of the eighteenth century.

In Southern India Faqírs belong to one or other of fourteen households (Khánawádas); but several of the largest, and most popular, orders of Persia and Turkey are unrepresented. In Hindustan, however, various lists are given. Wilson in his Glossary enumerates ten classes:—

Qádiría.	Jalálía.
Chishtía.	Sohágía.
Shaṭṭaría.	Naqshbandía.
Madária.	Malang.
Rafáí.	Báwá pyárí Ka faqírán.

Mr. Blochmann, again, divides the Indian Darwesh orders into four greater and six inferior, as follows:—

Qádiría.	Shiblía.
Chishtía.	Madária.
Naqshbandía.	Shaṭṭaría.
Suhrawardía.	Zindah fili.
	Kashmírí Rishís.
	Majzúbí.

In Eastern Bengal, however, only representatives of the Qádiría, Chishtía, Rafáí, Madária, and Naqshbandía are met with; while of late years no Sohágia has appeared.

The ordinary distinction between one class of Faqír and another is popularly made to depend on the observance, or otherwise, of the Shara', or precepts of the Muhammadan religion. The Bá-Shara', or Sálik, by far the most respected, regulate their lives in accordance with the rules of Muḥammadanism, while the Be-Shara', or Majzúb, follow their own appetites and passions, eating and drinking whatever they fancy, and leading disreputable and scandalous lives. Many of them are poor demented creatures, like the Abdáls of Syria, who wander about nearly naked, justifying their indecency by the text of the Koran, "the clothing of piety is better than apparel and fine garments."

The Sálik are usually married men of settled habits; the Majzúb are homeless beggars, who wander all over India

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dependent on the charity of the benevolent, and universally credited with supernatural powers. The former initiate disciples (murid); the latter rarely do so.

The Darwesh orders resemble in many obvious respects the fraternities of the Roman Catholic Church, the main difference between them and the rest of the people consisting in a strict observance of certain religious rites peculiar to themselves, and not in any cardinal diversity of belief. Taçawwuf, or the mysticism of the Çufís, does not embody any philosophical or religious system, but is identical with the rule of a monastic order. Each Darwesh society has a rule of its own, comprising some simple, and many obscure, formulæ; while all acknowledge Muhammad as the prophet, and the Koran as the handwriting of God. Contrary to the opinion of the 'Ullamá, Darweshes believe that many texts of the Koran have a mystical as well as an obvious meaning, and maintain that the distinctive tenets of the various orders are based on texts only understood by a privileged few. The Hadís, or traditionary precepts of Muhammad, and the commentaries of the four great Doctors, are also admitted to be unerring, and binding on all believers. The peculiar religious doctrines of Çufís are still hidden from us, and the minute shades of difference separating one from the other have not been determined. Darweshes, however, concur in believing that God is the only object of contemplation, and that the highest truths can only be mastered by rapturous abstraction, or by falling into a trance, when the outer world of perception passes away and the soul enters into the unseen and spiritual world. The Eastern mystics derived many of their peculiar conceptions from the Greek Plotinus, the Egyptian Aristotle, as they call him, who asserted that being and knowledge were identical. Çufís, therefore, maintain that to know the Divine Intelligence it is necessary to become that Divine Intelligence; and as the soul is an emanation from God, a ray of His ineffable brightness, it must lose its personality, becoming absorbed, during the ecstatic state, into the Divine Essence. The Spanish Quietists asserted that the soul became purified, and prepared for reabsorption, by prolonged austerity; but the Çufís regard the soul as the slave of the will, being at pleasure constrained to unite with the Great Spirit. By constant meditation, therefore, on the attributes and beneficence of God, and by renunciation of the world and its temptations, the Darwesh acquires Ma'rifat, or knowledge of Him.

It is the privilege of only a very few to gain this knowledge, but, through the mercy of God, holy men have from time to time appeared to guide mankind towards salvation by pointing out the path (Ṭarîq) leading to perfect knowledge. Each

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messenger has indicated a new route; but all tend towards the same goal. According to some authorities there are always forty saints (Chhihal tanán) with one chief, or Quṭb, living, round whom the whole Muhammadan world revolves. Several of these Quṭbs have established orders; but others have merely revived and reformed those already existing.

(*a*) Chishtía.

The founder of this Indian Darwesh order, Khwájah Mu'inuddín, son of Ghiyásuddín, a Sayyid of the house of Husain, was born at Chisht, a village of Sístán, in A.H. 537 (1142). When fifteen years old his father died, but his education was directed by Ibráhim Kandozí, a celebrated doctor, by Khwájah 'Usman ,and finally by the great 'Abd-ul-Qádir Gílání. According to the author of the Qánoon-i-Islám, it was a certain Shaikh Abú Isháq Chishtí who organised the fraternity; but it is generally admitted that Mu'inuddín followed Shahábuddín Ghorí in his invasion of India, A.D. 1193, and settled at Ajmír in a ruined temple sacred to Mahádeo. It is popularly believed that the saint was in the daily habit of filling a water-skin (mashk) and hanging it on a bough. The water drops fell upon a "lingam" hidden beneath leaves and rubbish, and this, although quite accidental, so pleased Mahádeo that he conferred on the saint many miraculous powers. Hence it is that Hindus, as well as Muhammadans, make votive offerings at his tomb, especially in the month of October. Mu'inuddín died on Saturday, the 6th of Rajab, A.H. 636 (1238), and ever since Ajmír has been known as Dár-ul-Khair, the abode of goodness.

The Ajmír shrine has always been greatly favoured by the Muhammadan rulers of India, and Mu'inuddín became the patron saint of the Mughal dynasty. In 1544 it was visited by Sher Sháh. In 1570, five months after the birth of Jahángír, Akbar walked to Ajmír on foot from Agra, a distance of two hundred miles, in fulfilment of a vow. In 1613, Jahángír caused a brass kettle to be made at the shrine for cooking food for five thousand pilgrims. In 1614, he attributed his recovery from a violent fever to the intercession of the saint, and, as a token of gratitude and humility, had his ears bored. In 1616, when at Ajmír, he enclosed the tomb with a gold railing of pierced work, costing 1,12,000 rupees. In 1628, Sháh Jahán, on his way to Agra, prostrated himself before it. In the wars which followed on the death of Aurangzíb, the shrine was pillaged and destroyed, but Madhají and Daulat Ráo Scindiah erected the present plain building over the tomb.

The next celebrated member of this order was Makhdúm

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Sayyid Muhammad Banda-nawáz, Gesu-daraz, or the long-haired, who resided at the courts of Fíruz and Ahmad I, of the Bahmaní dynasty, towards the end of the fourteenth, and beginning of the fifteenth centuries. His tomb is at Gulbarga in the Dakhin, and his 'Urs is held on the 16th of the month Zí-qa'da.

Before the reign of Akbar, Shaikh Músá, a descendant of Shaikh Farídi-Shakarganj, resided at Sikri, where his wife bore several sons, the second being Shaikh Salím Chishtí, whose life is so intimately connected with that of Akbar's family. The date of his birth is not given, but he was at the height of his fame about 1569, when he foretold the birth of Prince Salím, the future Jahángír. The Shaikh was married, and of several sons distinguished as soldiers, the most famous was Shaikh Ahmad, who became a Mançubdár of five hundred at the court of Akbar.[1] Shaikh Salím died A.H. 979 (1571), and was buried at Fathpúr Sikrí in a tomb which has been described "as a perfect gem of art, elaborately executed in white marble of the purest hue, and the most delicate sculpture."[2] At the present day it is resorted to by thousands; and barren women, both Hindus and Muhammadans, tie pieces of string on the marble lattice work, in confident hope that they will conceive through the intercession of the saint.

Other followers of this order have earned lasting renown. At Agra is the tomb of Shaikh Ishmáíl Chishtí Akbarábádí, who died A.D. 1655, leaving a great name for sanctity. Sayyid Sháh Zuhúr, who built a small earthen monastery at Allahábád, which still exists, is also renowned for the miraculous cures effected during his lifetime, and vows paid at his tomb are rewarded at the present day by restoration to health.

A few members of this Darwesh order are always to be found in Eastern Bengal, and one of them has resided for many years in the tomb of Sháb Jalál Dakhiní at Dacca; but the head of the fraternity, known as Sar-guroh, or Sajjáda-nishín, always resides at Ajmír.

The Chishtía Faqírs, generally Shías, are very illiterate, and unable to read Arabic or Persian.

As a rule they are married men, who freely indulge in opium eating, but do not use Bháng, or other intoxicating drugs. Like many religious mendicants, Hindu and Muhammadan, they carry a large sea cocoa-nut (*Lodoicea Sechellarum*), called a Kishtí, into which they receive alms of food and money. Around the neck are hung three necklaces of glass beads known as Kanṭhá, Zanár, and Tasbíh, the last the rosary, consisting of a hundred

[1] For further particulars of the family, *see* Blochmann's "Ain-i-Akbarí."
[2] Roberts (E.) "Hindostan," ii, 5.

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and one beads. It is incumbent on each Faqír to recite the confession of faith (Kalmá) five times daily for each bead, and during the first watch of the night ('ishá-namáz), he must spend several hours in repeating texts of the Koran, and in counting his beads. On the right arm an amulet is bound, within which is contained a slip of paper on which is written the Súra Yá Sin,[1] or heart of the Koran, as Muhammad called it.

Music, either instrumental or vocal, forms an essential part of their religious services, it having been observed by Mu'inuddín that singing was the food and support of the soul. When in a state of abstraction, or animated by religious fervour, the Chishtía Faqírs break forth into loud and excited singing, and throw themselves into strange attitudes, hanging by their feet from trees, or arching their bodies backwards till the head touches the ground, and mistaking, as Gibbon has it, "the giddiness of the head for the illumination of the spirit."

These Faqírs eat and drink in any respectable house, and partake as readily of food cooked by a Hindu, or Christian, as by a Muhammadan.

(*b*) QÁDIRÍA.

Throughout the Muhammadan world, from the shores of the Atlantic to the confines of China, the great Darwesh 'Abd-ul-Qádir Gílání is venerated as the first of spiritual teachers, and invoked in all seasons of danger, or tribulation. The following are a few among many titles indicating his superiority over all other saints, Píran-i-Pír, Pír-i-dastgír, Ghaus-ul-'Azím, and Ghaus-ul-Çamadání.

Sayyid 'Abd-ul-Qádir was born in Gílán, a province of Irán, in A.H. 471 (1078), and while still an infant, by refusing to taste milk during the fast of Ramazán, he foretold his sacred mission. When seventeen years of age he went to Bághdad, and in A.H. 521 (1127) began public lectures. He was appointed guardian of the tomb of the Imán 'Azam abú Hanífah, who died in prison A.H. 150 (767). The date of his death is uncertain, but most authorities fix it in A.H. 561 (1165). His body was interred in a suburb of the city, and around it so many saints have been entombed that Bághdad has acquired the name of Burj-al-auliyá, or citadel of saints. The tomb of 'Abd-ul-Qádir is one of the most handsome buildings in modern Bághdad, being surmounted by a lofty dome, and enclosed in a garden watered by means of an aqueduct leading from the Tigris. The court is divided into a vast number of small cells, tenanted by Faqírs,

[1] So named from the thirty-sixth Súra, which begins with these two letters. This chapter is so highly valued, that Muhammadans learn it by heart, and have it read to dying persons when *in articulo*.

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and the shrine is so richly endowed that about three hundred mendicants are fed daily.[1] The inhabitants of Bághdad regard 'Abd-ul-Qádir as their patron saint, and call upon him on all occasions of peril, or affliction, by land or water.

' Qádiría Faqírs are met with in all parts of the East, and in Egypt often earn a livelihood as fishermen. Their banners and turbans are properly white, but in India their dress is either green or white, while many prefer the red ochre dye, distinctive of Hindu Bairágís, for staining their coarse sleeveless tunic, known as "Ázád-be-nawá." In Bengal Qádiría Faqírs are always married, their sons being initiated as soon as they come of age. The Urs, or annual festival, of the saint, is observed on the eleventh Rabiâ-us-sání.

The rites attending the admission of a disciple are symbolical of those observed after the death of a Muhammadan. The pupil being stripped and shaved, seven jars of water are poured over him, and as each jar is emptied the Kalmá, or confession of faith, is repeated four times. A Kafan, or "Allah Nabí ka dalq," the peculiar dress of mendicants, and a red, black, or blue collar (girebán) of a singular pattern are put on him. A real Qádiría is recognised by this collar, which is worked by the Faqírs themselves, and composed of a certain number of stitches sewn in squares, never in curves. Should the stitches be too few, or too many, the impostor is unmasked, and is liable to have it snatched away by the true Faqír.

The novice finally receives a necklace (kanṭhá) as well as a rosary (tasbíh), and in return is expected, but not obliged, to pay a fee varying from four to ten rupees.

Qádiría Faqírs accept money and uncooked food from Hindus, and eat with most classes of Muhammadans, although they despise and ill-treat the Bediyá and other Muhammadans of doubtful orthodoxy.

They never sell amulets to ward off disease, as other mendicants do, nor claim the possession of power to exorcise spirits; yet the public credit them as well as all religious mendicants with this faculty.

The wives of the Bengal Qádiría never join their husbands in perambulating the city, but, attending to their household duties, earn a little by embroidering muslins.

(*c*) Naqshbandí.

This is one of the most widely dispersed, and most respectable, of Indian Darwesh orders. Followers of this "path" are very common in Hindustan, while in Bukhárá and Central

[1] "Geographical Memoir of the Persian Empire," by J. M. Kinneir, p. 250.

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Asia they are so numerous that all pilgrims to Mecca from these distant countries are known by the Arabs as Naqshbandí.

The original founder of this religious order was one Ubaidullah, but Baháuddín by his writings defined the principles of the sect, and established it on a secure basis. Pír Muhammad Baháuddín Naqshband, a contemporary of Timour, died A.H. 791 (1388).[1] He is the patron saint of Bukhárá, and when Vambery arrived in that city, the inhabitants at once concluded that his long and perilous journey was only taken for the purpose of visiting the tomb of the saint. The shrine of Baháuddín stands a few miles out of Bukhárá, on the Samarkand road, the tomb being in a small garden, exposed to the weather, as every roof built over it has been thrown down by supernatural agency. On one side is a mosque, in front of which is the famous Sang-i-murád, or stone of desire, worn and polished by the foreheads of generations of devotees, and adjoining is a large college. Over the tomb hang several rams' horns, a banner, and a broom formerly used in sweeping the sanctuary at Mecca.[2] Pilgrimages are made to this shrine from the most distant parts of the Muhammadan world, and it is customary for each Bukhariot to visit it every week, three pilgrimages being looked upon as equivalent to one paid to the distant Ka'ba. The inhabitants think that by merely uttering "Baháuddín balá-gardán!" "Baháuddín, thou averter of evil!" they will be saved from all misfortunes.

According to D'Herbelot, Baháuddín wrote a work called "Maqámat," or discourses on various subjects connected with eloquence and academic studies, which is the guide book of the sect. The title of Naqshband was bestowed on Baháuddín because he "drew incomparable pictures (naqsh-bandí) of the Divine science, and painted figures of the Eternal Invention, which are not imperceptible."

In Bengal, the Naqshbandí Faqírs, usually called "Mushkil-Ásán," a designation implying power to avert evil, are generally married men, and Bá-shara'. On Thursday evenings they perambulate the streets carrying a lighted lamp (Shama'), and proclaiming that there is only One who can alleviate sorrow, and whose ear is always open to the cry of the penitent. They never ask for alms, but accept whatever is given and in return imprint a "tilak," or mark, on the forehead of the alms giver.

There are two ceremonies observed by Muhammadan women closely connected with the peculiar doctrines of this fraternity. The first is a fast called Muskil-Ásán, observed on each Thursday

[1] D'Ohsson places his death in A.H. 719 (1319).

[2] "Travels into Bukhárá," by Sir A. Burnes, ii, 271. "Travels in Central Asia," by Arminius Vambery, 194.

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in November. What its original signification was is now difficult to ascertain, but it was probably kept in seasons of adversity as at present, when after fasting for a day the celebrants eat Halwáh, and another sweatmeat called Chitwáh.

The other, known as "Mushkil-Kushá," or dispeller of difficulties, is celebrated on the seventh, seventeenth, and twenty-seventh of the moon in each month, when a goglet-(Kúza), and a salt-cellar, are arranged for the service, after which the fast is broken by eating millet and the sweetmeats Jalebí and Núkal.

(*d*) RAFÁ'Í.

The Rafá'í, or Gurzmár, Faqírs are less frequently met with in Bengal than any of the other Darwesh orders; but occasionally they wander into Eastern Bengal seeking disciples and soliciting alms.

The founder of this fraternity was Sayyid Ahmad ibn Abúal Hasan al Rafá'í, called Al Kabír and Al Wálí al 'Arif. He was nephew (bhánjá) of 'Abdul Qádir Gilání, and descendant of an Arab called Rifa'a. His abode was in the Baṭa'ih, or marshes, forming the delta of the Euphrates, and he died in the village of Om 'Obaidah A.H. 578 (1182), aged over seventy.[1] Leaving no issue, the family of his brother succeeded, and still preside over the order. Tradition has preserved a favourite saying of this haughty saint, "This foot of mine is over the necks of all the saints of Allah;" but is silent regarding his life.

The Rafá'í Faqírs are the same as the Howling Darweshes of Constantinople, who, although rare in India, are very numerous and popular in Turkey and Egypt.

Like the priests of Baal, the Rafá'í practise the most astonishing feats of self-torture, cutting themselves with knives, till the blood gushes out upon them, and pretending to thrust spikes into their eyes, to break large stone blocks placed on their chests, to eat live charcoal, to swallow swords, and to perform many other tricks of legerdemain.

An opportunity presented itself in 1874 of observing one of these Faqírs, a very ignorant, disreputable looking, middle-aged man, whose intellect was blunted by excessive indulgence in Indian hemp. He wore long matted locks, hanging down to his shoulders, a short beard, and small moustache, while his dress consisted of a long, very dirty, and ragged blouse, a piece of cotton cloth wrapped round his loins like a petticoat, and a woollen blanket thrown over his left arm. On his head was a

[1] His tomb was seen by Ibn Batúta in the fourteenth century. Lee's Translation, p. 33.

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greasy cap with ear flaps, known as a "Kán-ḍhapa;" on his left wrist were five silver bracelets, and on his right leg an anklet, presented by a Nawáb of Murshídábád and covered with leather to deceive bad characters. In his hand he carried an iron mace with a sharp pointed handle, and square crown hung over with rings, called a "gurz," from which the order derives one of its Indian names. With this formidable weapon the Rafá'í Faqírs are in the habit of enforcing their demands for charity by slashing their tongues, and beating their heads, till blood comes. The tongue of the man referred to was a horrible sight, seamed as it was with deep scars, the result of former violence, while on the top of his head was a large depressed cicatrix, produced by the same means.

Around his neck hung three necklaces; one, called a "tasbíh," was composed of onyx, quartz, and carnelian beads; a second, or Kanṭhí, had a hundred and one beads of olive wood (zaitún), while the third, of the same name, had a similar number of beads made of clay (Khák shifá) from the sacred tomb of Karbaláh.

Such was the repulsive figure perambulating the streets of Dacca in 1874, and claiming to be a Sayyid. The Murshíd, or spiritual guide, of this man resided at Kulpahár in the Hamírpúr district of Bundelkhand.

Rafá'í Faqírs are Be-shara', freely indulging in intoxicating drugs. They are usually married men who neglect the regular prayers, and rarely, if ever, visit a mosque. By the Muhammadans of Bengal they are regarded with abhorrence and disgust.

(*e*) MADÁRÍA.

The founder of this Darwesh order was Sayyid Badí'-ud-dín, Quṭb ul-Madár, born at Aleppo A.D. 1050, and according to the Mirát-i-Madária his parents were Jews. Many legends are related of him. At the age of one hundred years he made the pilgrimage to Mecca, where he received from Muhammad permission to hold his breath, Habs-i-dam. Subsequently, he was directed to proceed to India and deliver it from an evil genius, Muckna Dev, which was destroying the people. Having confined the demon, he induced the inhabitants to return and settle with him in the town, still called Makanpúr in the Doab, where he performed many miracles, and at his death on the seventeenth Rajab, A.H. 837 (1433), in the three hundred and ninety-sixth year of his age, he left 1,442 sons, or disciples.

Sultán Ibráhim Sharqí, of Jaunpúr, carried his coffin, and erected a mausoleum over his remains.

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The seventeenth of Rajab is observed as his festival ('urs[1]) throughout India; and at Makanpúr thousands of pilgrims, Hindu and Muhammadan, assemble when the water of the Ikshunadi, flowing past the tomb, is said for that one day to run in seven streams of milk, and food cooked with it is believed to be of ineffable virtue. The tomb at Makanpúr stands in the centre of a square, the interior being lighted by four latticed windows. Above the grave hangs a canopy of cloth of gold, and a similar covering, highly perfumed, is laid on the tomb; close by is a Mosque before which a fountain plays, and two prodigious boilers stand, in which a constant miracle is being performed, for if unholy rice be put into them, they still remain empty.

No woman dare enter the mausoleum, and if foolhardy enough to try, she is seized with excruciating pains which last a long time.[2]

Around the name of this saint many superstitions have collected, and he is often confounded with Ghází Miyán, whose flagstaff bears much resemblance to his. According to a great authority, Badí'uddín was a Çufí of a particular order, whose chief rites consist in the production of beatific visions by intoxication with Bháng. The sect originated in Persia, its peculiarities, modified by the influence of Hindu ascetics, being introduced into India by this Badí'uddín. In several respects the Madária Faqírs resemble the Hindu Sannyasís in going about almost naked, braiding their hair, and smearing their bodies with ashes, as well as in fastening iron chains around their waists and necks. The Banjára vagrants of Oudh, according to Mr. Carnegy, regard Sháh Madár as their patron deity.

Madária Faqírs are also called Dafálí, from the small tambourine (daf) carried by them; and Dhammálí, from running through and dancing in the midst of a fire on the great annual festival.

On the seventeenth of Rajab these Faqírs erect a lofty pole ('alam), enveloped in black, or red, cloth, from the top of which flutters a small black pennon, or the tail of a Yák. The principal spectacle is the exciting "dhammál," at which the Faqírs, worked into a state of enthusiasm, keep shouting "Dam Madár! Dam Madár!" and dancing barefooted in the midst of the fire of red hot charcoal, sustain no injury, owing, they say, to the direct interposition of the saint; but the Bhagat, or priest, of the

[1] The festival is known as Chharí, Mední, Chirághán, and Badí', when the Dhammál Khelná, or Gae luṭáná, takes place. Elliot, "Supplemental Glossary," vol. i, 247.

[2] For further particulars regarding this shrine, *see* "Lord Valentia's Travels," vol. i, 202; "Observations on the Mussulmáns of India," vol. ii, 321; and Shore's "Notes on Indian Affairs," ii, 489.

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Dosádhs performs similar antics without the slightest damage. May it not be reasonably inferred that this meaningless pageant is a survival of some aboriginal worship preserved by the Dosádhs, and copied by the followers of Madár.

In the festival the Faqírs prepare cakes, or Madár Ka-roṭ, consisting of flour and minced meat, which are eagerly bought and eaten by the spectators.

By respectable and peace-loving people these Faqírs are regarded as great nuisances. They wander about the city with the tambourine to which cymbals (jhánjh) are attached, and, like the hurdy-gurdy player of England, drive nervous people distracted by their unreasonable noise. A rich shopkeeper busily engaged in striking a bargain, or a fat Muhammadan gentleman about to take his siesta, is no sooner espied than the Faqír begins to beat and jangle his instrument, and to create such a disturbance that the victims are only too glad to get rid of him by paying a small sum of money.

In Dacca Madária Faqírs dress in white with a black turban, and hanging on the chest is a "tasbíh," or rosary of wooden beads. Besides extorting money from their townsmen, these Faqírs manufacture amulets, and "baddhís," or sashes, for those who put trust in them.

DARZÍ.

The tailor is one of the most honoured workmen, Khalífa, or Kárígar being the usual titles by which he is addressed. There is especial disgrace in abusing a tailor, for Edris (Enoch), one of the first "payambars," or prophets, of Islám, was the father of such as ply the needle. Further, the Darzí, like the Rafúgar, sits cross-legged, and was in consequence not expected to stand up even when a Nawáb entered his workshop.

Almost every Muhammadan adult can sew, and whenever a poor man is in want of work he takes service as a tailor. There are, however, several sorts of tailors; for example, the Bazárí Darzí, or hawker of ready made clothes, the Topí wálah, or cap-maker, and the common Darzí, or clothier. From four to eight anas is the average day's pay, but as a rule the workmen receive monthly wages, and often accept piecework to be done at home. Widows and poor women, again, earn a livelihood by sewing garments furnished by the master tailors.

A boy is taught to handle a needle in the following curious way: Two thin pieces of wood, or two stalks of grass, are given him, and with these he is made to go through all the actions of stitching, called "ṭánkna." Having progressed thus far, a

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piece of cloth, or sampler, is put in his hands and he has to imitate the patterns traced on it, a task known as "'álam-Kháná." Until an exact copy is made he advances no further.

Although the Darzí is a slavish imitator, showing little originality, he is thoroughly acquainted with the different stitches used by the seamster and seamstress of Europe. The hemming stitch he calls turpan; the net, jali; the herring-bone, zanjíra-bandhí; the rúnning, lapki or pasujna; the buttonhole, káj; basting, kok-dená; and the ornamental stitch by which pieces of cloth are united, ormá, or sultáni.

The needle is said to have been unknown to the ancient Hindus, but now-a-days Hindu tailors, generally Ghulám Káyasths, are to be met with sewing in the shops of cloth-merchants and making bedding, quilts, and mosquito-curtains, but declining to make body clothes, although they are low Ṣúdras, and natives of Silhet, where caste is of little account.

DASTÁR-BAND.

This is a Muhammadan trade never engaged in by Hindus. The Dastár-band is also known as Pagṛí-band, and although frequently obliged to stitch rolls of cloth, he would be offended if called Darzí, or tailor

Various shaped turbans, or head-dresses, are worn by natives of Bengal and arranged by these seamsters, but if the wife or sister is expert at needlework, the turban of the husband, or brother, is made at home. Every profession has its own distinctive head-dress, and not to wear it when visiting, or on ceremonial occasions, is considered discourteous.

Turbans are usually fashioned on a block (golá), made of jute cuttings, the nucleus (batáná) being formed of pith, or old rags, around which white, variegated, or striped muslins are twisted, but "pagrís" of very gaudy colours are fancied by dandies.

The following turbans are daily to be seen in Dacca:

Shor-bor, worn by Muhammadan table attendants.
Laṭṭú-dar, by Mahájans, Banias, and Amla.
Ghaira, by noblemen at Darbárs.
Khirkí-dar, by Hindustani Lálás and bankers.
'Amáma, Mughalia, and Katlí, the two former by Mughals and their descendants, the latter by young Bengal.
Marhátta, and Mughalia-Marhátta by natives of the Dakhin.
Shamlá by Wakíls.
Júla-dar by Amla, Peshkárs, and Sarishtadárs.

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DAST-FAROSH.

PURÁNA KAPRÁ FAROSH.

The occupation of an old clothesman is followed by any poor person. He either begs for, or buys, old clothes and rags, which he sells to the Naicha-band for making his snakes; to the Mash'alchí for his torch; and to the Jildgar for binding books.

DHARI. DHÁRHÍ. DHÁRHIN.

The Dhárí in Oude,[1] and the north-west provinces, are allied to the Nats and Kanjars, being musicians and sellers of dairy produce. In Bengal, however, this is the name of a class of Muhammadan musicians, generally women, who play, sing, and dance, being regarded by connoisseurs as more talented performers than the Mírásan. They are taught by masters in the large towns of Hindustán, and are engaged for a limited period by rich families in Dacca.

DHOBÍ.

The Mussulmán washerman is also known as the Sufaid-gar, Mistarí, and Istrí-wáláh, and when abused, is designated "Narak ka ḍhoná wáláh."

These men assume as many airs as their Hindu brethren, refusing to wash clothes belonging to the Chamár, Mihtar, Dôm, or Paṭní, and giving over to the Hindustaní or Khoṇṭa washerman the cleansing of the Chhaṭhí, or puerperal, garments, and declining to touch bedding on which any one has died.

Formerly, the Dhobí observed many Hindu practices, and worshipped the beetle and plank used in washing. In days of yore they were also notorious drunkards; of late years, however, they have become strict Farazís, and relinquished all such customs as deadly sins. In Dacca there are not more than twenty houses occupied by them. They have a "Sardár," and generally intermarry among themselves; but if rich enough a bride is bought from a poor Muhammadan, or Hindu family.

In Bengal there are several superstitions connected with the

[1] Carnegy's Notes, &c., p. 18.

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washerman. No Muhammadan will give out clothes to wash, or receive them back, on Thursdays, or after dark; while the Hindu objects to do so on Tuesdays or Saturdays, and at the new or full moon.

Like the Hindu Dhobí, the Muhammadan calenders cloth, and the calenderers' is no longer a distinct trade. The mangle being unknown in the East, clothes are beaten with a heavy mallet, or beetle (Kundí).

DHUNIYÁ.

This is the Sanskrit name for a carder of cotton, the followers of which trade are known in various parts of India by different names. In Bombay a carder is called Naddáf, or Pinjiyára;[1] in Hindustan Bihná; in Gayá Dhuniyá; south of the Sona, Mançur; and in Bengal Dhuniyá, or Tula-wáláh. The class is undoubtedly of Hindu origin, and are still regarded by Muhammadans as out-castes, the reason usually given for this exclusion being that they eat flesh in a raw condition, which, however, is a baseless calumny.

In former days, before they were imbued with new religious ideas, the Dhuniyás worshipped their bow on the full moon of Ṣrávan (July, August); and a feast was held at which cakes and goats' flesh were eaten, and large quantities of toddy drunk. Even now they worship the carding implements before commencing the season's work. Of late years they have been told by their teachers that they are descended from Mançúr-al-Halláj,[2] a

[1] Sanskrit, Pinjana, a bow for cleaning cotton.

[2] Abú Mugh, al Husain ibn Mançúr al Hallaj, was a native of Al-Baida, in Fárs. Having attained to Wáçiláh, the last stage of Çúfism, he went to Bághdad during the reign of the Khalífa Al-Muqtadir. The following marvellous stories are told of him while there: He could produce summer fruits in winter, winter fruits in summer; he knew the secrets of families and the inmost thoughts of all he met; and having tasted a few drops of celestial nectar obtained from the heavenly Húrís, he could no longer restrain himself, but went about shouting "Án-al-haq! Án-al-haq! I am God!" For this impiety he was put to death at the Báb-at-táq of Bághdad, on the 23rd Zíqa'dah, A.H. 309 (April, 922). His followers, however, assert that when taken to the place of execution the soldiers could not seize him, as his body eluded their grasp, and appeared composedly sitting at a distance. His soul was then in heaven, where it was accosted by Muhammad, who admitted that he was quite justified in proclaiming himself God; but that for the sake of practical religion, and for the welfare of mankind, it would be expedient to allow himself to be put to death. The soul accordingly returned to earth, reanimated his body, and he endured the cruel death to which he had been condemned. Muhammadans are still divided in opinion about him, one half repudiating him as an impostor, while his followers say that his likeness was given to one of his enemies, who suffered in his stead. Malcolm's "History of Persia," ii, 400; D'Herbelot sub Hallage, "Ibn-Khallikan," vol. i, 423.

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famous Çúfí, the first person who taught mankind the use of the carding bow. The name Al-Halláj was derived from the following story: Mançúr, who used to sit at the door of a cotton carder's shop, one day asked the man to go on an errand. "But I myself am busy carding," answered the other. "Do my business," said Mançúr, "and I will card for you." The man went as he was bid, and on his return found all his cotton carded. Such is the strange pedigree of these credulous converts.

Several families of Dhuniyás, now domiciled in Dacca, originally came from Tirhút and Bihár, and, as the Bengali Mussulmán never follows this occupation, every year, towards the beginning of November, skilled workmen wend their way from Patna, Gayá, and other towns to Eastern Bengal.

Women of low Ṣúdra castes card cotton with the "Phutkí;" but it is only the professional Muhammadan carder who uses the Dhunwí.

The Dhuniyá, who resides permanently in Bengal, turns his hands to any trade during the hot, or slack season, often acting as a Bihistí, or water-carrier, or as a Pankhá coolie.

The bow used in carding is known as the Dhunwí, or Rám Dhánuk, a name also given to the rainbow;[1] the dumb-bell shaped instrument, made of the heart of a tamarind tree, with which the bowstring is made to vibrate, being called "dasta."

The cotton-grower extracts the seeds (binaulá), and feeds his cattle with them, while he sells the cotton to the carder. A skilful Dhuniyá will prepare eight sérs (16 lbs.) of the best cotton, and from ten to twelve sérs of the common, in a day. For a good day's work he earns at least eight anas. For carding the cotton of the Semal tree (*Bombax heptaphylla*), which is an excellent stuffing for pillows, half an ana for each sér is charged.

FÁLÚDA-WÁLAH.

In his shop various kinds of sherbet are prepared, as well as triangular doughy masses of rice, wheat flour, and sago, coloured with different substances. The sherbet usually sold consists of sugar and water, into which one of these masses is put, while the favourite colouring matters are sappan-wood (baqam), saffron, and the petals of the Nyctanthes arbor tristis.

[1] Strange superstitions are attached to this bow. A Natní, or gipsy woman, ill with fever, earnestly besought to be allowed to crawl through one and be cured. Unfortunately, one could not be procured at the time, and she had to recover by ordinary treatment.

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Divers sorts of syrups (Shírah), made with pomegranate or lemon juice, flavoured with rose-water, "Keorá" (Pandanus), or Kus-kus, are also to be bought, but mucilaginous drinks made with the seeds of basil (Tukhmí-raihán), or Ispaghúl (Plantago Ispaghula), are preferred by some.

GOÁLA.

Indian Muhammadans have no prejudice against selling milk, and the name milk-seller carries with it no disgrace as in Arabia, where the Bedouin will not sell milk, but permits the despised Egyptian to do so.

Mussulmáns, generally styled Bepárís, who keep milch cows, make neither butter nor "ghí," but sell milk, and prepare to order "má-ul-joban," or whey. Whey is a remedy of the greatest reputation in all diseases due to excess of heat, and in Muhammadan families is the favourite domestic aperient.

Bráhmans and Hindus of the higher Ṣúdra castes allege that they will not touch milk sold by a Muhammadan unless it has been milked into a vessel held by themselves; but at village fairs the Bráhman is often seen receiving into his brass pot milk from the earthern pitcher. When discovered, he defends his conduct on the plea that milk, the product of the sacred animal, cannot be polluted even by standing in the vessel of the unbeliever; but no excuse such as this would exonerate him from loss of caste if the pan belonged to the Farangí.

HÁFIZ.

A Háfiz, or one who can repeat the Koran by heart, is employed in the public mosques to recite it during the Ramazán. Throughout the month of fasting, the congregation assembles every evening in the mosque at 8 p.m., for the 'Ishá-namáz, or night prayers, and, at the conclusion, the "Khatm-taráwí" consisting of twenty supplementary prayers and genuflexions, being gone through, the Háfiz recites one or more of the thirty sections (Sipára) of the Koran. Two men are generally engaged in each mosque, one officiating during the first fifteen days, the other during the remainder of the month, and on the Îd-ul-fiṭr each member of the congregation subscribes something towards their remuneration. A Háfiz may belong to any trade

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or profession, but the most respected are usually teachers, or Munshís.

All classes of Muhammadans look up to a Háfiz, although it is not unusual for him to yield to the temptations of a town life, drinking spirits, and leading a life in no respect better than that of individuals less conversant with the Koran.

According to the Sunnís, no Shíah can become a Háfiz, and one of the ordinary arguments in favour of their Mazhab, or creed, is grounded on this allegation.

HAJJÁM.

The Muhammadan barber belongs to one of the lowest ranks, and no respectable family will associate, or intermarry, with his. The Bájunia and Hajjám were formerly the same person, but of late years they have been gradually separating.

The Hajjám, like his namesake in other countries, dabbles in medicine and surgery, consequently he is often styled Bhedi,[1] from his skill in extracting worms from decayed teeth, and "Más-Káta," from circumcising boys. In many parts of the country he is also the Ábdál, who gelds bulls; but any Mussulmán peasant will castrate kids. When not otherwise employed, the Hajjám is found cultivating the soil.

Their women sell "mantras," or magical formulæ, against toothache, earache, and neuralgic pains; and prepare liniments to cure colic and other internal disorders.

The Hajjám is not the important personage that the Hindu Nápit is, being less independent and wayward, as his services are not indispensable.

HAKÍM.

Muhammadan, or, as it is usually called, Yunání, or Greek, medicine has never flourished in Hindostan, as its study was neither fostered by State endowments nor patronized by royalty. For the last three centuries the most celebrated physicians in India have been Shíah graduates from the colleges of Shíráz, Samarkand, and Bukhára. During the reigns of Akbar, Jahángír, and Sháh Jahán, the court physicians were Persian Shías, but Sunní doctors were favoured by the bigot Aurangzíb.

[1] From Sanskrit, Bheda, piercing.

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After his death the Shías again predominated, holding all the official posts in the Empire; but to the Sunní physicians the credit is due of having written many of the most practical, as well as popular, medical works in the Persian language, while the salaried court doctors did little towards advancing their profession. The Hakím of the Mughal period was not only a physician, learned in philosophy, metaphysics, and science generally, but a politician who was consulted in important affairs of State. As often happened, the Hakím, being the friend and confidant of the monarch, was permitted greater license of speech than other courtiers. When any difficulty with a neighbouring nation arose, and great tact and ability were required, the court physician was often sent as a special envoy to settle it. It was for the political part he played, and not for any professional services, that he retained his dignified position at the imperial court.

A lower and less respected grade of physician was the Jarráh, or surgeon, whose skill, like that of the barber-surgeons of Europe, was limited to the opening of boils and abscesses, and rarely extended to the amputation of limbs, or to any major operation. The frequency of sword cuts, punctured and lacerated wounds, must, however, have accustomed him to treat such injuries.

The general practitioner, as we would style him, was the Ṭabíb, whose daily life brought him in contact with all classes of society, and whose experience of diseases, of idiosyncracies, and of treatment, secured for him much popularity and respect.

The oculist (Kahhál) was occasionally met with, but his skill was uncertain, and his ignorance undeniable.

The lowest in rank, the Baiṭár, or veterinary surgeon, looked after the royal elephants and stud, but for these services he only received the pay of an Ahadí, or trooper.

Under the Muhammadan rulers, there being no medical schools, students were apprenticed to Hakíms, who daily devoted a few hours, in the intervals of practice, to the instruction of their pupils. The size of the class varied according to the reputation of the master who endeavoured, for his own credit, to encourage the youths in their studies. He granted certificates of proficiency only to those considered worthy, otherwise he would have forfeited the right to what the Eastern nations set the highest value upon, the leaving a good name behind him.

In India, no official like the Hakím-bashí of Turkey conferred diplomas, so the medical profession was open to all; but the pupil of any famous doctor was sure of obtaining practice in cities where his master was known, and of at once gaining a position which less favoured rivals took years to reach. The

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result of this system has been that many amateurs from reading medical works fancy themselves able to express an opinion on any subject connected with the structure and temperaments of the human body, or the properties of plants and qualities of articles of food. Problems which still puzzle wiser heads are solved by these pretenders to medical skill without hesitation, and to their own satisfaction. Where there was no encouragement held out for the advancement of learning, and where a widespread and remunerative system of quackery prevailed, a high standard of professional knowledge was not to be expected.

The Hakím practising in the towns of Bengal is generally familiar with the text-books of Yunání medicine, but very ignorant regarding the type of modern disease. When summoned to see a patient he never commits himself to any expression of opinion; but after feeling the pulse, noting its volume, tone, and rapidity, leaves with a few words of comfort and strict injunctions regarding diet and cooling drinks. After several visits, and not until the urine has been examined, and his text-books consulted, is his diagnosis formed. This being done, he unpacks his stores and attacks the enemy with his most powerful drugs. Bleeding is gradually being laid aside; but in pleurisy venesection from the side affected is still recommended,[1] and in the delirium of fever leeches or cupping glasses are applied. The particular vein to be opened often causes much anxiety, for it has been authoritatively laid down that certain veins are to be opened in special disorders. In leprosy and other blood diseases, the "haft-andám," or median vein, is the proper vessel to cut; in pneumonia and pleurisy, the "básalík;" and in delirium, the "qífal," or cephalic vein.

It is on the examination of the urine that the Hakím chiefly relies when forming his diagnosis. He has no urinometer and no reagents. The sample being poured into a thin glass bottle (qárúra), he carefully determines its colour, surface (zubd), sediment (rusúb), and density (qawání).

[1] Early in the sixteenth century the medical schools of Europe were ranged in rival factions on the question which was the proper arm to bleed from in pleurisy. Pierre Brissot, in 1502, taught that bleeding from the affected side, though commended by Rhasis, Avicenna, and Mesue, was contrary to the opinion of Hippocrates and Galen. He was opposed by Denys, a Portuguese physician, and the decision was left to the Academy of Salamanca. After much discussion the council gave the oracular reply that Brissot taught as Hippocrates and Galen had done. This only added fuel to the fire. The adherents of Denys were dissatisfied, so the question was referred to the Emperor Charles V., it being urged that the teaching of Brissot was impious and pernicious, as detrimental to the body as the schism of Luther was to the soul. This memorable controversy was renewed at the death of Charles III. of Savoy, in 1553, who was attacked with pleurisy, bled according to Brissot's system, and died. The question was left unsettled by the Emperor; but the medical schools throughout Europe continued to squabble over the subject for several generations.

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The anatomical knowledge possessed by the Hakíms is quite rudimentary and very antiquated. The Muhammadan belief that a corpse feels pain when violence is inflicted has always prevented the study of human anatomy, while the resection of animals has been prosecuted with only partial success. The tendons, nerves, and blood-vessels are only known to the modern Hakíms by the indefinite term "Rag;" while the muscles, undistinguished the one from the other, are spoken of as "gosht," or flesh; and the intestines, with all the abdominal organs, as "Antrí." According to Muhammadan anatomists, the human body is composed of seven elements, namely, chyle, blood, muscles, fat, bones, brain, marrow, and semen. The only text-book of anatomy is the Tasrihí Mançúrí,[1] of the fourteenth century, a most creditable work for that age, being illustrated with rough drawings of the arteries, veins, intestines, and skeleton.

The Hakíms know little or nothing of physiology. The liver is still regarded, as it was by Europeans until the days of Harvey, as the root and fountain head of the venous system; while the spleen is held to be the organ where the blood is formed and purified. It was the Hindoo physicians who first taught that this was the function of the spleen, but the Yunání doctors advanced a step farther, by pointing out that when the spleen was inflamed, or congested, emaciation and bloodlessness ensued, for which the actual cautery was the proper remedial treatment. Accordingly Hakíms either cauterize, or apply blisters and issues in all cases of enlarged spleen. On the mysterious subject of impregnation, Hakíms are content to follow the precept of the Koran,[2] and to rest satisfied with a notion of the seventh century.

Pathology has not made any advance for many centuries; and all diseases are, as Avicenna wrote, due either to excess, deficiency, or faulty combination of one or more of the fundamental humours (mawádd) of the human body.

Although Yunání physicians have written much on hygiene, greater attention was always paid to fanciful descriptions of disease, and to Materia Medica. The careful accumulation and comparison of clinical observations were generally omitted, and every faculty was bent on discovering specifics, or a panacea for every ailment. Each physician boasts of having a secret nostrum, which is vaunted as an infallible remedy; but instead

[1] The author is Mançúr ibn Muhammad ibn Yúsuf ibn Ilyas Herátí, who dedicated it to Pír Muhammad, grandson of Tímur. The date of the work is A.H. 799 (1396).

[2] Ch. xxiii. This text bears a most striking resemblance to that of Job x, 9–11, both being probably founded on ideas current among the Semitic races.

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of having it tested by independent observations he only employs it as a valuable source of profit.

In their study of Nosology the Indian Hakíms have devoted much labour to the varieties of type exhibited by disease, to the effects produced by peculiarities of temperament, climate, or age; but have entirely neglected the investigation of the exciting and predisposing causes of disease, as well as the laws regulating its origin and dissemination.

On the therapeutic treatment of disease Hakíms entertain many fanciful ideas. According to them, all medicines possess one of the four following degrees of virtue:—

a. Those which do not manifest their usual effects in ordinary doses.

b. Such medicines as produce inconsiderable, though sensible, effects.

c. Those powerful drugs, which must be cautiously given, although certain in their action.

d. Poisons and other drugs which excite deleterious consequences.

Drugs, vegetables, and all articles of diet, they assert, have either sweet, bitter, acid, salt, pungent, or astringent ('áfis) qualities, producing peculiar effects on the different humours; and are hot, cool, heavy, light, aphrodisiac, lithontriptic, demulcent, or emollient. Should the proper medicine not be procurable, its succedaneum (badal) may be prescribed, and if its action is thought to be too powerful, it may be lessened by a corrector (muçlah) in the same may as the English apothecary combines sulphate of potash with scammony to counteract its irritating effects.

Cephalic (sa'út) medicines are extensively used by Hakíms in the treatment of common colds and headaches, it being the received opinion that there is direct communication between the nostrils and the brain. Equally absurd is the notion that the shape of a fruit often indicates its use as a medicine, and because the Mango bears a slight resemblance to a kidney, it is held to be useful in renal diseases.[1] Indian Hakíms have adopted many drugs of the Hindu pharmacopœia, and make use of Yunání remedies in diseases for which they have been declared unfit by Arab and Persian physicians.

[1] The superstition that the shape, or look, of a plant indicates its officinal use, is one of the very oldest known. Thus in Genesis it is mentioned that mandrakes promote conception, because its bifid roots bear a fancied resemblance to a man. So the modest little eyebright (*Euphrasia officinalis*) of English meadows got its reputation for curing ophthalmia, because its small white flower, with a dark dot in the centre, was fancied to be like an eye; and the Pulmonaria, or Lungwort, was given to cure coughs, because its spotted leaves resembled the human lungs.

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In Bengal the following, being the most valued authorities, are the text-books given to students:—

Mízán-i-tibb, the first book given to the student, was published, A.H. 1125 (1713).

Tibb-ul-akbar, with the date A.H. 1112 (1700).

Qárabádín Qádirí, written A.H. 1126 (1714).

The author of these three works was Muhammad Akbar, Shah Arzání,[1] a physician of the Delhi Court. The first treats of medicine generally; the second, a translation of an early Arabic work, the Sharḥ-al-asbáb, of the causes, symptoms, and treatment of diseases; while the third is a work on Materia Medica.

Other standard works generally consulted are the Jami'ul-Jami',[2] an encyclopedia of medicine, consisting of three sections:—

1. Makhzan-ul-adwiya, on Materia Medica, of the date A.H. 1187 (1773).
2. Qarábádín Ḳabír.
3. 'Iláj amrází mukhtaç aur ghair mukhtaç, on the practice of medicine.

This great work is highly esteemed, and the Hakíms boast that if it were preserved, and all other Yunání books of medicine destroyed, nothing of value would be lost. In compiling this encyclopedia, the author was assisted by his uncle, 'Ulwí Khán, the first physician of his age.[3]

The above mentioned text-books are ordinarily used by the Hakíms of Dacca, and it is remarkable that they were all written by physicians settled at the Nawábí court of Murshídábád, the only place suited for study at the middle of the eighteenth century. Even at the present day the Qánun of Avicenna, or its abridgment, the Qánunchah, is read, and followed by many Hakíms; but as their knowledge of Arabic is slight, Persian or Hindustani translations are usually preferred.

Even in the brightest days of the Mughal rule implicit confidence was not placed in the skill of the court Hakíms, and very rarely did any one occupy the position of the trusted family doctor. When European physicians appeared in India they were

[1] His father was Hájí Mír Muhammad Muqím, a Sunní by religion. Other well-known works by the son are Mufarríh ul-qulúb, written in 1712, and Hádad-ul-amráz.

[2] The author was Hakím Sayyid Muhammad Husain Khán, son of Hakím Muhammad Hádí 'Aqíl-al-'Alawí, a Shíah from Shíráz. His elder brother was the famous Díwán of Bengal, Muhammad Reza Khán.

[3] Sayyid Muhammad Háshim Shírází was born A.D. 1669. When thirty years old he came to Delhi, and settled there. When Nádir Sháh retired from Delhi in 1739, he carried off the Hakím with him, but in 1743 he returned. In 1747 he died. Sháh 'Álam I conferred on him the title of Mu'tadil-ul-mulk, 'Ulwí Khán, and gave him land worth Rs. 3,000 a year.

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consulted in urgent cases, and, not infrequently, occupied state appointments.

The first European physician resident at the Delhí court was a Frenchman, M. Bernard, a boon companion of the Emperor Jahángír, and who had the credit of being "an excellent physician and skilful surgeon." Bernier mentions[1] that his pay was ten crowns a day, but this was greatly increased by his attendance on the high ladies of the Seraglio, and on the Omrahs, who seemed to vie with each other in making him the most liberal presents, not only because of the cures he effected, but on account of his influence at Court.

A few years later the Venetian Manouchi arrived at Delhí, where he remained forty-eight years (1649–1697). He was body physician to Dárá Shikoh, eldest son of Sháh Jahán, until his death in 1659. From 1659 to 1667 François Bernier was doctor to Aurangzíb.

Tavernier met with European doctors practising in different parts of India. In 1652 he resided with Peter de Lan, a Dutchman from Batavia, who was attached to the court of Golcondah. He had attained that position through the stupidity of the native doctors. The King was ordered to be bled from the sublingual veins to cure a headache, but no one would undertake to do it. De Lan performed the simple operation, and was richly rewarded. In 1665 Tavernier reached Allahabad, where he found the governor in bad health, attended by ten Persian physicians, and "Claudius Maille of Bourges, who practises both Chyrurgery and physick both together."

In Bengal, Schouten states that the Mogols never send an army into the field without applying to the Company (Dutch) for surgeons "Qu'on y considere assez, et à qui les principaux Seigneurs se confient volontiers."[2]

The services of English physicians were also sought for, and appreciated. In 1636, when Jahánárá, the second daughter of Sháh Jahán, was severely burned in the Dakhin, a messenger was dispatched to Surat, and Gabriel Boughton, surgeon of the Company's ship "Hopewell" was sent, under whose skilful treatment the Princess was restored to health. In 1675 John Fryer attended the family of the Mughal general at Jeneah. The most important service, however, conferrred by an English doctor, was when William Hamilton[3] cured the Emperor Farrukhsiyar, in 1715, of a carbuncle, and acquired for his country the settlement of Calcutta. In 1742 Mr. Forth, surgeon

[1] Bernier, i, 309.

[2] "Voyage de Wouter Schouten aux Indes Orientales," ii, 298.

[4] Hamilton died of a putrid fever in 1717, and at the present day no memorial of his disinterestedness exists.

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of the English factory, treated 'Alí Vardí Khán in his last illness; and in 1763, when the English were massacred at Ráj-mahal, the only officer spared was Dr. Fullarton, who had been of great service to several Muhammadan chiefs.

HAKKÁK.

Workmen employed in manufacturing glass beads call themselves by this name, but the real lapidary is rare, while the Muhammadan Sang-tarash, or stone-cutter, is unknown in Dacca.

The Hakkák makes spectacles of rock crystal (Sang-billaur), cuts glass in imitation of diamonds, and gives the desired shape to gems. His implements are a wheel driven backwards and forwards with the left hand, a wire bow, and emery powder (Kúranj-pathar).

Muhammadans engaged in making glass beads obtain their material from the Shísha-gar. It is stained with various colours, and beads for necklaces, ornaments for nose rings, and counterfeit stones for armlets and rings, are made with it. The following five kinds of wheels are used in a manufactory for grinding and polishing glass: the first, called "Karan," is made of slate; the second of bell-metal (Kánsá); the third of teak wood; the fourth of tin, and the fifth of flint (Chakmak). A bamboo bow strung with an iron wire, and rubbed with moistened emery powder, is employed for cutting glass.

HALWÁÍ.

The art of preserving fruits in sugar, or vinegar, being unknown to the Hindus, all the preserves procurable in the Bazárs of the East are made by the Mussulmán Halwáí, who, however, destroys, by too many spices and by excess of sugar, the natural flavour of the fruit. It is astonishing how fond the lower classes of Muhammadans are of sweets, consuming heaps of the common confectionery without hesitation and without injury, whilst a surfeit of them never makes the least difference in the quantity of food afterwards taken. The Halwáí is an especial favourite with youths, who are as fond of spending a few coppers on a holiday in his shop as any English schoolboy.

"Halwá," the sweetmeat from which the confectioner derives his name, is made of flour, clarified butter, and sugar, coloured

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with saffron, and flavoured with almonds, raisins, and pistachio nuts, being much inferior, however, to the Halwá brought from Kábul by Afghán traders, and said to be made with camels' milk.

The Halwáí prepares jams of mangoe, cocoanut, ginger, and "bel;" and candies oranges, citrons, and bel fruit. The pickles (áchár), consumed in large quantities by all Muhammadans, are of three kinds, prepared with vinegar, mustard-oil, or salt. The Halwáí likewise makes his own vinegar with sugar, molasses, and water, and with it preserves vegetables and fruits of all kinds. Mangoes and limes are, however, often preserved in mustard-oil to which pounded mustard seed has been added. Járaka, or fruit in brine, is highly recommended as an aid to digestion when eaten as dessert. Arab pedlars bring the best to Bengal, but in Dacca the aromatic lime known as "Kághazí," from the fineness of its rind, is usually preserved in this way.

HAWÁÍ-GAR.

The maker of fireworks, always a Muhammadan, is often called "Gol-sáz," but the Persian title of "Átash-báz" is no longer in use. The Hindu Málákár does make a few simple fireworks for weddings, but this is never his exclusive trade.

In Dacca six or seven men are always employed in making fireworks, the most skilful having learned the art in Calcutta. The chief chemicals used by the native pyrotechnist are sulphur, chlorate of potash, nitrate of silver, saltpetre, sulphate of copper, nitrate of strontia, nitrate of baryta, and charcoal. The Hawáí-gar is an adept in preparing blue, yellow, red, and green lights; but native crowds prefer seeing the noisy, and more dangerous, fireworks such as the sky-rocket (hawáí), squib (murrá), cracker (páṭáká), Catherine-wheel (charkí), Kabutarí, Tonta, do-damba, and Mahtábí.

JILD-GAR.

The Jild-gar is the Mujallid of the Arabs, the bookbinder of Europe.

The art of binding books, unknown either to the Muhammadans or Hindus, has been acquired within the last century, and at present is one of the most thriving trades.

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The Jild-gar, taking "Chhímí-haldí," a species of turmeric, "Methí" (fœnum Græcum), "nim" leaves, and water, boils them together. Into this decoction the sheets are dipped, then pressed, dried, and hung on a rope in the shade. When dry they are rubbed with a stone, which glazes the paper and fixes the ink.

The book chiefly sold is of course the Koran, although not five per cent. of the Muhammadan population can read, or understand it when read. The Koran is never written nowadays in Eastern Bengal, and an old illuminated copy will fetch a thousand rupees, or even more. Lithographed editions from Meerut, Lucknow, and Bombay are much preferred to those printed in Calcutta. An unbound Koran can be bought for sixteen anas, a bound one for twenty-four anas. Although the Koran is not printed by authority it is accepted as correct if issued by a native press, no Muhammadan even seeming to entertain the suspicion that the sacred volume could be tampered with by any printer, which is the more surprising as the printers, usually illiterate, may not unnaturally be supposed careless in the selection and arrangement of their letters. The explanation probably lies in the fact that few Arabic scholars in India ever make the Koran a critical study, and the large majority of persons who daily read it are too ignorant of Arabic to be able to form any opinion regarding its correctness.

During the Muhammadan rule, the Jild-gars prepared the thick tough paper on which Sanads, and other official documents, were written, but this art is fast dying out.

JULAHÁ.

This name is repudiated by all classes of Muhammadan weavers, being considered as an abusive one, and synonymous with the Arabic "Ahmaq," a fool.

Various humorous stories are told of the stupidity of the Juláhas, one of the favourite in Dacca being the tale of how a party of them tried to escape from Dhemra, a celebrated weaving village. They jumped on board a boat at night, forgetting, however, to unfasten the painter, and after rowing with might and main all night, at daybreak, much to their astonishment, the boat was still at the ghát of Dhemra. After puzzling their brains for some time they came to the sage conclusion that, though desirous of leaving Dhemra, Dhemra was unwilling to part with them, and had followed in the wake of their boat. When general

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stupidity is imputed to a body of men in India, we may surely infer that they have become converts to a new religion, or belong to a servile aboriginal tribe. The Juláhas, there is every reason for believing, belonged to a despised Hindu caste, who in a body became converts to Muhammadanism. Their customs, observed with that punctiliousness peculiar to converts, are essentially Shíah. During the month of Muharram they do not comb their hair, chew betle, or eat from vessels in which fish have been dressed. Besides, on the fifth, sixth, and seventh days of that month they wear the "Baddhí" and "Kafní," badges of the two Martyrs.

Their headman is called Mu'tabar, and the honorary titles among them are Málik, Mundle, Kárígar, and Shiqdár.

In former days the Juláhas were peculiar among Muhammadans in never having the "Kábín," or marriage settlement, drawn up in the presence of the Qází; but of late years the practice has been introduced, and in addition a "Mahr-námah," or deed of settlement, is executed.

JÚTÍ-WÁLÁH.

Shoes are made by the Chamár and Rishí, but are sold by all Śúdras, and even by degraded Brahmans. The real shoe-seller, however, is the Muhammadan, and the traders who supply the country at large with shoes belong to this creed. Jútí-wálás follow a respectable trade, being regarded as the equals of the best families. They are very strict Farázís, never opening their shops, or selling a pair of shoes, on a Friday. Shoe-selling is a modern business, and a pair of shoes is nowadays considered by the thrifty peasant as indispensable as a cheap and fragile cotton umbrella. It is supposed that, owing to its recent development, the Farází Maulavís have had sufficient influence to stop the sale of shoes on the Muhammadan Sunday, although their admonitions have failed to close other shops on that day.

In describing the Hindus of Bengal, in 1770, Stavorinus mentions that they "wear a kind of shoes which are put on slip-shod, and are turned up before like the Turkish slippers (pápost)." About thirty years ago the "Nágaurah" was the fashionable style, but at the present day both kinds have given place to shoes of English design. During the Muhammadan rule shoes were generally named after the city where they were made, as Dihlawí and Peshaurí.

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KAHHÁL.

The cities of Benares and Lucknow are famous for their oculists, who are either Muhammadans or Hindu Khattrís. During the cold season individuals belonging to these families travel about Bengal, operating in the villages and towns.

At Sholághar, Pargannah Bikrampúr, resides a Muhammadan family which has practised ophthalmic surgery for many generations. They possess no text books, but the art is transmitted from father to son, and the young men are carefully instructed by the elders.

These native oculists recognize two varieties of cataract, Níl-bind, the hard, and Motiyá-bind, the soft. The former they cannot cure, but the latter they often successfully treat. The operation[1] that they practise is very like that formerly advocated by Sir James Earle and Mr. B. Bell, which is known as "extraction through the sclerotic."

The operation is performed in the following manner:—An incision parallel to the lower and outer edge of the cornea is made with a lancet-shaped knife (báns-pattá), held between the thumb and forefinger so that only about the fourth of an inch can penetrate the globe. On its withdrawal a blunt pointed triangular probe[2] being introduced the cataract is broken up, and on the probe being suddenly drawn out the milky lens escapes.

After the operation the eyelids are smeared with an ointment consisting of opium, nux-vomica, "tulasí," black pepper, "Paṭhání lodh," and pulse (masúr), over which cotton wool is bound. Every day the eye is steamed with the fumes of heated "Ber," charcoal, and for seven days the diet is limited to clarified butter, sugar, wheat flour, pulse, and the sweetmeat batásá, while, should inflammation threaten, the actual cautery is applied to the temple. On the seventh day after the operation the patient is permitted to eat the head of a Rohú fish, but until the expiration of a month he is not allowed to resume his usual diet.

The head of this family, Shaikh Lakhú, is very successful in operating, and several well-known residents of Dacca, besides members of the Rájah of Tipperah's family, owe the almost perfect eyesight, which they now enjoy, to his skill.

The only other disease operated on by these oculists is Pterygium (nákhuna), a very common affection in Eastern

[1] This operation was practised in Madras last century. *See* Forbes' "Oriental Memoirs," vol. ii, 379.

[2] It must be made of equal parts of copper, brass, and iron.

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Bengal. They raise the web with a curved needle, and snip it across with a pair of scissors.

Six or eight Muhammadan youths, learning to become oculists, are always to be found at Sholághar, who are taught in the following curious manner: First of all, they are trained to make straight cuts in a leaf with a lancet, and are then obliged to practise on the eyes of dead goats, and of the Rohú fish, the only animals procurable for this purpose in a Bengali village.

KÁGHÁZÍ.

There is a tradition current that the papermakers of Eastern Bengal were brought from Upper India in Nawábí days, and made to settle in the villages which they now occupy. Paper-making is exclusively a Mussulmán trade, carried on in the low-lying tracts of country where the plant used in the manufacture grows. Along the northern border of Bikrampúr papermakers are very numerous, and in a village called Arial Khán, between four and five hundred houses are occupied by these craftsmen.

The only plant in general use for the manufacture of paper is the white sorrel, or Sufaid Mesta (*Hibiscus sabdariffa*). Rags, or old paper, are never employed, but jute is occasionally, although its fibre is considered hard and brittle.

Mesta is usually planted as a hedge around plots of sugar-cane, or rice. Its growth is rapid, and it acts as a protection against wind and water. After being cut it is treated exactly like the jute plant, namely, steeped in water until the fibres separate easily. In the manufacture of paper the fibres are first of all immersed in shell lime dissolved in water, and after a few hours are taken out, dried, and placed under a "dhenkí," or pounder, where they are beaten into a pulp, the mass being then washed to get rid of any excess of lime. The paper being made is dried, and starch of Arwá rice, never "Kái," and often arsenic, are added, the latter to preserve it from the depredations of insects.

The market price of a *man* of Mesta fibre varies from forty-four to forty-eight anas, and from that about two hundred quires of paper can be made, but the quantity depends on the size of the paper. Three sizes are usually made, which sell for sixteen, twenty-four, and thirty-two anas the twenty quires.

In former days the "Dhenkí" was worshipped, and the iron-shod pestle was constantly smeared with red lead; but now such mummeries are regarded as impious. Karámat 'Alí having

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preached among them, the papermakers are now most bigoted Farazís. The Dhenkí-shed being generally erected outside the mat walls of the dwelling-house, the females of the family do not work it, but stay within doors attending to household duties, and embroidering muslins.

KALWÁR.

Although often notorious drunkards themselves, each of the Mughal emperors issued on his accession an edict forbidding any person to make, or sell, wine or any intoxicating liquor. No Muhammadan could then personally retail spirits, but at present in Dacca six or seven men, natives of Mymensingh, are employed by Hindu Sahas as distillers. They are outcasts, and are not allowed by other classes of Muhammadans to eat, drink, or intermarry with them. If addressed as Kalwár, or "Sharábwálah," they are offended; but are satisfied if called Kárígar or Mistarí.

There are five licensed stills working daily in the city of Dacca, where the common "Bengala Sharáb" is manufactured as follows: Rice and water are boiled, and a ferment, called "Bákhar,"[1] imported from hill Tipperah, is added. After standing three days water and molasses are poured in, and the liquid, being placed in a covered jar (Matká), is put aside for twenty-five or thirty days. Afterwards it is heated in a copper still (Bhathí), leading from which are two pipes, or worms, kept cool by the frequent application of cold water. The cost of manufacture is small, and no capital is required for carrying on a distillery of this primitive character. Bákhar, sold in round white balls, only costs a rupee a thousand. Wholesale dealers charge fourteen anas for a quart of this spirit, but the retailer, by dilution with water, can afford to sell it for twelve.

It is not by the rich that this spirit is consumed, but by the dissipated idlers so numerous in old Muhammadan cities, and by the dissolute Dosádh and Chamár. The higher class of Muhammadans, who do indulge in the forbidden luxury, prefer English beer, brandy, or one of the strong liqueurs. Young Bengal fancies champagne, port wine, or brandy, much of which is undoubtedly manufactured by enterprising Babús in the back slums of Calcutta.

[1] Bákhar is prepared with Atub rice steeped in water and strained. To this is added ginger, pepper, and the leaves of divers jungle plants, which grow on the hills of Tipperah. It is than made like the spongy cake Batásá and dried in the sun. *See* Buchanan's "Eastern India," vol. iii, ch. 2.

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Natives point to the existence of these licensed distillers as the cause of the increased indulgence in spirits of the present day, but they overlook the fact that there are causes at work, throughout the length and breadth of the land, such as education and facility of locomotion, which are revolutionising the faiths, thoughts, and habits of the people, and which must be regarded as the temporary causes of the moral decadence of their countrymen generally, and of residents of towns in particular. Under the Muhammadan Government a special officer, the "Muhtasib," was employed to take cognizance of drunkenness, and of the vending of spirituous liquors and intoxicating drugs, but he never succeeded in putting a stop to drinking, which was always a venial offence in the eyes of the Mughals.

KASÁÍ.

Muhammad butchers are subdivided into Bakrí-Kasáí, or goat killers, and Goru-Kasáí, or cow killers. The latter were formerly regarded as a degraded race, but of late years the two classes have united and freely intermarry. They are all followers of Maulaví Karámat 'Alí, and are very bigoted, eating with the Kúṭí, but refusing to sit down with the sweeper, Kichak, or Bediyá. Their only title is Mihtar; and their headman, or Sardár, has under him a Náib or A'mín.

Before slaughtering an animal the butcher repeats three times "Bismillah Allah Akbar," and, if uttered with proper reverence, he is exonerated from the guilt of shedding blood. The Kasáí will not skin an animal which has died from natural causes, this he leaves to the Rishí; and in inland villages he trades in skins, there being little demand for animal food. In towns they cure skins, and sell them to the Chamṛa-farosh; fat they clean and give to the soap-makers; horn to the comb-makers; and sinews (paṛhí) to the Rishí and Dhuniyá for strings of musical instruments and carding machines.

The female members of Kasáí families not being allowed out of doors are famous needle women, and earn money by embroidering muslin.

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KATHAK, KATHAKA.

This, the Sanskrit name for a singer or reader, of the Puránas, is usually applied to a musician, of any creed or caste, who plays on the violin (Sárangí). A Chhetrí Kathak of Dacca goes about with a band of Muhammadan dancing boys (Bhagtiyá), but none of his class will condescend to play an accompaniment to Muhammadan dancing girls (Báí).

KHWÁND-KÁR.

The Khwánd-Kár is a teacher, or reader, in the Persian language, but in Eastern Bengal he performs for the lower classes divers abnormal duties, originating in the corrupt and Hinduized Muhammadanism of India. He is often styled the Murshíd, or religious guide, and Akhúnd, or tutor. As a rule he is very illiterate and only able to read Arabic with difficulty, but he makes much of this smattering of knowledge. Thirty years ago they were important individuals, their services being in great demand, but the reformed teaching of modern times has been gradually undermining this influence, and they are now little respected, and seldom consulted. During the early years of this century, when Islám in Bengal was still paralyzed by the revolution that had occurred, the Khwánd-Kárs educated boys, instructing them in the rudiments of their religion. At the present day, however, Munshís generally teach children, although a Khwánd-Kár is often preferred by strict Muhammadans to instruct their children in the doctrines of the faith, and teach them the "Kalma," or confession of faith

This preceptor, moreover, makes Muríds, or disciples, exorcises persons possessed of devils, and cures diseases by preparing charms (ta'wíz); while many families consult him on all occasions of sickness; and his ability to relieve suffering is never for a moment questioned by women. Should a child be attacked by a fever, or convulsions, the father goes to the Khwánd-Kár and obtains a charm, usually consisting of a sentence of the Korán scribbled on a piece of paper, which is fastened to the child's hair, or arm, or the Khwánd-Kár mumbling a few sentences from the same book, blows into a cup of water and gives it to the father as a medicinal draught. Parents put implicit faith in the efficacy of these charms, and every Muhammadan can relate wonderful cures effected by

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them. It is said that if an adult, disabled by a neuralgic or rheumatic pain, drinks water in which the written charm of a Khwánd-Kár has been dipped, immediate relief is procured, and no native will deny the possibility of this occurring.

Of old, in the city of Sunárgaon resided a celebrated family of Khwánd-Kárs who were often Faqírs, and whose power ('Amal) over spirits and París was unequalled, but nowadays their descendants have fallen into deserved contempt, because when summoned, the spirits no longer appear.

KOFT-GAR.

The art of inlaying gold, or silver, on iron is gradually becoming extinct, and instead of twenty houses as formerly, the city of Dacca at the present day only possesses two or three families, all of whom are natives of Laskarpúr in Silhet. In former days their ornamented shields and sword-hilts were greatly admired; but now, with an amalgam of silver and mercury they inlay pipes, perfume-boxes ('Atardán), and Pándáns which are commended by natives.

KOLÚ.

This is a very prosperous trade in Eastern Bengal, and in parts of the country the Kolús form large village communities.

The Kolú is the Muhammadan, Telí the Hindu, oilman. Of late years, however, Kolús who have become affluent, and able to keep servants to work for them, have assumed the name of Telí, and are gradually withdrawing from their brethren who labour with their own hands. The Kolú belongs to a very low class, being unable to marry out of his own set. He is narrow-minded, a bigoted Farazí, and a despiser of all classes who follow the practices of their forefathers. In the city of Dacca their headman is called Parámánik, and the only honorary titles among them are Chaudharí and Bepárí.

In Mymensingh there is a class of Kolús known as "Búk-Kolús," who, instead of employing cattle, turn the mill themselves, and are popularly believed to harness their shrewish wives to the mill, whenever they turn restive.

The Kolú manufactures oil from all kinds of seed, but will only express it in the "Kolhu," or oil mill. He feeds his cattle

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with the refuse, but the refuse of mustard seed (Khalí) is sold to the Baráí for manure, while that of Til (Sesamum) is valuable for sugar-cane fields.

The Kolú also prepares cocoa-nut oil with the kernels purchased from the Chuṭkí.

KUNDAKAR.

This is the Bengali term for a turner, and is used in Dacca instead of the Arabic "Kharrát" to designate workers in horn, or horners, who are always Muhammadans, though not forming a separate qaum or class. They despise and will not intermarry with the Kasáí, or Kúṭí subdivision.

These workmen soften the horns of cattle and buffaloes by fire, and then flatten them beneath heavy weights; but ivory and deers' horns are sawn into the requisite shape without any preparation. The Kundakar manufactures combs, which in Hindustan is the trade of the Mochí, pegs for pattens, small boxes (Ḍibiyás) for storing medicines, and nicknacks of various kinds.

KUNJRÁ.

This is the correct name for a Muhammadan fruiterer, but in Dacca it is used as a term of abuse, and the fruit sellers call themselves Mewá-farosh, Sabzí-farosh, or simply Bepárí. They import fruits from other districts, oranges from Silhet, mangoes from Maldah, and sell citrons, limes, and plantains, but never vegetables. The Hindu Kunjṛá, who may belong to any low Ṣúdra caste, deals in vegetables and fruits grown in the suburbs of the city.

The real Mewá-farosh, however, is the wandering Kábulí trader, who penetrates into the most remote corners of Bengal, and offers for sale grapes, apples, pomegranates, pistachio nuts, and occasionally the luscious musk melon (Sardá).

Fruit grown in Eastern Bengal is very inferior to that of Hindustan. The plantains, especially the richly flavoured "Amṛita ságar," are, however, unsurpassed by those of any other country. Mangoes still suffer from the curse of a holy man, and no one is able to prevent their being tunnelled through and through by a small weevil.

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The insipid Makhánna (*Euryale ferox*), dry, tasteless melons, and sour plums, are eaten in enormous quantities by the lower classes.

KÚṬÍ.

This subdivision of Muhammadans derive their name from the Hindustani verb "Kúṭna," to pound, or beat. They are regarded as a most degraded class, it being the popular belief that a few generations ago they seceded and joined the ranks of Islám, while, like all new converts, they are most intolerant, assuming to be stricter and more orthodox than their neighbours, and, regarding the European with suspicion, if not hatred, they rarely salaam as he passes. They are either followers of Dúdhú Míyán, or of Maulaví Karámat 'Alí, and, although punctilious in their religious duties out of doors, cling to many Hindu superstitions. In October they worship the Dhenkí used for husking grain, at the same time making offerings to Lakshmí, the goddess of plenty, and every morning bowing thrice before it; while nothing, according to them, is more ominous of evil than for a stranger to sit down, or rest his foot on it. When smallpox attacks their families the Sítala púja is observed, the same offerings being made to the goddess as among Hindus.

This large subdivision has separated into three classes, who intermarry and hold social intercourse with each other, being named:

Pánw Kúṭí.
Háth Kúṭí.
Chuṭkí Kúṭí.

The Pánw Kúṭí, by far the most numerous, work at any trade, discharging in villages even the menial duty of scavengering. They are masons, thatchers, goldsmiths, boatmen, water-carriers, but their principal occupation is husking rice. Bepárí is their ordinary title, while those who are expert at weighing grain are called "Kayyál," a name identical with the Dándí-dár, or weighman, of the Commissariat department.

The wives of the Kúṭí alone among Mussulmán women appear unveiled in public, making purchases in the Bazár, fetching water from the river, and boiling and husking rice in the open air. Among the richer families the women are expert workers of Kashída cloth, and often take service as wet nurses.

No respectable Muhammadan will marry, eat, or associate with the Kúṭí, although they are admitted into the public Mosques, and buried in the public graveyard.

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The Pánw Kúṭí have a Panchá́it of their own, like any Hindu caste, and a headman called Sardár.

The Háth Kúṭí, again, pounds bricks for road metal with an iron pestle or mallet, and makes "Surkhí" for mortar. This subdivision is a small one, and is being gradually absorbed by the first.

According to Buchanan, the Chuṭkí probably derived the name from carrying about samples, or a pinch (chuṭkí), of rice to show the quality of the whole, and as all Kúṭís deal in rice the designation was applied to them collectively. At the present day, however, the usual occupation of the Chuṭkí is extracting the kernel of the cocoa-nut for the manufacture of oil, and polishing the shells for smoking purposes. Cocoa-nuts arrive in Dacca without their husks, which are exported by the growers to Calcutta for making coir ropes and mats. The common varieties of the nut are Jahází, the most highly prized, imported into Calcutta from the south of India; Kanchanpária from Noacolly; and Desí, or Bháṭhiyárí from Báqirganj. In the jungles of Bhowál a peculiar nut of a reddish colour, known as Sharmaniya, highly valued for its shape, is found.

A cocoa-nut tapering like a flower bud, hence called Kalí, is preferred by all natives for smoking through, and one symmetrically formed will often fetch as much as sixteen rupees. The Chuṭkí are, however, very cunning workmen, and by judicious paring often transform an ill-shapen nut into a shapely one, but the thinness of the shell can be easily detected by the experienced buyer.

It is not improbable that the great Kúṭí subdivision of to-day is an offshoot of the Chaṇḍál race, and it is a remarkable fact that Kúṭís and Chaṇḍáls annually compete in boat races on the popular Shashṭhí Púja, a circumstance which would account for their low rank among Muhammadans.

LAKAṚ-HÁRA. LAKṚI-WÁLÁH.

The men engaged in this trade are usually Kúṭí Muhammadans, who advance money to woodcutters, generally Chaṇḍáls, for the supply of firewood, which is brought into Dacca from the jungles of Bhowál. Timber dealers, or Mahájans, are quite distinct, being traders who engage men to proceed to the Morang, or Tarái, for logs of wood, and on its arrival sell it to carpenters and boat builders.

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LOHÁR.

The Muhammadan blacksmith combines the trade of the carpenter and gunsmith, making gun stocks and locks, but importing the barrels from Mungír, the Birmingham of Eastern India.

He is generally licensed to sell powder and shot, the latter being made by himself in a very primitive manner. Lead is beaten into a rod of the requisite thickness, pieces are then cut off and rolled on a stone, until they assume a spherical form.

MADAD-WÁLAH.

Madad was prepared and sold by Muhammadans long before Chandú was known; but at the present day the Chandú-Wálah, who is expert in preparing opium in all forms, is the only person who makes and retails it.

Madad is prepared as follows. Crude opium is boiled in a pan into which one end of a hempen wisp is put, while the other is dropped into an empty pot. The boiling liquid is then gradually strained off, the hemp retaining all sedimentary matters. It is afterwards allowed to cool, and reboiled, when Pân leaves moistened and made crisp by a dry heat are thrown in fine pieces into the decoction. By means of two sticks the chopped leaves are thoroughly mixed with the opium, and as the liquid congeals each fragment of leaf has a small quantity of opium adherring to it, which being removed and made into balls the size of small bullets, are wrapped in fine paper and sold for one paisa each.

The method of smoking Madad is quite different from that of Chandú. The smoker puts a ball into a broken pipe bowl, and with a pair of bamboo pincers applies live charcoal, while, as the opium burns, he rapidly inhales the smoke. To prevent his losing any of the effects, the inveterate smoker keeps in his mouth a sweetmeat, or a pith drop soaked in syrup. After taking two or three pipes of Madad the seasoned smoker indulges in a pipe of tobacco, by so doing heightening and prolonging the reverie.

Shops for the sale and smoking of Madad are to be met with in all the villages of the interior; but in the city of Dacca its use is confined to private houses.

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MÁHÍ-FAROSH.

Muhammadan fishmongers are also calied Nikarí, a word of doubtful origin.[1]

Excepting in Silhet, no Mussulmán of Eastern Bengal earns a livelihood as a fisherman. This prejudice appears to be general throughout the Muhammadan world. Burckhardt does mention Bedouin fishermen on the coast of the Red Sea, but at Constantinople the fishermen are poor Bulgarians, while the farmer of the fishery is always a Turk. In Sindh, the Mohana, a fisher tribe, though now Muhammadan, was formerly a vile Hindu one.

In Hindustan, a Mussulmán may often be seen angling, or throwing a casting net, but the fish caught are for home use, and are never sold. This objection, in India at least, seems to be of Buddhist origin, and all fisher castes are still regarded as belonging to one of the lowest grades of humanity, being generally remnants of aboriginal, or outcast, tribes who lived separate from, and stranger to, the Aryan population around them. There is, therefore, little doubt that the Máhí-farosh of to-day represents a Hindu fisher caste converted to Islám.

The Máhí-farosh division is a very exclusive one, and in the city of Dacca includes only about eighty families, who intermarry among themselves, and shut out from social intercourse any member who marries into another class. This in-breeding probably explains the fact that they are yearly decreasing, and now number only an eighth of what they formerly did. The name Nikarí, regarded as an opprobrious one, is generally applied to the Kaibartta fishmonger. Of old, the Máhí-farosh farmed the river fisheries, but this being found unremunerative, they, nowadays, occasionally make advances to the fishermen, but the rule is to pay for large fish when brought to market, and for small ones every ten or fifteen days, at so much a basket.

The Máhí-farosh have no objections to pray with, to eat or drink in the houses of all other Muhammadan citizens, but they are seldom given an opportunity. In each quarter of the city where they reside, a headman or Mu'tabar governs, and an Union or *dal*, presided over by a Parámánik, is established.

The Máhí-farosh, moreover, is often a fish curer. During the cold weather, traders of this name from Húglí visit Eastern Bengal, and lease a piece of land on the bank of a river, where they dry fish in the sun. Fish, generally the "Potí" (*Cyprinus Chyssoparcius*), are bought from the Tíyars at the rate of two

[1] Perhaps Sanskrit Nikara, a heap or pile.

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and a half creels a rupee. The fish are spread on the bank, protected by nets from the kites and crows, and after being exposed from ten to fifteen days "until the oil disappears," are shipped on board boats, and considered fit for use. In private houses, the *sukhtí*, or dried fish, as it is called, is either sprinkled with salt, or packed in an earthen vessel, and during the rains, when fish are dear, this unsavoury mess, after being roasted and pounded, is mixed with onions, chillies, pepper and oil, and called *bartá*, a favourite relish when eaten with curry.

The large kinds of fish, such as "bhikṭhí," "rohú" and "hilsa," after being cleaned and sliced are salted and dried under pressure.

MAHOUT, MAHÁWAT.

The Mahout, or elephant keeper, also known by the Persian name Fíl-bán, is in most instances a Muhammadan. During the wars of Sabuktigín in the tenth century of our era, Mahouts were always Hindus; and at the present day a few borne on the establishments of Hindu Zamíndárs are Chaṇḍáls. It is stated by a great authority,[1] that Mahouts are now almost invariably Sayyids, or if not Sayyids are addressed as such. At Dacca, however, where the government Khedáh establishment has been stationed for many years, Mahouts never claim to have Sayyid blood, and are never accosetd by that honoured title. On the contrary, they are of low plebeian families, and their hard and venturesome lives are passed in reckless dissipation and in excessive indulgence in opium, Gánjha, and spirits. The ordinary titles among them are Jamádár and Sardár.

Dacca Mahouts never heard of giving elephants "certain drugs mixed up with the wax of the human ear"[2] to make them quarrelsome and pugnacious; but they state that if an issue be made over each temple and a clove inserted, this effect is produced.

MÁLÍ.

Muhammadan gardeners are numerous in Dacca, being engaged in cultivating flowering plants and selling them in the markets. They look down on kitchen gardeners, and would fall in social estimation if they adopted that occupation. These

[1] "History of India," Sir H. Elliot, vol. ii, 143.
[2] "Mrs. Mír Hasan 'Alí," vol. ii, 30.

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florists confine their attention to growing various kinds of Jasmine (júhí, chambelí and belá); cockscombs (jatá-dharí); marigolds (gendá), and roses. The Hibiscus, regarded by Hindus as an unlucky flower, is, according to Muhammadans, enchanted, and if placed in a room, or offered to any one, the offence is resented as an attempt to bewitch and injure the individual.

The Málí prepare the different kinds of garlands (sihrá) and chaplets worn by Mussulmán ladies, who may be seen in the recesses of the Zanánah with their arms, necks, bodies, and even ankles bedecked with wreaths of fragrant flowers; while gentlemen usually have a nosegay of Jasmine encircling the mouthpiece and stem of their pipes.

Like the Hindu Málákárs, the Málí manufactures pith pendants (jara), with which, at certain seasons, houses, shops, boats, and the tombs of holy men are adorned.

MÍRÁṢAN.

These women occupy in Bengal the same position as the Domní do in Hindustan. They are generally poor Muhammadan widows, who sing in Zanánas to the accompaniment of a drum and cymbals, and often dress in character, but never dance. They are said to be respectable in their lives, and are in great request among the higher ranks of native society.

In Eastern Bengal the husbands and male relatives of these women are never met with. In different parts of India, Mirásí is used as a synonym for Dôm, and it is probable that these Muhammadan women are representatives of one of the sweeper, or helot, races converted to Islám.

MÍSÍ-WÁLÁH.

This Muhammadan shopkeeper makes and sells dentifrices and dyes for the teeth. To stain the teeth being considered by Bengali men an effeminate habit, is as provocative of banter as dyeing the hair is among middle-aged men in Europe; but Hindu and Muhammadan women generally practise it, as in their eyes well blackened teeth add a beauty to the expression. The ordinary dye is prepared with gall-nut, iron filings, sulphate of iron, myrobalan (harrá) and sappan wood (tái), magenta powder being generally added instead of red ochre as formerly.

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The Mísí-wálí, who sells dyes in Zanánas and private houses, has the reputation, like the Chúrí wálí, of being a great intriguante, and many marriages and illicit loves are traced to her.

Dentifrices (manjan) are also retailed by the Mísí-wálah, those in common use consisting of charred almond shells, camphor, and aromatics; while by others charred betle nut, or the powdered charcoal that forms in the interior of the tobacco pipe, is preferred.

In the shop is also sold the collyrium (surma) made from an ore of lead in universal use throughout the East for tingeing the eyelids. Muhammadan females invariably apply it, while Muhammadan as well as Hindu males use it to strengthen the eyes. In every house there is a Surma-dán made of china, stone, or wood, in which the collyrium is stored, resembling in shape an air-tight capped bottle for gum, and containing instead of a brush a leaden probe (siláí) for smearing the eye salve along the edges of the eyelids.

Hindu females, however, prefer "Kajjal," or lamp black, each house having its Kajlautí, or iron snuffers-shaped vessel for preparing it. A wick of Ajwáin (Ligusticum Ajowan) put into a vessel of oil is lighted, while the Kajlautí being held above the flame, soot is deposited, and being collected is applied to the eyelids with the finger.

MUÇAWWIR.

Portrait painting has never reached even a tolerable state of excellence in India. By strict Muhammadans it is considered sinful to sit for, or portray, a likeness. Copyists, who have acquired a wonderful skill in transferring to ivory the lineaments of a photograph, or an oil painting, are to be found in Delhi and other cities, but to paint from life is a talent rarely met with. In Dacca there is a Muhammadan family, who by birth are painters, but their pictures, wanting in animation and individuality, bear nevertheless a fair but formal likeness of the person delineated.

MULLÁ.

The Mullá, more generally known by the less pretentious title of Tálib-ul-'ilm, or the searcher after knowledge, either resides in a Mosque supported by the inhabitants around, or

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lodges in the house of some respectable Muhammadan. He teaches boys the Arabic alphabet, and, when this is mastered, the Âm-sipára, or last of the thirty sections of the Korán; the pupil having advanced thus far has the Korán recited, but seldom explained, as the teacher's knowledge of Arabic is superficial, and for doing this the Mullá receives from four to eight anas a month from each pupil. When he resides in a Mosque the Mullá proclaims the Azán, or summons to prayer; and occasionally leads the public service in the absence of the Farazí Maulaví, who usually officiates. In former times the Mullá was engaged as the Qárí, or reader of the Fátiha over the graves of deceased relatives; but of late this practice has been dying out.

When a Mullá is a man of ability, and has mastered Muhammadan science and philosophy, he is known as "Maulánáh." In the city of Dacca there are two celebrated philosophers who instruct youths gratis, receiving, however, presents at the great yearly festivals. The one, Mauláná-ud-dín Muhammad, resides in a Mosque and is deeply read in logic and philosophy; the other, Mauláná Na'man, is a bookseller distinguished for his profound knowledge of sciences.

MUNSHÍ.

The Munshí is a teacher of languages instructing boys in Arabic, Persian, and Hindustaní. When a boy has completed his studies with a Mullá, he joins a class taught by a Munshí, and pays from one to two rupees a month.

The works ordinarily read in the vernacular classes of Eastern Bengal are the following:—

Sháh-námah of Firdausí.
Pandnámah or Karímá, Gulistán .. .., Bostán .. .. } of Sa'dí.
Mahábat-námah of Jámí.
Sikandar-námah of Nizámí Ganjarwání.
Bahár-dánish of Munshí Ináyatullah of Dilhi.
Anwár-i-Suhailí (Pilpay's fables) by Husain Vaiz Káshifí.
Maktúbát-i-'Allámí, or 'Allámí of Abúlfazl.
Riq'at Alamgírí.

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MURGHÍ-WÁLÁH, MURGH-BÁN.

All Muhammadans keep domestic fowls, but no Hindu, unless of the very lowest caste, will do so. The Murghí-wálah buys fowls, geese, and ducks at village fairs, and, when fattened, sells them in the towns. Muhammadans, again, are the only natives who make capons (Khaçiyá), hence the Hindus nickname such persons Más-Káṭa, flesh-cutters, a name also applied to the Hajjám.

NAICHA-BAND.

The makers of huqqá snakes carry on one of the busiest and most paying occupations of the present day, there being about a hundred houses of them in the city of Dacca alone.

The common "naicha" used by four-fifths of the population comes ready made from Silhet, whence most of the Naicha-bands also come. The woods used in their manufacture are Sisú, Jám, Járral, and Semal. The wood is hollowed by means of a long iron borer, then fixed in a lathe and turned. The rich often have pipe stems made of ebony (Ábnús).

Naichas, or snakes, are of different shapes. The most common are the Pechwán, or twisted; the Ḍeṛh-kham with one and a-half turns, the Sattar-kham with many coils; and the Kohní-dár with a joint in the middle.

A naicha is made as follows: Where the bends are a spiral, zinc wire is introduced and strengthened by iron bands, or by splinters of bamboo. If the snake is for a rich person, fine birch bark, Bhúrja-pattra (Betula bhurja), is bound over this; if for a poor man, a leaf known as "Kínaj-pattá," imported from Silhet, is used instead. Common red cloth (sálú), or variegated strips of cloth, are wound round the tube according to the fancy of the buyer.

Naichas often get names from the materials of which they are made, some smokers fancying "Kus-kus" on the outside of the tube, which, being moistened, cools the smoke as it is inhaled. Others have the snake ornamented with beads, silver wire, or precious stones.

The common wooden naicha costs from two to three anas, while that bound with kus-kus fetches from two to three rupees, and those with gold or silver from ten to twenty rupees.

In Eastern Bengal the different parts of the Huqqá are the Gurgurí or Fársiya, made of silver, Bidrí, or glass, for holding the rosewater; the Suráhí, which passes into the rosewater and has

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its end cut slantingly; and the gaṭṭá, or knob, where the naicha, or khama, joins. At this joint a plate of zinc with two holes in it is so fastened as to prevent the issue of smoke. The Munh-nál, or mouthpiece, is as a rule made of silver.[1] On the top of the Suráhí is placed the "'Araq-dán" to catch the tobacco juice; while above this is the Chilam, or pipe bowl, with its ornamented filagree cover, or sarposh.

The profession of a Naicha-band is a most respected one, and is esteemed as equal to that of the Rangrez, and it often happens that one member of a family is a dyer, while another is a huqqá snake maker.

NÁL-BAND.

The Hindu Kamár is the maker of horse shoes, the Muhammadan Nál-band is the farrier, paring the horse's hoofs, and fastening on the shoes.

Nál-bands know nothing of the veterinary art, and the only persons, who pretend to any skill in treating diseases of horses, are superannuated coachmen and syces. The Sálotar, or Baiṭar, was a recognized member of the military establishment under the Muhammadan kings, and several works, famous in their day, were written on veterinary medicine, but none are in use at present in Bengal.

NÁN-BAÍ, ROṬI-WÁLAH.

These are different descriptions of Muhammadan bakers; the former being also a pastry-cook.

The Nán-báí uses leaven (máya) prepared with Tayir,[2] acidulated milk, to which cocoa-nut milk, wheat flour, and spices are added. These ingredients being well kneaded are wrapped in a cloth, and kept in a warm place till required. He bakes several kinds of bread, such as Báqir-Khání, Shír-mál, Panja-Kash, and Nán-Khaṭáí; and makes Kulícha, or scones, Paráṭha, an indigestible piecrust, and, of late years, English biscuits.

The Nán-bái is also a cook providing for dinner parties at

[1] In Upper India the mouthpiece is often made of jade or bloodstone.

[2] Tayir is Tamil for curds, and, according to Dr. Caldwell, belongs to the West Indo-European family of words. How comes it to be in general use in Eastern Bengal? Was it like Tope, a grove of trees, and Topas, a native Christian, introduced from Madras by the English?

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his shop, or house, and his bill of fare includes a delicious, richly-flavoured curry, Kofta, or pounded meat, roasts, and puláos. Afgháns, and other travellers, obtain their meals at his shop for so much a head; but the dinner is *à la carte*. He often, too, lets lodgings to those who prefer a quiet room to a noisy, dirty inn.

Taking him for all in all there is no more jovial and entertaining character than the baker, the barber being his only rival. The former naturally finds it easier to secure popularity by ministering to the creature comforts of his customers than the latter, who only has to depend on his ready wit, and conversational talent, for causing his clients to forget the blunt edge of his razor.

The Rotí-wálah, again, makes bread according to the English method, his ferment being toddy (Táṛi), and from using this unholy liquor his bread is not in so much request as the badly baked and doughy article prepared by the Nán-báí. The oven of the Roti-wálah is always above ground, while that of the Nán-báí is either sunk beneath the surface or covered over with mud. English bread is known as Páo-roṭí, as each loaf weighs half a pound, or a quarter (páo) of a Sér.

The Roṭí-wálah also makes Samosa, a three-cornered pâté, or pasty, of minced meat, as well as the piecrust seen on many European tables.

With the exception of pork and the flesh of turtles, Muhammadans eat all manner of meat, properly killed. It is cooked by the Nán-báí in the following ways:—

Kabábi—plain roast.

Koftá—hashed or pounded, and fried in Ghí.

Qaliyá—broiled, and served up with curry (Sálan) and vegetables.

Qormá—soaked in curds, and cooked with Ghí and hot spices.

Do-piyáza—a stew or curry, made with Ghí, onions, and rich spices.

NARDIYÁ.

In Bihár this workman is known as "Párcha-Kash." When muslin has been washed and calendered by the Kundígar, it is sent to the Muhammadan Ñardiyá, who, with a comb made of rattan thorns, arranges and disentangles the threads. He then winds the web on a bamboo reel (Nard), and subsequently unrolling and folding the cloth despatches it to the Ṣankha-wálah, also a Muhammadan, and generally a Kúṭí, who places it on a flat board and glazes it by friction with a chank shell.

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NÍLGAR.

This profession, quite distinct from that of the Rangrez, is followed by a low class of Muhammadans, and in Dacca only three or four families of them are to be met with.

Indigo is the only dye they use, and after pounding the colour very fine, it is dissolved in water in a large earthen vessel (Matká) half sunk in the ground. Lime, fuller's earth, and the seeds of a leguminous plant, called "Chokar," bought from the Chamáín women, are added. This lye, on standing, ferments, and the dye is then ready for use. The Nílgar dyes cloth and thread, and so long as any colour remains in the vat, goes on using the liquid, regardless of the shade of blue imparted.

There is a well known proverb in India, employed to express the fickleness of fortune which is derived from this trade: "Níl ka máth bigar giya," literally, "The Indigo vat has been spoiled." The Nílgar believes that when dye has been accidentally damaged, he has only to tell some miraculous, or incredible, story and it will be rectified. So, whenever a Munchausen tells a story, this proverb is repeated by the listener to politely express doubts of its truth.

OJHÁ.

As the Roman haruspex was named from his examining the entrails of the victim, so the Indian diviner is called from his inspecting the "Ojh" or entrails of his sacrifice. At the present day, however, they have discontinued this art, and each man adopts that system which is most likely to gull the populace.

If a Muhammadan, he is known as Dú atí; if a Hindu, as Ojhá, Rojhá, or Gúnin.

No two wizards follow the same tactics. One possesses a root by which he can fascinate snakes, or protect from snake bites; another has a secret spell or charm to cure ophthalmia or headache; a third has a philter; while a fourth has an amulet of universal virtue.

The most celebrated wizard in Dacca at the present day is a Dôm, who has become a Muhammadan, called Bábú Khán. An Ojhá may belong to any caste, and he will not be less valued if he is a Dôm, or a sweeper.

This Bábú Khán derived his knowledge from a Faqír. He has met with so much success, and has acquired so great a name, that he has educated several pupils in his art. Being able to read and write a little Arabic, he has the reputation of being a profound scholar in all that concerns the black art.

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